When Does Crime Enter House Prices? Evidence from Chicago

Nency Dhameja[*†]

November 2026

Click here for the latest version

Abstract

I estimate how crime affects house prices in Chicago. Although homebuyers presumably care about crime, only four of twenty-two offenses (homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism) consistently lower sale prices. I argue that limited information may help explain this pattern: crime affects prices only if buyers learn of an incident, revise their expectations about future exposure, and value avoiding that exposure. Three findings are consistent with this interpretation. First, price effects of crime are hyperlocal even though the predictability of crime is not. Second, the effects are more pronounced when real estate agents have more local experience. Third, price effects vary with incident visibility; for instance, burglary discounts are concentrated among porch incidents rather than those inside the home. These patterns suggest that buyers' awareness of nearby incidents matters for which crimes affect house prices.

JEL classification: R31, K42, D83, L85

Keywords: Crime; repeat sales; housing prices; neighborhood amenities; information frictions; real estate agents; hedonic pricing.

1 Introduction

A home is both most homeowners' largest asset and an important consumption good. Neighborhood crime threatens both dimensions: it undermines the safety of the environment in which families live and may reduce the value of the asset they hold. In a 2025 Redfin survey, prospective homebuyers named personal safety and a low crime rate as must-haves more often than any other feature.[1]

Households place substantial value on crime prevention: survey responses imply an aggregate willingness to pay of about $25,000 per burglary prevented and $232,000 per armed robbery prevented (Cohen et al., 2004). House prices offer another way to estimate the value of safety. In

[*]Binghamton University, New York. Email: ndhamej1@binghamton.edu

[†]I am deeply indebted to David Slichter for his guidance, insightful feedback, and continued support. I am grateful to Solomon Polachek, Andreas Pape, Christopher Hanes, and Ivan Korolev for discussions and valuable suggestions.

[1]A 2025 Redfin/Ipsos survey of 1,224 prospective homebuyers finds that personal safety (78%) and a low crime rate (74%) are the two features most often rated "must-haves" among eighteen home and neighborhood features (Anderson, 2025).

hedonic pricing, a home's price reflects both its characteristics, such as lot size, and its location: local amenities, such as good schools, increase prices, while disamenities, such as noise and pollution, lower them (Rosen, 1974). Economists often use the effects of crime on house prices to estimate buyers' marginal willingness to pay for safety (Thaler, 1978; Gibbons, 2004). Whether prices reflect nearby crime therefore matters for policy. If some crime-related costs are not reflected in prices, valuations based on housing markets may miss part of the benefits of crime reduction: the absence of a price discount does not imply the absence of a cost.

Evidence on how crime affects home prices, however, varies across offenses and studies. In Sydney, homes within 0.2 miles of a murder sell for 3.9 percent less during the following year (Klimova and Lee, 2014). In London, criminal damage lowers house prices, while burglary has no measurable effect (Gibbons, 2004). In England and Wales more broadly, violent crime and antisocial behavior on a home's street lower prices, while estimates for burglary, robbery, and vehicle crime are zero or positive, and crime outside the street does not appear to matter (Braakmann, 2017). In Stockholm, by contrast, burglary, vandalism, robbery, and violence each lower apartment prices, while total crime does not (Ceccato and Wilhelmsson, 2011). In Miami, only robbery and aggravated assault among seven crime types affect neighborhood house values (Ihlanfeldt and Mayock, 2010). Most studies examine a single offense or event (Linden and Rockoff, 2008; Pope, 2008a; Wentland et al., 2014; Tang and Le, 2023; Gautier et al., 2009; Besley and Mueller, 2012; Ajzenman et al., 2015) or broad groups such as violent or property crime (Thaler, 1978; Rizzo, 1979; Lynch and Rasmussen, 2001; Tita et al., 2006; Buonanno et al., 2013). Few studies compare many offenses under a common design or trace the market response to crime for the same property from listing to sale.

In this paper, I study which crimes affect house prices, why some do and others do not, and how crime affects whether and how quickly homes sell. I provide evidence that limited information may prevent nearby crime from being fully reflected in house prices, potentially causing price-based estimates to understate how much homebuyers value safety. I find that only four of twenty-two offenses consistently lower sale prices, and some offenses affect asking prices and whether a transaction proceeds without a detectable closing-price discount. Three findings suggest that the observability of crime matters: (1) price effects are hyperlocal, even though crime a few blocks away predicts future crime near the property; (2) for a given category of offense, incidents more likely to be visible tend to carry larger discounts; and (3) price effects are more pronounced when agents have more local experience. These patterns are consistent with Gibbons's (2003, p. 28) conjecture that "hard-to-observe crimes will have a weak impact on property prices."

Using data from Chicago, I link 530,395 single-family, condominium, and residential-income transactions on 337,461 properties from the Chicago Multiple Listing Service, spanning 2007 to 2025, to 5.59 million geocoded crime incidents, analyzing twenty-two offense categories. For each sale, I count incidents of each offense within distance rings around the property in the one to twelve months before the sale. The listing data track properties from initial listing to sale or withdrawal, so I observe the asking price, the final sale price, time on market, and withdrawals.

To estimate the causal effects of crime on house prices, I use a spatial difference-in-differences design with continuous treatment. I compare the same property across sales (parcel fixed effects), relative to other sales in its census tract in the same month (tract-by-month fixed effects). Tract-by-month fixed effects absorb neighborhood shocks such as local price trends. I ask whether the sale price changes when more crime occurs nearby before the sale. Additionally, I contrast crime within 0.05 miles of the property (roughly the same block) with crime in a comparison ring 0.20–0.30 miles away; nonparametric distance profiles motivate these bands (Section 4), and the estimates are similar when the comparison ring is moved farther out or omitted (Table A6). I apply this design to all twenty-two offenses and assess its validity using post-sale crime placebos, since subsequent incidents cannot causally affect a price already set.

I find that sale-price discounts appear across multiple exposure windows for four offenses: homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism. Homicide has the largest estimated discount, about 3 percent per victim; the other three range from 0.17 to 0.29 percent per incident. Disorderly conduct and sex offenses are significant only at one long-horizon window, while theft, motor-vehicle theft, assault, and robbery have no detectable discount. The pattern does not simply track offense severity or frequency. The estimates remain stable with controls for changing neighborhood and housing-market conditions, and inference is robust to Conley (1999) spatial standard errors.

Why, then, are price effects concentrated in particular offenses when buyers are presumably averse to crime in general? A simple framework helps us think about this question. For an incident to affect the house price, three conditions must hold: (a) buyers must learn of the incident; (b) learning of it must raise their expectation of future crime at the property; and (c) buyers must be willing to pay to avert that crime at the property. The first condition concerns whether information arrives, the condition Gibbons (2003) conjectures explains why hard-to-observe crimes have weak price effects; the second, what it implies about future crime; and the third, what avoiding that crime is worth: a buyer without a car who observes a car stolen from the curb may expect more car thefts on the block and still pay no less for the house.

Three patterns inform this interpretation. The first concerns how buyers use crime information. Price effects are hyperlocal, whereas the predictive content of crime extends beyond the immediate vicinity of the property. Crime a few blocks away predicts future crime near the property for nearly every offense, yet it does not lower prices. Nor do discounts rise with how well an offense predicts its own recurrence: the most predictable offense carries a small discount (narcotics), and an offense more predictable than burglary carries none (non-domestic assault). The second concerns observability. For the same offense, incidents at a home's frontage lower prices, while incidents inside the dwelling do not (burglary and narcotics; Table 3). Discounts are significant for incidents on the street but not at residential addresses, although the street–residential difference is significant only for homicide at twelve months (homicide and narcotics; Table A7).[2] Third, I examine whether agents' experience within the property's census tract is associated with price responses to nearby

[2]Among the twelve offense categories examined, homicide receives the most news coverage per recorded incident in the Media Cloud measure, roughly twenty times that of arson, the next-highest (Section 7). Incidents in public space are more widely observed, although I do not measure coverage by incident location.

crime. Controlling for total experience, asking-price responses are stronger for several offenses when listing agents have more tract experience. Closing-price patterns are mixed: buyers' agents' tract experience is associated with larger discounts for disorderly conduct under parcel fixed effects but higher prices near arson. Since agents are not randomly assigned to transactions, these relationships are descriptive.

A second set of results shows that crime affects how sellers price homes and whether transactions proceed, even when no closing-price discount is detectable. Asking prices, price cuts, and listing withdrawals respond to crime, with different responses across offenses. Differences in what buyers and sellers observe may help explain whether price adjustments occur at listing, at closing, or both. I find that for domestic assault, asking prices are lower and price cuts are more likely, but closing prices show no detectable discount. For narcotics, sale prices and the sale-to-list ratio fall, while asking prices show no detectable change. Weapons violations provide one example of adjustment in whether a transaction proceeds: listings are more likely to be withdrawn and later relisted, without a consistent sale-price discount. Other asking-price responses (burglary, disorderly conduct, and trespass) are sensitive to the fixed-effects specification.

This paper makes three contributions.

First, I show that house prices reflect crime selectively, estimating offense-specific price responses to nearby incidents across twenty-two categories under a common empirical design. Earlier work measures either many offenses at aggregate geographies, where estimates depend on the spatial unit (the modifiable areal unit problem, MAUP) and cannot separate crime on a property's own block from broader neighborhood conditions (Thaler, 1978; Schwartz et al., 2003; Gibbons, 2004; Ihlanfeldt and Mayock, 2010), or a single crime at point resolution (Linden and Rockoff, 2008; Pope, 2008a; Congdon-Hohman, 2013; Tang and Le, 2023; Bhattacharya et al., 2021). Braakmann (2017) studies six offense categories at the street level using street fixed effects; I extend this to twenty-two offenses at the incident level with repeat sales.[3]

Second, I examine the role of observability. For a given offense type, I compare incidents that differ in their likely visibility to buyers: incidents at a home's frontage versus inside the dwelling (burglary, narcotics, and vandalism), damage to property versus vehicles, and incidents on the street versus at residential addresses (Tables 3 and A7). These comparisons provide evidence on Gibbons's conjecture that hard-to-observe crimes have weaker effects on property prices. To my knowledge, prior work has not tested this conjecture by holding the offense fixed and comparing where incidents occur. Prior work shows that house prices respond to risks when information about them reaches buyers: disclosure requirements lower prices even when the information was already public (Pope, 2008b), and hazards that buyers must assess themselves, such as flood risk, are priced only partly (Bernstein et al., 2019; Bakkensen and Barrage, 2022; Gourevitch et al., 2023). Crime is similar: most incidents are publicly recorded but are not reported in listings, so buyers must seek them out. Moreno-Medina (2026) finds that news coverage of nearby homicides lowers house prices, identifying one channel through which buyers learn about crime. Figlio and

[3]Table A5 summarizes estimates from existing literature.

Lucas (2004) find that state-assigned school grades affect house prices even conditional on the test scores underlying those grades, highlighting the role of information provision in the capitalization of school quality. More broadly, information can be available and still not enter a decision (Chetty et al., 2009; Bordalo et al., 2012, 2013). My comparison of incidents in different locations for a given offense type complements this work.

Third, I examine whether differences in what buyers and sellers observe may be reflected at different stages of the selling process. I study price margins (asking prices, price cuts, and the sale-to-list ratio) and market frictions (time on market, withdrawal, and relisting), which show how the market responds to crime beyond closing prices (Section 5.5). Boggess et al. (2013) find that higher crime is followed by higher housing turnover, Wentland et al. (2014) estimate price and time-on-market effects of registered sex offenders from MLS data, and Dentler and Rossi (2024) show that the density of sales changes within 30 to 60 days of an incident. I extend this analysis to each stage of the transaction, holding the property fixed. Crime can affect whether a sale proceeds, not only its price: weapons violations increase withdrawals despite showing no consistent closing-price discount. The fact that crimes can affect other outcome variables without affecting sales price is another piece of evidence supporting the conclusion that effects on price understate the extent to which buyers care about crime.

I also extend the design to rental listings, a market studied far less in this literature. Most rent studies use aggregate crime rates (Rizzo, 1979; Koirala et al., 2023; Donovan et al., 2024), and property-level studies examine one or two offenses (Carrillo and Yezer, 2021; Klimova and Lee, 2014). I estimate effects of all offenses on asking rents, time on market, withdrawal, and relisting under the same design as the sale estimates (Table A22).

The rest of the paper proceeds as follows. Section 2 develops the conceptual framework, Section 3 describes the data, and Section 4 presents the empirical strategy. Section 5 reports the results, Section 6 assesses robustness, Section 7 discusses interpretation and implications, and Section 8 concludes.

2 Conceptual Framework

The observed crime price effect, κ_k, is the price consequence of a change in expected crime exposure: the proportional change in a property's sale price, P, per additional realized incident of offense k nearby, C_k,

$$\kappa_k \equiv \frac{\partial \ln P}{\partial C_k}. \tag{1}$$

It is negative when crime lowers prices, and it is the quantity the empirical analysis estimates.[4] A realized incident is one that occurs and is recorded near the property. A buyer, however, values the property according to the incidents she expects in the future: let q_k denote the number of incidents of offense k she expects near the property. A realized incident lowers the price only insofar as it

[4] κ_k is the effect of one additional incident. Table OA7 reports the price effect of one, two, three, and four or more nearby incidents relative to none.

raises q_k, and the price change depends on three terms. The first is willingness to pay, w_k: the share of the property's value a buyer would pay to have one fewer expected future incident, a marginal willingness to pay as in the hedonic literature (Rosen, 1974). The second is information arrival, or observability: the probability that the buyer learns of a realized incident, S_k. The third is belief updating: how much one incident the buyer learns of raises her expected number of future incidents, $b_k(S_k)$. A realized incident therefore raises expected exposure by $S_k\, b_k(S_k)$, and each expected incident lowers the price by w_k, so

$$\begin{aligned} \kappa_k &= -\, w_k \times S_k \times b_k(S_k), \qquad (2) \\ \text{price effect} &= -\,\text{willingness to pay} \times \text{probability of learning of the incident} \\ &\quad \times \text{change in expected future incidents.} \end{aligned}$$

I explain each in turn.

Willingness to pay. Suppose that a household values occupancy at a property over a fixed horizon, which allows us to ignore resale value. Willingness to pay, w_k, is expressed as a fraction of the property's value before the incident, so expected crime exposure carries value $w_k q_k$. An offense may impose substantial costs on its victims yet carry little willingness to pay if those costs are not associated with occupying or owning property at that location. A buyer can also expect more incidents and attach no value to avoiding them, in which case $w_k = 0$ and $\kappa_k = 0$ regardless of observability and belief updating.

Information arrival (observability). Buyers enter the market with prior beliefs about crime near the property, formed from information already available about the location. A newly realized incident can change those beliefs only if information about it reaches the buyer. $S_k \in [0, 1]$ is the probability of information arrival: $S_k = 0$ means that the buyer never learns of the incident, while $S_k = 1$ means that information about it reaches the buyer with certainty.

Belief updating. Conditional on information arrival, the incident may change the buyer's subjective expectation of future exposure. Define

$$b_k(S_k) \equiv \frac{\partial q_k}{\partial C_k^o}, \qquad (3)$$

where C_k^o denotes realized incidents of offense k whose information reaches the buyer. Thus $b_k(S_k)$ measures the change in expected future incidents generated by one additional observed incident. Writing b_k as a function of S_k allows the update per observed incident to differ across offenses with how often such incidents are learned of; if buyers know they rarely observe a type of crime, this may affect their update based on a single observation. Unlike S_k, $b_k(S_k)$ is not bounded between zero and one. If $b_k(S_k) = 0$, the buyer learns about the incident but does not revise expected future exposure. A value between zero and one means that one additional realized incident raises

expected future exposure by less than one incident; a value of one implies a one-for-one increase; and a value greater than one means that one realized incident leads the buyer to expect more than one additional future incident over the relevant horizon. Importantly, this is a subjective belief update, not the objective recurrence rate of the offense.

Written in units, $-w_k$ is the price effect per expected future incident, S_k is the share of realized incidents that reach the buyer, and $b_k(S_k)$ is expected future incidents per observed incident, so the three terms multiply to the price effect per realized incident estimated empirically:

$$\underbrace{\frac{\text{price effect}}{\text{expected incident}}}_{-w_k} \times \underbrace{\frac{\text{incidents observed}}{\text{incidents realized}}}_{S_k} \times \underbrace{\frac{\text{expected incidents}}{\text{incidents observed}}}_{b_k(S_k)} = \underbrace{\frac{\text{price effect}}{\text{realized incident}}}_{\kappa_k}. \tag{4}$$

Consider a buyer who would pay 1 percent of a property's value to avoid one expected future burglary, so $w_k = 0.01$. If one realized burglary reaches the buyer ($S_k = 1$) and raises expected future burglaries over the horizon from a prior belief of 0.5 to 2.5, the belief update is $b_k(S_k) = 2$ and the implied effect is $\kappa_k = -\,w_k \times S_k \times b_k(S_k) = -\,0.01 \times 1 \times 2 = -0.02$: the sale price falls by 2 percent per realized burglary. A value of $b_k(S_k)$ above one simply means one realized burglary leads the buyer to expect more than one additional future burglary. Had the incident not reached the buyer, or reached the buyer without changing expected exposure, this channel would generate no price response.

A zero observed discount can therefore arise through three distinct channels: willingness to pay to reduce expected exposure may be zero ($w_k = 0$); information about the realized incident may not reach the buyer ($S_k = 0$); or the incident may be fully observed but leave expected future exposure unchanged ($b_k(S_k) = 0$). The last case is particularly important. A buyer may place a high value on avoiding future homicide and learn that a homicide occurred nearby, yet view the incident as isolated and therefore not revise the expected risk of future homicide. The price response is then zero despite high willingness to pay and full information. Thus, full information ensures that the incident is known, but not that it changes beliefs about future exposure; a zero estimated discount therefore need not imply low willingness to pay. I next discuss three empirical implications of this framework.

Prediction 1: Observability. An incident lowers prices only if buyers learn of it ($S_k > 0$), so for a given offense type, incidents that are easier to observe should carry larger discounts. I compare incidents by location and visibility from outside the dwelling, and by agents' experience within the property's census tract, since experienced agents may be more likely to learn of nearby incidents.

Prediction 2: Recurrence. If buyers price crime by what it predicts about future crime near the property, offenses with more predictive content should carry larger discounts. I estimate how well each offense predicts subsequent crime near the property, both from incidents nearby and from those a few blocks away.

Prediction 3: Price Formation. If sellers learn of an incident before listing, asking prices should fall. If buyers learn of it after listing, the adjustment should instead appear in the sale-to-list ratio, time on market, or withdrawal.

3 Data

The analysis combines three data sources: residential listings from the Chicago Multiple Listing Service, incident-level crime reports from the Chicago Police Department, and measures of neighborhood conditions matched to each parcel. This section describes each source and the construction of the estimation sample.

Chicago is well suited for this analysis because it provides variation along both dimensions the design requires. First, the volume and breadth of crime incidents allow effects to be estimated separately across the 22 offense categories reported here: the data contain 10,766 homicides alongside more than 1.3 million thefts over the sample period. Second, crime varies substantially at fine spatial scales: roughly 55 percent of the variation in crime exposure within 0.05 miles occurs within tract-months, against 14 percent for crime in the surrounding 0.20–0.30 mile ring. Near-ring crime therefore provides substantially more within-neighborhood variation than crime in the surrounding ring.

Housing transactions. The housing data are the universe of Chicago Multiple Listing Service (MLS) closed transactions in single-family, condominium, and residential-income properties. I keep transactions closing between 2007 and 2025 with a recorded close price between $10,000 and $10,000,000, and parcels whose recorded parcel count is the same at every sale, which excludes properties that were split or consolidated between sales (Table OA1). The resulting sample is 530,395 sales on 337,461 parcels, of which 136,866 parcels sell at least twice (329,800 sales) and so identify the within-property comparison. Dropping transactions that are the only sale in their tract-month cell, and the singletons this creates, leaves 242,815 transactions, the sample used in the results tables. Single-family homes make up 88 percent of these repeat sales, two-to-four-unit buildings 11 percent, and condominiums 1 percent. Each record carries the property identifier, close date, and close price and the full listing history: original and revised list prices, days on market, and whether the listing ended in sale or withdrawal. The sale-price sample consists of closed transactions. The listing outcomes (asking price, price cuts, and withdrawal) instead use all sale listings, whether or not they ended in a sale (985,586 listings), and with parcel fixed effects are identified from properties listed more than once. That history lets me trace how crime affects asking prices, price revisions, time on market, and eventual transaction outcomes.

For the quantity margin, I build an annual panel of all Chicago dwelling parcels in the Cook County Assessor file, excluding vacant land, garages, and minor improvements, 2007–2025. The *listing rate* is the share of parcels listed in the MLS in a given year, and the *turnover rate* is the share that sell. At the parcel level, each is an indicator for whether the parcel is listed, or sells, that

year; their sample means are 6.0 and 3.8 percent. Near- and far-ring crime counts are measured over the previous calendar year; a lead test uses the following year.

Rental listings. The rental analysis uses MLS lease listings subject to the same property-type, location, and parcel-count filters as the sale sample: single-family, condominium, and residential-income units in Chicago, on parcels with a constant parcel count, listed between 2007 and 2025 with monthly asking rents of \$500 to \$10,000. These restrictions yield 191,155 lease listings. Only 0.1 percent record a closing rent, so the rental price outcome is the asking rent, with crime exposure measured relative to the list date. The design otherwise mirrors the sale analysis, including days on market and withdrawal. Applying the same near–far comparison to leases allows me to estimate how nearby crime affects asking rents.

Property and listing characteristics. Table A1 summarizes both samples. In the sale sample, the median property has three bedrooms and two bathrooms, and the median sale price is \$279,000; the median rental unit has two bedrooms and a monthly asking rent of \$1,950. Physical characteristics (living area, bedrooms, bathrooms, and year built) come from standardized listing fields and are available for most transactions. In the sale sample, 27 percent of listings cut their asking price before sale. Yet 68 percent sell below their original asking price, so many sellers who never cut their asking price still accept less at closing.

Crime incidents. Incident-level crime data come from the Chicago Police Department's public "Crimes, 2001 to present" file. Over 2007–2025, 5,657,404 offenses were reported citywide, of which 98.8 percent carry coordinates for the location of the incident; coverage varies by offense, from 78.8 percent for embezzlement to above 99 percent for most offenses (Table 1). Panel B of Figure 1 maps their density across the city, alongside residential sales in Panel A. Incident locations are released at block-face resolution: the published point is shifted from the actual location for partial redaction but falls on the same block, so distance between a parcel and an incident is measured with error of up to a block face. For homicide the file records one row per victim rather than per incident, so homicide counts, and the per-incident homicide estimates below, are per victim record.[5] For narcotics, prostitution, gambling, and liquor violations, recorded incidence depends particularly on enforcement activity. I therefore interpret these counts as enforcement-recorded offenses rather than a census of underlying crime.

I report estimates for twenty-two offenses, each at every window in Table A3; Appendix A.1 describes the remaining offense groups, which are too sparse or too imprecise to be informative.

[5]To protect victim privacy, the Chicago Police Department releases each incident's address "at the block level only" and does not identify the specific location (City of Chicago Data Portal, *Crimes – 2001 to Present*); the recorded point is placed on the correct block, so it can differ from the true location by up to a block face. Chicago blocks are about 330 feet east–west and 660 feet north–south, against a near-ring radius of about 264 feet, so the shift can move an incident into or out of the near ring. Location masking can assign incidents to the wrong distance ring, introducing measurement error into the crime counts. The direction of the resulting bias is not determined a priori.

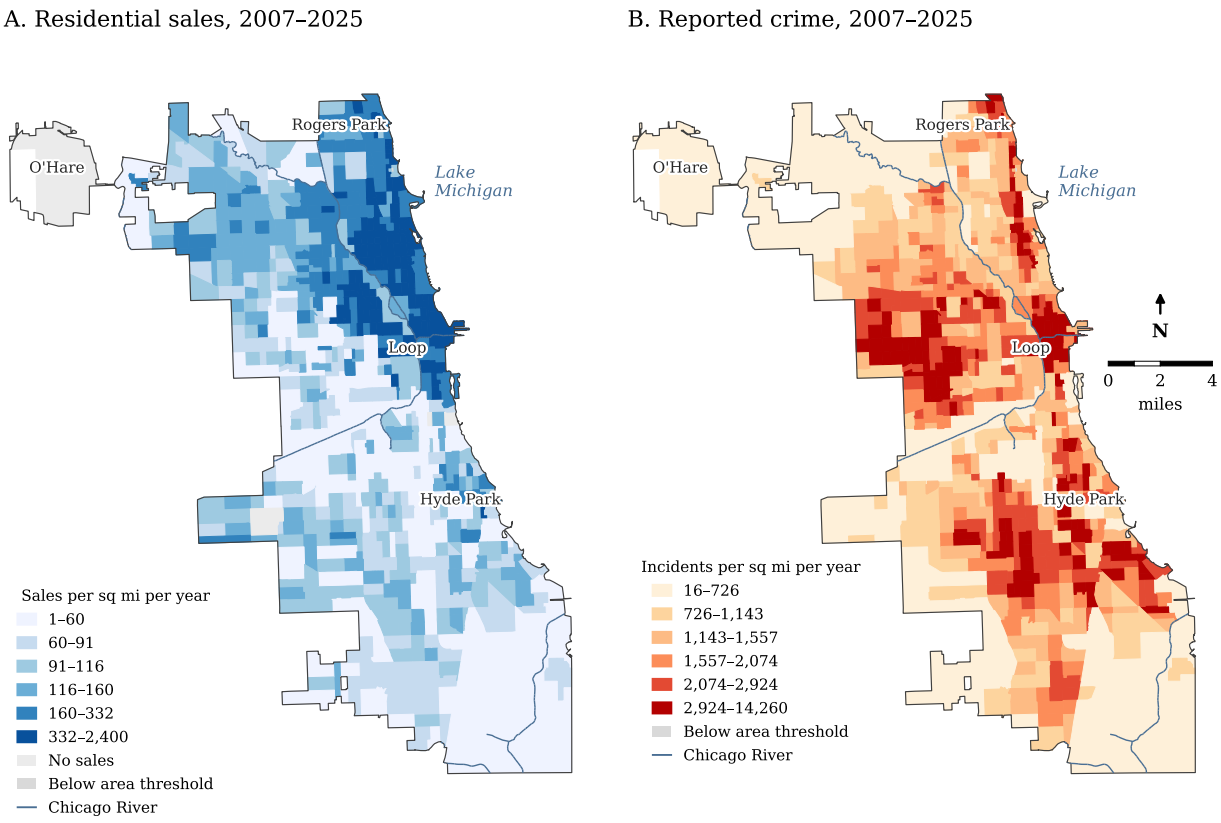


Figure 1: Residential sales and reported crime, Chicago, 2007–2025.

Notes. Census-tract densities are expressed as annual averages over 2007–2025 per square mile of land within the city boundary. Panel A shows closed MLS sales in the analysis sample (529,449 of 530,395 sales counted; 30 lack coordinates and 916 lie outside the city boundary); it uses the full sales data rather than the repeat-sales estimation sample. Panel B shows all reported Chicago Police Department incidents with coordinates inside the city boundary (5,575,987 of 5,657,404). Shading denotes sextiles of tract density, calculated separately for each panel; light-grey tracts in Panel A have no sales. Tract portions smaller than 0.01 square miles are shown in grey and excluded from the density classification. Tracts are clipped to the city's land boundary.

Online Appendix Table OA3 lists the police offense codes in each group. Assault combines the department's assault codes (threats without physical contact) and battery codes (physical contact), and is split into domestic and non-domestic incidents using the department's domestic flag.

For each listing I count incidents of each offense type within concentric rings of the listing's location over pre-transaction windows of one to twelve months, matching incidents to properties by distance,[6] and time the counts to the listing's close date (to its list date on the lease side). Chicago's largely regular street grid makes straight-line distance a useful approximation to local proximity, although it does not capture barriers or differences in street connectivity.[7] Table 1 reports, for each offense, its citywide count, geocoding rate, and near exposure, together with the raw cross-sectional price gap between listings with and without a nearby incident. These raw gaps are large, exceeding 40 percent for homicide and narcotics, and reflect differences between blocks with and without nearby crime rather than the effect of crime itself. Listings with an incident within 0.05 miles in the three or six months before sale are also cheaper, smaller, and slower to sell (Table OA2).

Neighborhood conditions. To assess whether the estimated discounts reflect physical decline or disinvestment rather than crime, I construct five measures of neighborhood conditions around each property: building permits, distinct locations reported vacant, 311 service requests, active business licenses, and tree canopy.[8] Each measure is included as a control twice, once for the near ring and once for the far ring, as crime is. Permits, distinct locations reported vacant, and 311 requests are counted over the twelve months preceding the longest crime-exposure window (361 to 720 days before closing),[9] and business licenses are those active at the start of this period; these counts and the active-license snapshot are included as $\ln(1 + x)$. The 311 measure uses the same three request types before and after the City's 2019 change of 311 system, with an indicator for windows overlapping 2019. Tree canopy is included as percent cover, from the raster for the latest calendar year ending before the longest crime-exposure window begins. Where the required data are unavailable, a measure is set to zero with a missing-value indicator, so the sample is unchanged. Appendix A.2 describes the construction of each measure.

Foreclosures can lower nearby prices and increase nearby crime (Campbell et al., 2011; Ellen et al., 2013; Anenberg and Kung, 2014), and vacant-location reports capture only part of this distress. I also construct five measures of local housing-market conditions from the MLS over the same twelve months: the mean repeat-sale price change of neighboring homes, the share of neighboring sales that were distressed (bank-owned real estate, short sale, or foreclosure), the mean sale-to-list ratio, mean days on market, and the number of new sale listings. All housing-market

[6] Distances are great-circle distances from each listing's MLS coordinates.

[7] Distance-based rings do not account for physical barriers such as expressways, rail lines, or rivers. Across-barrier incidents constitute approximately 1–2% of near-ring exposure for the four priced offenses. I do not separately estimate their effects.

[8] Tree canopy is from the U.S. Geological Survey National Land Cover Database; business licenses, 311 service requests, building permits, and vacant-building reports are from the City of Chicago Data Portal.

[9] For a sale closing on June 15, 2020, the longest crime-exposure window covers roughly June 2019 to June 2020; permits, vacant locations, and 311 requests are counted from June 2018 to June 2019, licenses are those active in June 2018, and tree canopy is from the 2018 raster.

Table 1: Crime Incidence and Near Exposure

Offense	Incidents (city)	Geocoded (%)	Mean near count	% any near	Raw price gap (%)
Theft	1,364,912	97.8	5.56	83.2	13.7
Assault (non-domestic)	739,961	99.7	1.92	56.3	-20.9
Assault (domestic)	670,887	99.7	1.71	55.5	-35.6
Criminal damage/vandalism	632,166	99.6	1.88	67.1	-18.2
Narcotics	439,526	97.9	0.83	25.3	-45.5
Other offenses	360,851	99.0	1.09	49.5	-24.1
Burglary	296,724	99.6	0.97	47.1	-15.5
Motor vehicle theft	292,290	99.6	0.87	46.5	-9.9
Robbery	213,364	99.8	0.55	32.3	-12.2
Trespass	138,862	99.7	0.41	23.8	-1.3
Fraud	136,957	97.5	0.71	33.4	18.0
Weapons	114,818	99.6	0.23	14.4	-36.1
Sex offenses	63,549	89.2	0.18	14.6	-9.8
Disorderly conduct	39,056	99.7	0.09	7.4	-24.2
Forgery	32,711	97.1	0.11	8.9	15.9
Prostitution	31,173	99.6	0.07	2.2	-14.9
Family (nonviolent)	29,131	99.0	0.07	5.9	-35.2
Homicide	10,766	100.0	0.02	2.0	-42.9
Arson	9,488	99.7	0.02	2.1	-35.8
Bad checks	9,424	97.3	0.03	3.0	12.8
Gambling	8,105	99.4	0.02	1.2	-72.6
Liquor violations	7,941	99.5	0.03	2.2	2.5
Kidnapping	5,921	99.5	0.01	1.4	-34.0
Extortion	3,281	98.7	0.01	1.1	4.4
Child pornography/obscenity	2,677	89.8	0.01	0.6	-4.3
Stolen property	1,586	98.6	0.00	0.4	1.3
Embezzlement	1,055	78.8	0.00	0.4	45.4

Notes: Offense groups ordered by citywide incident count (Chicago Police Department, 2007–2025). Near exposure: 0–0.05 miles, twelve months before sale (N = 530,365). Raw gap: cross-sectional log-price difference (percent) between listings with and without a near incident; descriptive only.

measures exclude the property's own building. Sales-based measures are coded as missing, with an indicator, when no eligible neighboring sales are observed. All neighborhood and housing-market controls are measured before the start of the twelve-month crime-exposure window.

4 Empirical Strategy

4.1 Design and Identification

The design is a spatial difference-in-differences with two-way fixed effects and continuous treatment. Crime exposure within a narrow ring around the property constitutes the near treatment, while exposure in a far ring around the same property provides the spatial comparison. Identification combines three comparisons: within parcel across transactions, within tract and month, and near relative to farther crime exposure (Figure 2). Parcel fixed effects absorb permanent differences across properties, and tract-by-month fixed effects absorb contemporaneous shocks shared by the surrounding neighborhood. This division of variation is borne out in the data: only 14 percent of far-ring crime exposure varies within tract-months, so the far ring is almost entirely a neighborhood-level quantity that the fixed effects absorb nearly in full, whereas a majority of near-ring exposure survives within tract-months (Section 3). The near-relative-to-far contrast is therefore identified from within-neighborhood differences in exposure. The parameter of interest is the differential price response,

$$\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}.$$

δ measures the price effect of a recent incident on the property's block, relative to crime a few blocks away and net of conditions shared by the tract in that month. It does not capture how crime and prices move together across neighborhoods over the long run, since the fixed effects absorb those differences. The estimate δ_k is the empirical counterpart of κ_k in Equation (1), under the linear approximation and the far-ring restriction.

For property i transacting at date t, let Near_{it} be the count of incidents of a given offense in the near ring in the m months before the sale, and Far_{it} the count in the far ring over the same window; Section 4.2 describes how the two rings are chosen. Stale counts SNear_{it} and SFar_{it}, near- and far-ring incidents in the part of a twelve-month lookback that falls *beyond* the m-month window, and therefore non-overlapping with Near_{it} and Far_{it}, absorb slower-moving local conditions; they are empty when $m = 12$. The window length m is not fixed a priori; I estimate across $m = 1, \ldots, 12$ months and examine the choice in Section 4.2. I report estimates for all twelve exposure windows to show how the results vary with the period over which nearby crime is measured. The estimating equation is

$$\ln P_{it} = \beta_{\text{near}}\text{Near}_{it} + \beta_{\text{far}}\text{Far}_{it} + \gamma_n\text{SNear}_{it} + \gamma_f\text{SFar}_{it} + \mu_i + \lambda_{c(i)t} + \varepsilon_{it}, \tag{5}$$

where μ_i is a parcel fixed effect and $\lambda_{c(i)t}$ a tract×month fixed effect.

Identification requires that, after accounting for parcel and tract-by-month fixed effects and

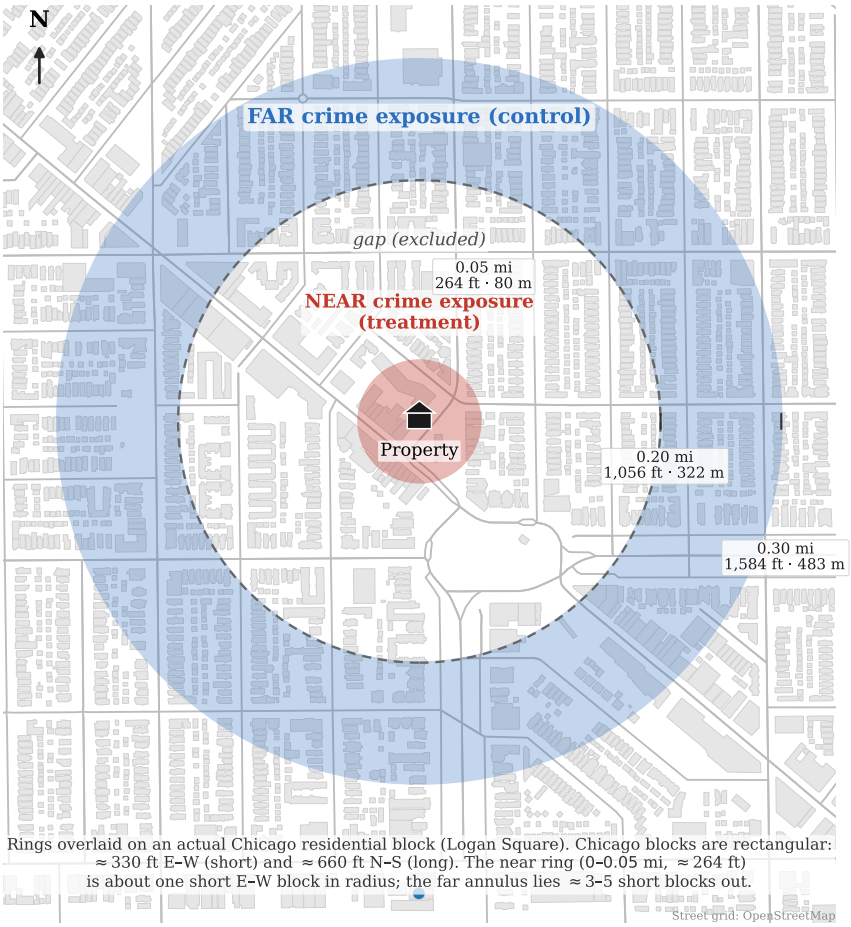


Figure 2: The near–far design. Crime within the near ring (0–0.05 miles, about 260 feet, roughly one short east–west Chicago block) is the treatment; crime in the far ring (0.20–0.30 miles, about three to five short blocks out) is the spatial comparison, separated from the near ring by a gap so the two rings are non-adjacent. The near–far difference $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$ differences out conditions common to the surrounding neighborhood. Near ring in red, far ring in blue; incidents in the gap and beyond the far ring (grey) are excluded.

the included controls, the difference in crime exposure between the near ring and the far ring is unrelated to other factors that affect the sale price. This does not require near and far rings to be alike in levels, or unconditional parallel trends across high- and low-crime properties. Parcel fixed effects absorb time-invariant property differences, and tract-by-month fixed effects absorb shocks shared within a tract and month. In effect, the design compares the same property across its sales, relative to other sales in its census tract in the same month. What remains is block-level variation across a property's own transactions. Formally, let $\mathbf{X}_{it} = (\text{Near}_{it}, \text{Far}_{it})'$. Identification requires

$$E\left[\widetilde{\mathbf{X}}_{it}\,\widetilde{\varepsilon}_{it}\right] = \mathbf{0}, \tag{6}$$

where tildes denote residualization with respect to the fixed effects and controls in Equation (5). Under this condition β_{near} and β_{far} are identified, and so is $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$.

Two threats could violate this assumption.

1. *Omitted local shocks correlated with the near–far crime difference.* A local event, such as a neighboring building becoming vacant, could raise crime on the block relative to the far ring while independently lowering the property's price. The near–far comparison removes shocks shared equally by the two rings, but not those confined to the block, so the estimate could attribute such an event's price effect to crime. I assess sensitivity to these conditions by adding predetermined neighborhood and lagged housing-market controls (Section 6). These controls capture observable pre-existing conditions but cannot rule out unobserved shocks during the exposure period. The post-sale placebo also detects block-level shocks that persist beyond the sale.

2. *Reverse causality.* Falling property values could lead to more crime, or worsening conditions on the block could both lower property values and increase crime. I assess these concerns with a post-sale placebo for every estimate, replacing crime before the sale with crime after it. A significant placebo would point to confounding trends or anticipated risk. A null placebo supports the identifying assumption but cannot prove it.

A separate condition concerns how to interpret δ. A local shock that raises crime in both the near and far rings, and independently lowers the property's price, biases both β_{near} and β_{far}. If the bias is similar in the two rings, it cancels in $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}$. If crime in the far ring has no price effect of its own (the far-ring restriction), β_{far} measures only this shared bias, and δ recovers the effect of crime on the property's block. If crime in the far ring also lowered prices, δ would understate that effect. Writing b for the shared bias, $\beta_{\text{near}} =$ (effect on the block) $+ b$ and $\beta_{\text{far}} = 0 + b$, so $\delta = \beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}} =$ (effect on the block). Section 4.2 describes how the far ring is chosen.

The design does not assume that crime is randomly distributed across the city, across neighborhoods, or over time; only that the residual near–far variation is unrelated to unobserved price shocks.

Identification comes from properties that sell more than once, compared with other sales in the same tract and month; Section 3 describes the resulting sample.

Enforcement can affect recorded crime as well as underlying crime. Tract-by-month fixed effects and the near–far comparison help account for shared deployment changes, while post-sale placebos provide a check on persistent local confounding; temporary, highly localized enforcement changes may remain a concern.

4.2 Choice of Spatial Bands and Exposure Windows

The rings and windows in (5) are chosen from the data rather than imposed. Buyers see crime on the streets near a home, not crime within an administrative area. A census tract is a poor stand-in for those streets: a home near the edge of its tract can be closer to crime across the boundary than to crime on the far side of its own tract. A tract-level count can therefore include crime far from the home and miss crime next door, and estimates can change with the area used (Margaretic and Sosa, 2025). I therefore measure crime in rings centered on each property and choose their inner and outer radii from the data.

How far from a home, and for how long, does a crime affect its price? To answer this without fixing the near and far rings in advance, I count crimes around each home in small distance bands, and in each month before the sale, and estimate the price effect of one crime at each distance d and each month ℓ before the sale, $f(d, \ell)$:

$$\ln P_{it} = \sum_{(d,\ell)} f(d,\ell)\, C_{it}(d,\ell) + \mu_i + \lambda_{c(i)t} + \varepsilon_{it},$$

where P_{it} is the sale price of property i at date t, $C_{it}(d,\ell)$ is the number of crimes in distance band d and month ℓ, μ_i is a parcel fixed effect, and $\lambda_{c(i)t}$ is a fixed effect for the property's census tract $c(i)$ in the month of sale.

Estimating each of these effects separately would be noisy. Instead, I estimate f with a penalized tensor-product spline, a nonparametric method that lets the data determine how the effect varies with distance and time rather than imposing a functional form (Wood, 2017). I model f as a smooth surface built from a few simple building blocks:

$$f(d,\ell) = \sum_j \sum_k w_{jk}\, a_j(d)\, b_k(\ell),$$

where $a_j(d)$ are simple curves in distance, $b_k(\ell)$ are simple curves in time, and the weights w_{jk} are estimated. I choose the weights to fit the data while keeping the surface smooth:

$$\min_w \sum_i \Big(\tilde{y}_i - \sum_{(d,\ell)} f(d,\ell)\, \tilde{C}_i(d,\ell)\Big)^2 + \eta_d P_d(w) + \eta_\ell P_\ell(w).$$

The first term is the usual sum of squared errors, using log sale price $\tilde{y}$ and crime counts $\tilde{C}$ after

removing the fixed effects. The second and third terms are penalties: P_d and P_ℓ grow when the surface bends a lot in distance or in time, and η_d and η_ℓ set how strongly bending is penalized. A penalty discourages unnecessary bending, reducing the risk of fitting noise: larger values make the surface bend less, and smaller values let it bend more. I choose η_d and η_ℓ from the data by restricted maximum likelihood (REML; Wood, 2017; Korolev, 2026).[10] I evaluate the distance basis functions at the midpoint of each band and estimate the surface jointly across all bands and months; I do not use it beyond the distances and months in the data.

The estimated surface guides the choice of rings: I set the near ring over the distances where the surface shows a price discount, and the far ring at distances where the estimated effect is small and no longer distinguishable from zero. This gives a near ring of 0–0.05 miles and a far ring of 0.20–0.30 miles; Tang and Le (2023) use the same comparison ring. Because the rings are chosen using the same data, I do not rely on a single choice: I report estimates for nine near–far ring definitions (Table A6) and every exposure window from one to twelve months.

Main window. I report estimates for all twelve exposure windows (Table 2). When a table requires one estimate per offense, I use the median window among those with a negative estimate significant at five percent, choosing the lower median when their number is even. For offenses with no significant discount, I report the twelve-month estimate. Counts of significant windows are descriptive, since the windows are nested, not independent.

5 Results

5.1 Sale Prices

Table A3 reports full results for every offense at all twelve windows.

Four of the twenty-two offenses, homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism, carry a significant sale-price discount in at least two consecutive exposure windows, which count crime from one to twelve months before the sale (Table 2; Appendix Table A2; Figure 3). At each offense's main window (ten months for homicide and narcotics, eight for burglary, and six for vandalism), one additional incident within a radius of 0.05 miles of a home, relative to one 0.20–0.30 miles away, lowers its sale price by about 3 percent for homicide (-3.02, s.e. 1.38), 0.24 percent for burglary (s.e. 0.12), 0.29 percent for narcotics (s.e. 0.14), and 0.17 percent for vandalism (s.e. 0.08).[11] I refer to these as *priced offenses*. Disorderly conduct and sex offenses are *suggestive*, with a significant

[10] A tensor-product spline models a function of two variables as a weighted sum of products of one-dimensional basis functions, here a basis in distance from the parcel and a basis in months since the incident. Each product term lets the profile in one dimension vary with the other, so the distance profile can differ across lags without imposing a parametric form. The distance and lag profiles in the main text use basis sizes $c(6, 12)$, six in distance and twelve in lag; the surfaces in Online Appendix J use $c(6, 4)$, six in distance and four in lag. Both are estimated on six distance rings out to 0.40 miles and 24 monthly lags. In both, the smoothness penalty is chosen by restricted maximum likelihood (Wood, 2017).

[11] Section 4.2 defines the main window. The 0–0.05 mile near ring and the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring follow the distance profile of the price response (Sections 4.2 and 5.2); Table A6 reports alternative rings.

Table 2: Sale Prices

Offense	Identifying parcels	Sig. discount windows	Min δ (%) (s.e.) [mo]	Max δ (%) (s.e.) [mo]	"Median" δ (%) (s.e.) [mo]
Priced					
Homicide	3,053	2/12	-5.86^{*} (3.35) [1]	-1.24 (1.43) [8]	-2.23 (2.60) [2]
Narcotics	35,801	5/12	-0.93 (0.75) [1]	-0.18 (0.19) [6]	-0.33^{***} (0.11) [12]
Burglary	64,661	6/12	-0.34^{**} (0.14) [6]	-0.18^{*} (0.09) [12]	-0.22^{**} (0.10) [11]
Vandalism	77,053	2/12	-0.17^{**} (0.08) [6]	0.26 (0.22) [1]	-0.10 (0.07) [9]
Suggestive					
Disorderly conduct	13,670	1/12	-1.33^{*} (0.78) [2]	-0.46 (0.54) [4]	-0.65 (0.63) [3]
Sex offenses	26,831	1/12	-0.47^{**} (0.23) [12]	0.11 (0.35) [3]	-0.26 (0.25) [9]
Precise nulls					
Larceny/theft	86,303	0/12	0.01 (0.02) [12]	0.08^{***} (0.03) [1]	0.02 (0.01) [8]
Motor vehicle theft	63,142	0/12	-0.02 (0.09) [12]	0.51^{*} (0.30) [1]	0.07 (0.09) [11]
Assault (non-dom.)	67,192	0/12	-0.05 (0.06) [7]	0.01 (0.11) [3]	-0.03 (0.09) [4]
Bad checks	7,580	0/12	0.66^{*} (0.35) [11]	2.20^{**} (1.03) [1]	1.08^{**} (0.43) [7]
Family (non-violent)	10,002	0/12	1.00^{*} (0.51) [12]	2.16^{***} (0.82) [5]	1.49^{**} (0.60) [9]
Fraud	53,093	0/12	-0.36 (0.23) [1]	-0.04 (0.09) [6]	-0.08 (0.08) [10]
Assault (domestic)	64,422	0/12	-0.19^{*} (0.10) [12]	0.02 (0.15) [5]	-0.03 (0.12) [7]
Trespass	41,169	0/12	-0.15 (0.14) [6]	0.18 (0.22) [3]	-0.09 (0.38) [1]
Robbery	48,458	0/12	-0.06 (0.14) [9]	0.30 (0.42) [1]	0.01 (0.13) [11]
Forgery	19,519	0/12	-0.07 (0.59) [1]	0.47 (0.45) [2]	0.23 (0.18) [11]
Liquor law	5,074	0/12	0.08 (1.20) [1]	1.34 (0.91) [2]	0.51 (0.36) [10]
Prostitution	4,671	0/12	-1.00 (0.82) [1]	0.08 (0.12) [12]	-0.18 (0.35) [5]
Inconclusive					
Weapons	20,182	0/12	-0.62 (0.47) [5]	0.11 (0.58) [3]	-0.17 (0.35) [9]
Arson	3,515	0/12	-0.20 (1.06) [11]	1.27 (3.58) [1]	0.07 (1.63) [6]
Gambling	1,333	0/12	-4.77 (4.33) [3]	1.99 (8.32) [1]	-1.79 (1.77) [11]
Stolen property	1,012	0/12	-2.23 (2.63) [2]	0.81 (1.20) [8]	-0.67 (1.75) [6]

Notes. $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$: percent change in sale price per incident within 0–0.05 miles, relative to 0.20–0.30 miles. Parcel and tract × year-month fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract; $N = 242{,}815$ repeat sales, 2007–2025. Estimated at each cumulative window, one to twelve months. Sig. windows: negative and significant at 5%. "Median" δ: the sixth-lowest of the twelve window estimates (one of the two medians); Min and Max: most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows (standard error; window in brackets). Identifying parcels: exposure varies within parcel, counted at the twelve-month window. Priced: a discount significant at 5% in two or more consecutive windows. Suggestive: a discount significant at 5% in exactly one window and at 10% in an adjacent window. Precise nulls: no discount significant at 5% in any window, and the 95 percent intervals rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; for larceny, motor vehicle theft, non-domestic assault, bad checks, and family offenses they also rule out a discount as large as burglary's main-window estimate (0.24 percent, eight months) in at least nine of twelve windows, for the last two because their estimates are positive. Inconclusive: the remaining offenses with no discount significant at 5% in any window. Kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, child pornography, and other offenses have too few incidents to estimate.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

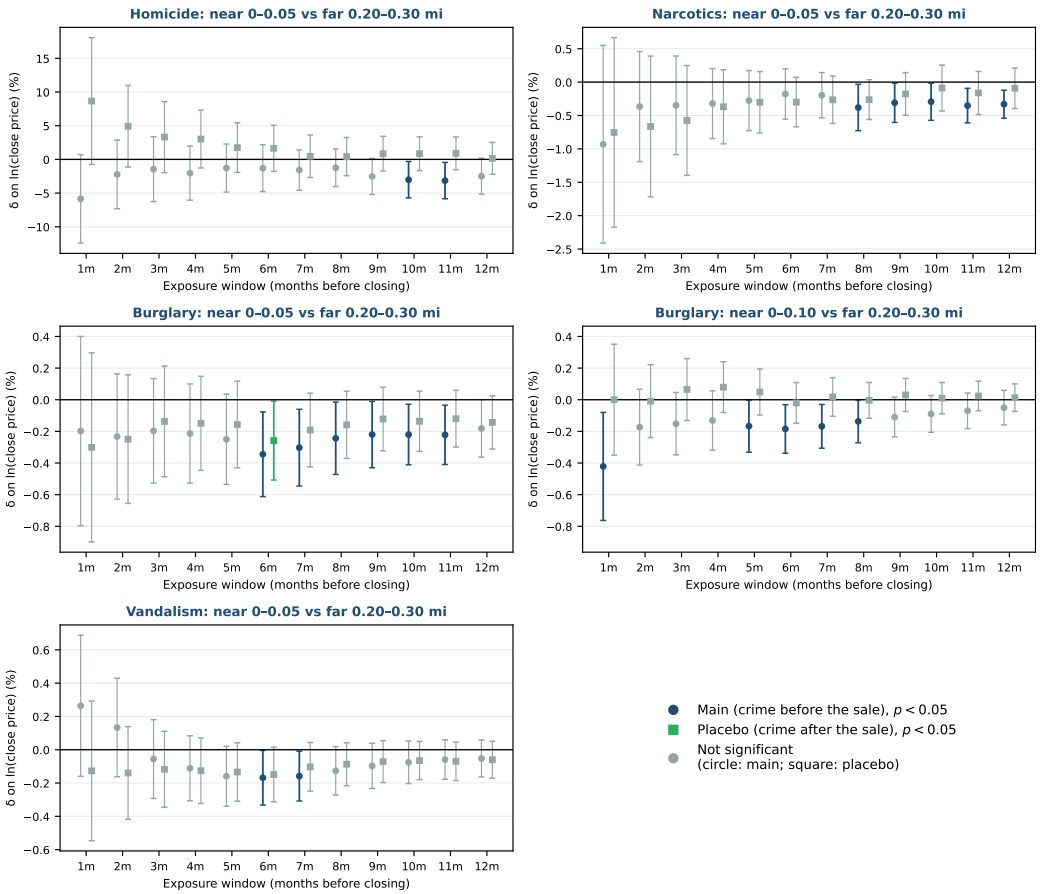


Figure 3: Sale-Price Discounts and Post-Sale Placebos by Exposure Window. Near ring 0–0.05 miles (baseline) for all four offenses; burglary also shown with a near ring of 0–0.10 miles. All against the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring; exposure windows of one to twelve months; counts; parcel and tract×month fixed effects; no controls; clustered by tract; $N = 242{,}815$. Circles: crime in the window before the sale. Squares: post-sale placebo (crime in the same window after closing). 95 percent intervals; the two burglary panels share a scale.

discount in only one window. The remaining sixteen offenses are *nulls*, with no significant discount in any window; for arson, gambling, stolen property, and weapons, however, the estimates are too imprecise to rule out sizable effects.

For larceny, motor vehicle theft, and non-domestic assault, the intervals also rule out, in at least ten of twelve windows, a discount as large as burglary's eight-month estimate (0.24 percent per incident, s.e. 0.12). The estimates for bad checks and family offenses are positive. Tables OA9 and OA10 split assault and the other offenses by domestic status.

Fraud, forgery, and bad checks impose direct monetary losses, yet none carries a detectable discount in the pooled estimates; embezzlement has too few incidents to estimate (Appendix B.1).

I next examine how discounts vary with the number of nearby incidents, replacing the near-ring count with indicators for one, two, three, and four or more incidents, relative to zero (Table OA7; Figure OF1). Four or more burglaries and vandalism incidents are associated with discounts of 1.85 (s.e. 0.76) and 1.05 percent (s.e. 0.52) at eight and six months, respectively. No priced offense

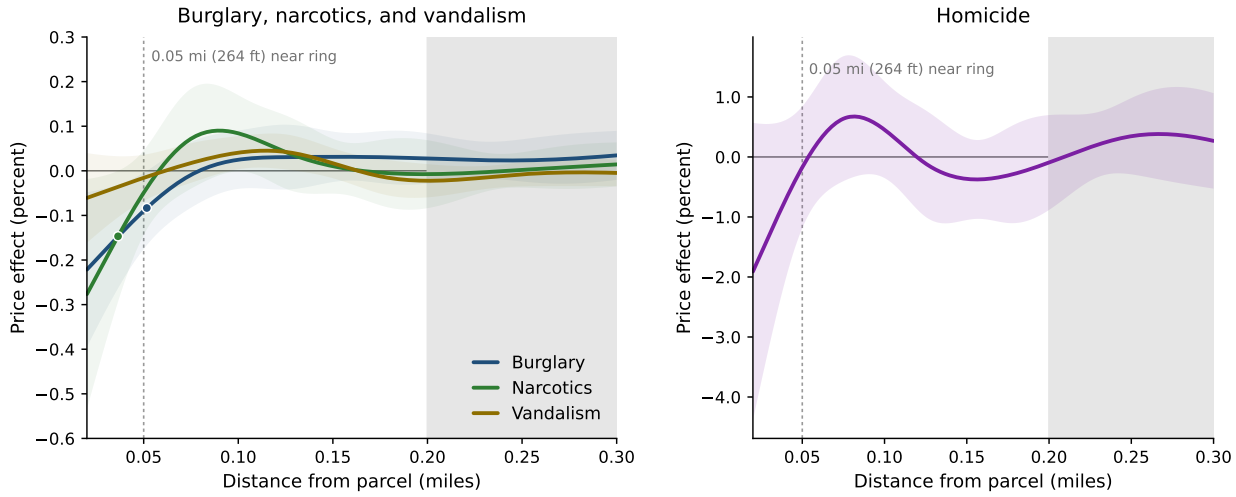


Figure 4: Price response by distance from the parcel. Distance profiles from a tensor-product spline in distance and lag, estimated as a fixed-effects signal regression in `mgcv` following Korolev (2026), fit over all six distance rings (out to 0.40 miles) and 24 monthly lags, plotted and centered on their mean over 0.02–0.30 miles, and averaged over the one-to-twelve-month windows; all 529,283 closed sales, 2007–2025, where single sales do not contribute to the crime coefficients once parcel fixed effects are absorbed, so identification comes from repeat sales; with 95 percent cluster-robust bands. *Left*: burglary, narcotics, and vandalism. *Right*: homicide, whose band is wider because incidents are rare and includes zero within 0.05 miles. The dotted line marks the 0.05-mile near-ring edge; the shaded band is the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring. The profile locates where the response is negative and where it is flat; its level is not the near–far discount in Table 2 (estimation details in Online Appendix J).

shows a significant discount for exactly one incident at any window. A joint test of linearity over zero to three nearby incidents rejects the restriction for burglary at eight months ($p = 0.02$), but not for the other priced offenses at their main windows.

5.2 Distance Profile of Discounts

The distance profile of the price response supports the bands chosen in Section 4.2. Discounts decline with distance, consistent with studies of sex-offender arrivals that find price effects concentrated within about a tenth of a mile (Linden and Rockoff, 2008; Pope, 2008a). A tensor-product spline in distance and lag, estimated as a fixed-effects signal regression following Korolev (2026), shows this decay (Figure 4). For burglary and narcotics, the effect is significantly negative within 0.05 miles and not significantly different from zero at the adjacent-block ring. Vandalism's distance profile is not significantly different from zero within 0.05 miles, consistent with its small per-incident discount (Table 2). Homicide's confidence band is roughly ten times wider than those of the other three offenses and includes zero within 0.05 miles, consistent with sparse homicide exposure (Online Appendix J). In the time dimension, the spline's lag profile places the burglary effect among incidents about three to seven months before the sale and the vandalism effect three to six months before, while the narcotics profile shows no significant pattern and homicide is too sparse to estimate one; the lag profiles are not plotted. Appendix C.1 compares recent with earlier exposure.

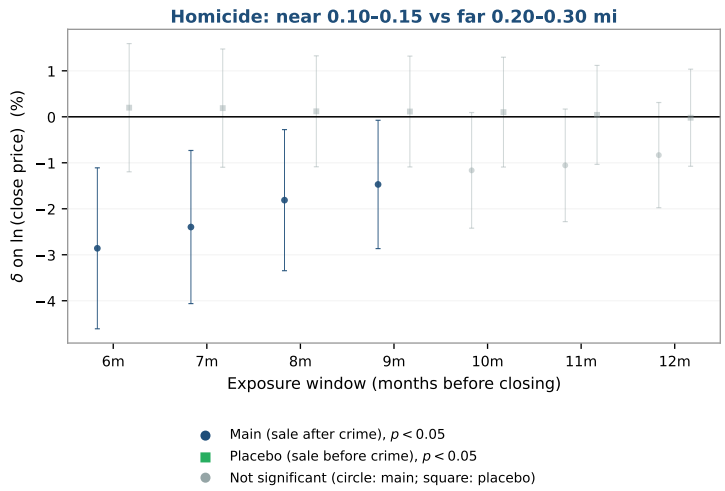


Figure 5: Homicide: Discount at a Near Ring of 0.10–0.15 Miles. Near ring 0.10–0.15 miles against the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring; counts; parcel and tract×month fixed effects; no controls; clustered by tract; $N = 242{,}815$. Circles: crime in the window before the sale. Squares: post-sale placebo (crime in the same window after closing). 95 percent intervals.

5.3 The Four Priced Offenses

Homicide. The homicide estimate is significant at ten and eleven months; shorter windows contain few homicides and are imprecise. This discount is similar in magnitude to estimates from other studies of individual murders (Table A5). Klimova and Lee (2014) find a 3.9 percent decline in sale prices within 0.2 miles of a murder in Sydney during the following year, while Gautier et al. (2009) find a decline of about 3 percent in asking prices in Amsterdam neighborhoods with large Muslim populations following the van Gogh murder. Discounts are substantially larger for the property where the incident occurs: in Hong Kong, such units sell for roughly a third less, with discounts of about 19 percent for other units on the same floor and 10 percent for units elsewhere in the building, and no statistically significant recovery over time (Bhattacharya et al., 2021). At the neighborhood level, Ihlanfeldt and Mayock (2010) find no detectable effect of murder on house prices, while effects of aggravated assault and robbery emerge with a lag of two to four years. The contrast suggests that the geographic scale of crime measurement may matter for the estimated magnitude and timing of price effects, although differences in settings and research designs also limit direct comparisons. Homicide discounts also appear when the near ring is 0.10–0.15 miles (significant at six to nine months, e.g., −2.86 percent at six months, s.e. 0.89, with no significant post-sale placebo; Figure 5).

Burglary. The burglary discount is significant from six to eleven months. Within the baseline 0–0.05 mile ring, prices of homes with no nearby burglaries are not in line with the price trend across homes with one or more burglaries (Caetano, 2015). This suggests that homes with and without nearby burglaries may differ in other ways that affect prices, so part of the estimated burglary discount may reflect those differences. The post-sale placebo is also significant at six

months. Widening the near ring to 0–0.10 miles addresses both concerns: the zero-exposure test does not reject, the placebo is not significant in any window, and the discount remains significant at six to eight months (−0.14 percent at eight months, s.e. 0.07; Figure 3; Section 6).[12]

Narcotics. The narcotics discount is significant from eight to twelve months and stable across them, between −0.29 percent (s.e. 0.14, ten months) and −0.38 percent (s.e. 0.18, eight months) per incident, and it is confined to 0.05 miles (Appendix C). Narcotics incidents are recorded largely through police enforcement rather than victim reports, so the estimate captures the price response to recorded drug activity and enforcement on the block (Section 3). The per-incident discount is far smaller than the 10 to 19 percent decline that Congdon-Hohman (2013) find near a discovered methamphetamine laboratory, a rarer and more conspicuous event.

Vandalism. The vandalism discount is significant only at six and seven months and is confined to 0.05 miles (Appendix C). Unlike the narcotics discount, it shrinks as older incidents enter the window, from −0.17 percent at six months (s.e. 0.08) to −0.05 percent at twelve (s.e. 0.06), consistent with damage that is visible for a time and then repaired. The spline places the vandalism effect among incidents three to six months before the sale, and four or more incidents are associated with a discount of 1.05 percent (s.e. 0.52) at six months.

5.4 Mechanisms

Sixteen of twenty-two offenses carry no detectable discount, and two more (disorderly conduct and sex offenses) are significant only at a single long-horizon window.

Location of the incident Prediction 1 says that, holding the offense fixed, incidents more likely to be observed carry larger discounts. I split incidents of the same offense in two steps. First, I compare incidents recorded at a residential address with those on the street. Second, among incidents at residential addresses, I compare those at the home's frontage (the garage, porch, yard, driveway, or entryway) with those inside the dwelling.[13]

Residential address versus street. The effect of location depends on the offense. Vandalism is priced when it occurs at a home: its discount is concentrated at residential addresses (8 of 12 windows) and differs significantly from street vandalism in 7 of 12 (Tables A7 and A8). At six months, residential vandalism lowers the sale price by 0.56 percent per incident (s.e. 0.20), compared with 0.01 percent (s.e. 0.11) for street vandalism ($p = 0.018$ for the difference). Homicide

[12] With a near ring of 0–0.15 miles, close to the 250-metre radius in Gibbons (2004), the burglary estimate is not significant at any window from six to twelve months (−0.10 percent at six months, s.e. 0.06, to −0.02 percent at twelve, s.e. 0.04), consistent with his finding of no burglary effect in London.

[13] Interior incidents are those whose recorded location is a residence, apartment, Chicago Housing Authority apartment, house, coach house, rooming house, or trailer; frontage incidents are those recorded at a residential garage, porch, yard, driveway, or entryway, or in a hallway or common area (Table OA14). The residence and apartment codes record that an incident occurred at the dwelling without a more specific exterior location, so the interior category may include some incidents outside the living space.

and narcotics are priced when they occur on the street: their discounts are significant for street incidents (in 4 and 5 of 12 windows) but not for incidents at residential addresses, although the two estimates differ significantly only for homicide at twelve months ($p = 0.046$).

Frontage versus interior, within residential addresses. This comparison restricts attention to residential addresses and distinguishes incidents by where they occur within the property. Frontage incidents may leave evidence more visible from the street than incidents inside the dwelling.[14] For burglary, frontage incidents carry a discount (-0.74 percent at eight months, s.e. 0.33), significant in 7 of 12 windows, while interior incidents have no detectable effect at any window (Table 3); the difference is significant at twelve months ($p = 0.030$).[15] Narcotics follows the same pattern: frontage incidents lower prices (-2.35 percent at twelve months, s.e. 1.01; significant in seven of twelve windows), interior incidents never do, and the two differ significantly in six of twelve windows. For vandalism, the discount is concentrated instead in interior incidents (-0.73 percent at six months, s.e. 0.25; 9 of 12 windows).[16] As a comparison, larceny shows no detectable discount at either location, and the difference is not statistically significant (Table OA15). The visibility of an incident may depend on both the offense and where it occurs. Vandalism at a residence may leave physical damage or become known to neighbors, while burglary at a home's frontage may leave more visible evidence than burglary inside a dwelling. Narcotics activity may likewise be more apparent at the frontage or on the street. These differences offer a possible explanation for the location patterns, although the recorded locations do not establish what information reaches buyers.

Target of the incident Among frontage incidents, damage to property can leave a visible trace at the site, whereas damage to a car can leave with the vehicle. Detailed vandalism codes distinguish property damage from vehicle damage.[17] Among frontage vandalism, property-damage incidents carry significant discounts in six of twelve windows, while vehicle-damage incidents show no significant discount at any window. The difference is significant at the ten-percent level at ten

[14] Bhattacharya et al. (2021) similarly find that deaths of residents occurring outside the home carry no discount, while deaths inside the unit do. Their comparison varies whether the event is attached to the property; mine varies whether an incident near the property is observable from the street. Frontage also includes porch, hallway, and common-area codes, which make up 39 percent of frontage-coded incidents across all offenses (Table OA14), so frontage is an imperfect proxy for street visibility.

[15] Interpreting this difference as evidence of observability assumes that interior and frontage burglaries signal similar future risks and that buyers value avoiding them similarly. The most evident difference between them works against the result: an intrusion into the dwelling is more harmful, so buyers who know of it should demand a larger discount, yet interior burglaries carry no detectable discount.

[16] CPD masks each incident to the hundred-block, so an interior record cannot be separated between the sold parcel and a neighbor's. For burglary this matters little, since the loss is the stolen contents and any entry damage is minor; for vandalism an interior record is damage to the property itself, which lowers its value as repair cost rather than through information. For vandalism, the location split therefore separates damage to the dwelling from damage outside it rather than visible from hidden incidents.

[17] Vandalism is the only priced offense for which detailed police offense codes distinguish property damage from vehicle damage; homicide targets a person, while burglary and narcotics codes record the method of entry or the drug, not the target.

Table 3: Within-Offense Comparisons by Incident Location and Target

	Exposure window (months before sale)											
	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Panel A. Observability: residential incidents, frontage versus interior												
Burglary												
Frontage (visible)	−0.37	−0.45	−0.54	−0.68	−0.54	−0.74**	−0.76**	−0.74**	−0.62**	−0.70**	−0.71***	−0.73***
	(0.77)	(0.59)	(0.49)	(0.46)	(0.41)	(0.36)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.29)	(0.27)	(0.25)	(0.24)
Interior (hidden)	−0.17	−0.27	−0.12	−0.11	−0.20	−0.30	−0.22	−0.14	−0.18	−0.19	−0.20	−0.13
	(0.47)	(0.30)	(0.26)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.13)	(0.13)	(0.13)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.824	0.796	0.457	0.258	0.462	0.299	0.183	0.109	0.182	0.098	0.081	0.030
Narcotics												
Frontage (visible)	−7.45	−3.68	−7.08**	−3.94	−4.63**	−4.63**	−3.17*	−3.54**	−2.59*	−2.92**	−2.86**	−2.35**
	(6.31)	(3.57)	(2.97)	(2.69)	(2.07)	(1.93)	(1.83)	(1.70)	(1.52)	(1.29)	(1.12)	(1.01)
Interior (hidden)	−1.20	−0.44	0.42	0.72	0.39	0.92	0.76	0.73	0.31	0.37	0.27	−0.28
	(2.74)	(1.94)	(1.41)	(1.20)	(1.06)	(1.00)	(0.88)	(0.80)	(0.78)	(0.75)	(0.74)	(0.72)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.344	0.424	0.023	0.118	0.035	0.014	0.063	0.025	0.087	0.029	0.025	0.111
Vandalism												
Frontage (visible)	0.76	1.02*	0.70*	0.32	0.15	−0.14	−0.45	−0.54*	−0.54*	−0.60**	−0.54**	−0.48**
	(0.74)	(0.55)	(0.42)	(0.37)	(0.33)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.30)	(0.29)	(0.28)	(0.26)	(0.24)
Interior (hidden)	−0.34	−0.70	−0.79*	−0.66**	−0.70**	−0.73***	−0.67***	−0.62***	−0.50**	−0.45**	−0.38**	−0.44**
	(0.67)	(0.51)	(0.40)	(0.31)	(0.28)	(0.25)	(0.23)	(0.23)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)
Frontage = interior (p)	0.246	0.024	0.010	0.047	0.056	0.170	0.557	0.847	0.892	0.671	0.626	0.883
Panel B. Vandalism, frontage incidents, by target												
Damage to property	0.85	1.06	0.80	0.22	0.03	−0.49	−0.89**	−0.95**	−0.91**	−1.03***	−0.92**	−0.89***
	(1.12)	(0.83)	(0.63)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.36)	(0.34)
Damage to vehicle	0.70	0.89	0.50	0.33	0.20	0.21	0.05	−0.07	−0.13	−0.08	−0.09	0.02
	(0.93)	(0.67)	(0.56)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.42)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.37)	(0.34)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.916	0.874	0.724	0.896	0.818	0.298	0.143	0.142	0.168	0.078	0.102	0.057

Notes. δ as in Table 2, at each window; standard errors below. Panel A splits residential burglary, narcotics, and vandalism incidents into frontage (garage, porch, yard, driveway, entryway, porch/hallway and common areas; Table OA14) and interior incidents. Panel B splits frontage vandalism by target. Last row of each panel: Wald p for equal effects. Post-sale placebos for the frontage components are significant in no window for any of the three offenses, and for the interior components in at most one window, except narcotics interior (six windows), which carries no discount; the pooled residential burglary coefficient, by contrast, is matched window-for-window by post-sale crime (Online Appendix C); both fixed-effect designs in Online Appendix D. The burglary frontage estimate rests on about 45,000 incidents; its post-sale placebo is not significant at five percent in any window.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

and twelve months (Table 3; Online Appendix D).[18]

Risk of future crime Prediction 2 asks whether price discounts reflect what an incident predicts about future crime near the property (b_k; Section 2). Suppose buyers learn of every nearby incident, revise their expectations in line with what it predicts, and value avoiding future crime similarly across incidents. Then incidents that predict the same increase in future crime should lower prices by the same amount, while an incident that predicts twice the increase should lower prices by about twice as much. In the framework, with $S_k = 1$ and a common w, the price effect is $\kappa_k = -w\, b_k(1)$, so discounts should be proportional to $b_k(1)$. I test this prediction in two ways: by comparing incidents on the property's block with those a few blocks away, and by comparing offenses.

I first ask whether incidents farther from a property predict future crime nearby and whether prices reflect that predictive information. Crime a few blocks away (0.20–0.30 miles) predicts future crime on the property's block for every offense at twelve months, even after controlling for the block's own past crime (Table A13). Yet these more distant incidents do not lower prices; the price discounts are concentrated near the property (Section 5.2). Price responses are therefore more geographically concentrated than the predictive information in crime. This pattern is consistent with buyers noticing mainly nearby incidents rather than using all available information to update their expectations about future crime.

A second test asks whether offenses that recur more strongly also carry larger price discounts. Some offenses predict future incidents more strongly than others, but price discounts do not follow this pattern. Homicide shows no positive persistence ($\rho = -0.03$, s.e. 0.01), yet carries the largest discount, about 3 percent. Non-domestic assault, by contrast, shows strong persistence ($\rho = 0.28$, s.e. 0.03), yet has an estimated price effect close to zero (-0.04 percent, s.e. 0.04; Table A12; Appendix D). This contrast suggests that recurrence alone does not explain which offenses enter prices.

5.5 Price Formation

Prediction 3 asks where in the transaction the discount appears. Sellers and buyers may learn of an incident at different times. If sellers know of it when they list, the asking price should already be lower. If buyers learn of it during their search, after the asking price is set, the discount should appear later: in price cuts, a lower sale-to-list ratio, a longer time on market, or withdrawal. I examine each of these margins.[19]

Price margins: Asking prices, price cuts, and sale-to-list ratios Burglary lowers asking prices across all listings (-0.20 percent at four months, s.e. 0.10; Figure 6), though only with parcel

[18] Because the police records mask each incident to the hundred-block, a frontage damage-to-property record can be the sold parcel itself, so this contrast carries an own-property component.

[19] The housing-market microstructure literature studies asking prices, price revisions, selling time, and transaction prices as jointly determined outcomes of search and bargaining (Knight, 2002; Merlo and Ortalo-Magné, 2004; Han and Strange, 2015).

fixed effects. Domestic assault lowers asking prices among homes that sell (−0.33 percent at twelve months, s.e. 0.10), the only asking-price response that is robust across fixed-effects specifications. Domestic assault also raises the probability of a price cut across all listings at four to twelve months (0.20 percentage points at five months, s.e. 0.07, about 0.6 percent of the mean), and by more among withdrawn listings (0.39 at four months, s.e. 0.13; Figure 7).

Narcotics instead lowers the sale-to-list ratio under both fixed-effects specifications (−0.16 percent at ten months, s.e. 0.06; Online Appendix Figure OF3). Because its asking price does not change, the discount appears after listing, consistent with buyers learning of these incidents during their search and negotiating lower prices. Responses for other offenses are confined to one sample or specification (Online Appendix Figures OF2 and OF3).

Market frictions: time on market, withdrawal, and back on market Crime also affects how long a home takes to sell. Among sold listings, sex offenses add about one day on the market[20] with parcel fixed effects, and homicide about two and a half days with parcel-by-era fixed effects, but neither is robust across both specifications (Online Appendix Figures OF4 and OF5). The clearest friction is for weapons violations, which raise the probability that a listing is withdrawn, leaving the market without a sale (0.63 percentage points at six months, s.e. 0.18), and the probability that a home comes back on the market after an earlier listing failed to sell (0.36 at eight months, s.e. 0.16; Online Appendix E.1), under both specifications (Online Appendix Figures OF6 and OF7). Sale prices are observed only for listings that sell. If owners facing larger crime-related discounts are more likely to withdraw their homes from the market, those discounts will be missing from the sale-price data. Estimates based on completed sales may therefore understate how much crime would lower prices if all listed homes sold (Section 6).

Real estate agent experience Prior work shows that real estate agents often know more about the market than their clients and face different incentives: because agents receive only a small share of any increase in the sale price, they may prefer a quick sale to holding out for a higher price (Rutherford et al., 2005; Levitt and Syverson, 2008). Agents' experience also matters for transaction outcomes (Gilbukh and Goldsmith-Pinkham, 2024).[21] Listing agents with more local experience may be better informed about nearby crime and advise sellers to set lower asking prices in response. Incentives to sell quickly could also contribute to this response. I examine whether the relationship between nearby crime and prices varies with agents' local experience across all twenty-two offenses. Asking prices fall more after nearby crime when the listing agent has more experience in the tract, measured by the number of prior listings there. This pattern is most persistent for robbery, fraud, both types of assault, and homicide (Table 4). Among buyer agents, more local

[20] Estimates for logged outcomes are $100\hat{\beta}$ (log points). Day equivalents are illustrative: they apply the implied percentage change, $100(e^{\hat{\beta}} - 1)$, to the median days on market in the corresponding estimation sample; they are not estimated changes in the median.

[21] On the structure of the brokerage market, see Hendel et al. (2009), Han and Hong (2011), and Barwick and Pathak (2015).

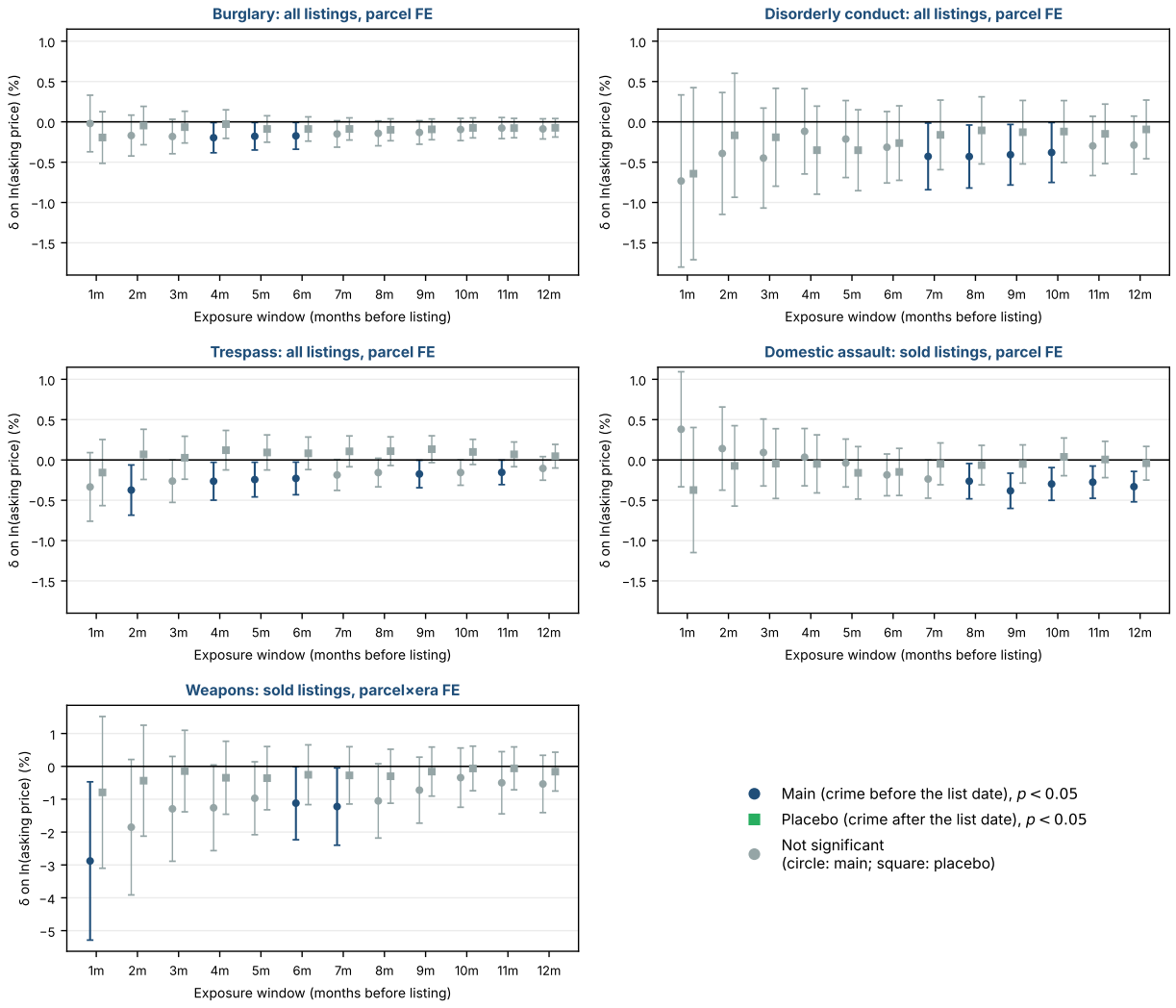


Figure 6: Asking-Price Responses to Nearby Crime

Notes. Near–far estimates (0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 miles) of the effect of one additional incident on the original asking price, in percent (100× the coefficient on the log asking price), at exposure windows of one to twelve months before the list date. Circles: crime in the window before the list date. Squares: placebo, crime in the same window after the list date; colored markers are significant at five percent. Burglary, disorderly conduct, and trespass: all sale listings, sold or withdrawn ($N = 985{,}586$), parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects. Domestic assault and weapons violations: listings that sold ($N = 235{,}030$), parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects for domestic assault and parcel-by-era and tract × list-month fixed effects for weapons violations. Except for domestic assault, significance depends on the fixed-effects specification. The vertical scale is common across panels except for weapons violations. 95 percent intervals; standard errors clustered by census tract.

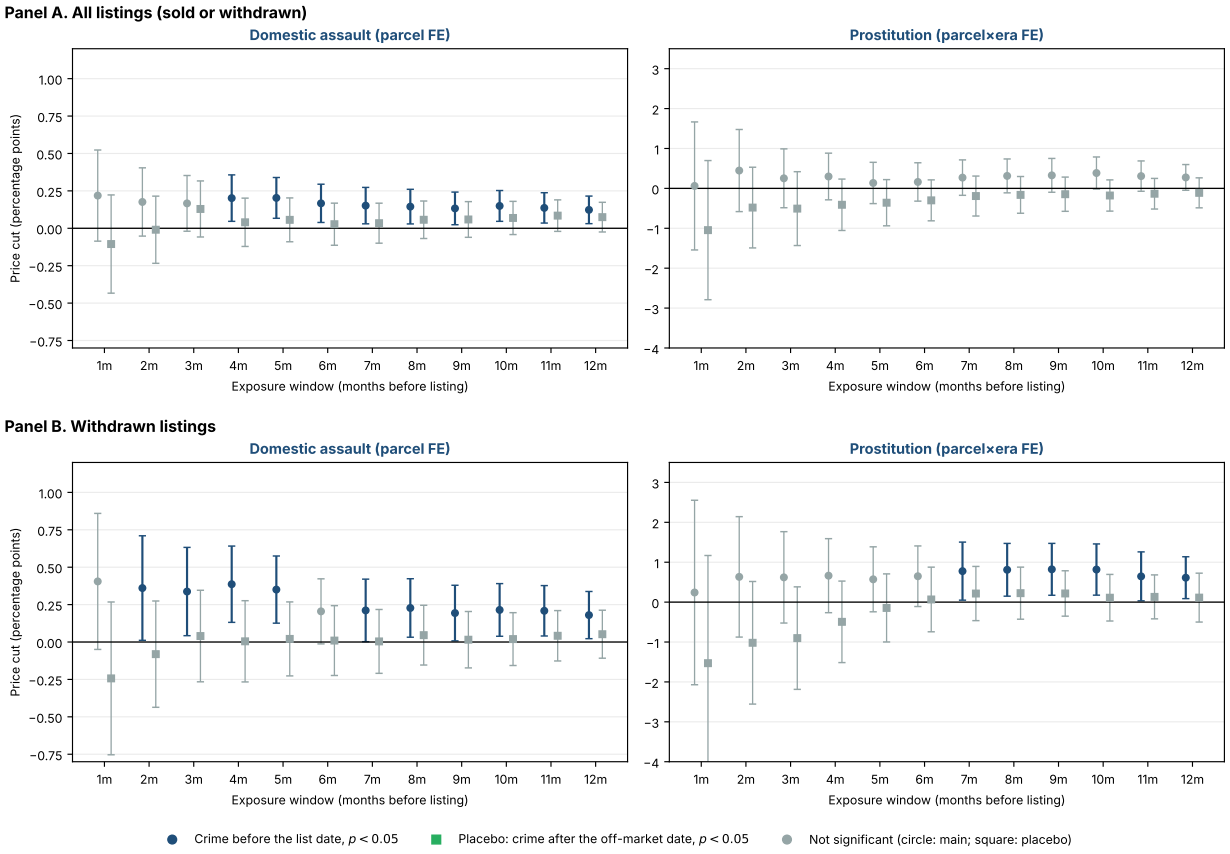


Figure 7: Probability of a Price Cut and Nearby Crime

Notes. Near–far estimates (0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 miles) of the effect of one additional incident on the probability of a price cut, in percentage points, at each exposure window (months before the list date). The outcome is an indicator, scaled by 100, for whether the asking price when the listing leaves the market is below the original asking price. This measure compares the final and original asking prices and does not capture intermediate price changes. Circles: crime in the window before the list date. Squares: placebo, crime in the same window after the off-market date. Colored markers are significant at five percent. All specifications include tract × list-month fixed effects and differ only in the property fixed effect: parcel fixed effects for domestic assault and parcel-by-era fixed effects for prostitution. Domestic assault is not significant with parcel-by-era fixed effects, and prostitution is not significant with parcel fixed effects. The vertical scale is common across panels except for prostitution. 95 percent intervals; standard errors clustered by census tract.

Table 4: Agent Local Experience and Price Responses

	Local experience			+ Total experience
Offense	Most negative (s.e.)	Most positive (s.e.)	Sig. windows (−/+)	Sig. windows (−/+)
Panel A. Listing agent, asking price				
Homicide	-1.16^{***} (0.40)	−0.04 (0.62)	7/0	1/0
Burglary	−0.02 (0.04)	0.08 (0.06)	0/0	0/0
Narcotics	-0.13^{**} (0.06)	−0.06 (0.10)	7/0	0/0
Vandalism	-0.07^{**} (0.03)	−0.02 (0.08)	3/0	3/0
Robbery	-0.27^{***} (0.06)	−0.08 (0.13)	10/0	9/0
Domestic assault	-0.30^{***} (0.09)	−0.05 (0.04)	8/0	7/0
Non-domestic assault	-0.13^{***} (0.04)	−0.04 (0.03)	9/0	7/0
Fraud	-0.10^{**} (0.04)	-0.05^{**} (0.02)	9/0	9/0
Disorderly conduct	−0.26 (0.19)	0.15 (0.28)	0/0	0/0
Arson	−0.09 (0.49)	0.78 (0.89)	0/0	0/0
Panel B. Buyer's agent, closing price				
Homicide	-4.45^{**} (1.85)	−0.68 (0.63)	6/0	5/0
Burglary	0.02 (0.10)	0.38^{**} (0.19)	0/1	0/2
Narcotics	−0.04 (0.33)	0.27^{*} (0.15)	0/1	0/1
Vandalism	−0.03 (0.10)	0.10^{**} (0.04)	0/2	0/1
Robbery	−0.03 (0.06)	0.30 (0.20)	0/0	0/1
Domestic assault	−0.13 (0.09)	0.10 (0.19)	0/0	3/0
Non-domestic assault	0.01 (0.02)	0.32^{***} (0.11)	0/3	0/3
Fraud	−0.09 (0.05)	0.04 (0.03)	0/0	0/0
Disorderly conduct	-0.34^{**} (0.13)	0.04 (0.25)	4/0	5/0
Arson	1.17^{*} (0.62)	3.17^{**} (1.35)	0/6	0/7

Notes. Rows: the four priced offenses and the other offenses discussed in the text; Appendix Table A19 reports all twenty-two offenses. Near–far effect (0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 miles) interacted with agent local experience, $E = \ln(1 + \text{prior same-agent listings in the tract})$. Panel A: listing agent, log asking price. Panel B: buyer's agent, log closing price. Gradient: change in the near–far effect, 100× log points, per standard deviation of E (s.d. 1.20 for listing agents and 0.71 for buyer's agents, each on its estimation sample); negative values mean the price response to nearby crime is more negative when the agent has more local experience. Most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve exposure windows (one to twelve months); significant windows: number of the twelve windows significant at five percent, negative/positive. + Total experience adds the agent's total experience (all prior listings, in any tract) interacted with near and far exposure, holding it fixed so the gradient separates knowledge of the neighborhood from general expertise. Parcel, tract × month, and agent fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract. Panel A $N = 972{,}629$; Panel B $N = 186{,}510$.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

experience is associated with larger closing-price discounts after disorderly conduct (four of twelve windows), with no corresponding gradient for crime after the sale (Appendix F.1). Closing prices near arson are higher when the buyer's agent has more local experience; this may reflect which buyers experienced agents represent, including investors, rather than differences in how they assess crime risk. These patterns are consistent with experienced listing agents helping sellers learn about nearby crime and adjust asking prices.

Controlling for total experience leaves most of these listing-agent gradients significant, but eliminates the narcotics gradient and leaves homicide's significant only at ten months (Table A18). Agent assignment is not random, so these estimates describe associations rather than causal effects.

The quantity margin Crime may also change how many homes come to market relative to how many sell. Using an annual parcel panel, I estimate each offense's effect on the listing rate (the share of parcels listed in a year, 6.0 percent on average) and the turnover rate (the share that sell, 3.8 percent), with parcel and tract-by-year fixed effects, measuring crime in the previous calendar year so that it precedes the listing (Online Appendix Table OA18). For six of the twenty-two offenses, nearby crime raises the listing rate significantly more than the turnover rate. For homicide, the next year's listing rate rises by 0.11 percentage points (s.e. 0.05), about 1.9 percent of the mean, with no detectable change in the turnover rate; the difference between the two is significant only at the ten percent level. A lead test, using crime in the following year, is null for homicide, domestic and non-domestic assault, and gambling, but not for burglary, narcotics, vandalism, disorderly conduct, and robbery: future crime also predicts more listings there, which could reflect local crime trends or vacant listed homes attracting crime. I therefore treat these quantity estimates as suggestive.[22]

Taken together, these margins illustrate how the market responds to crime beyond closing prices. Domestic assault shows adjustment on the seller's side: asking prices are lower, and price cuts are more likely, especially among listings that are later withdrawn. There is also suggestive evidence that more parcels are listed without a corresponding increase in sales. Price cuts followed by withdrawal are consistent with sellers lowering their asking prices but failing to obtain acceptable offers. Among completed sales, however, closing prices show no statistically significant discount. One possible explanation is that sellers, particularly those living in the property, know about incidents that leave little visible evidence for visiting buyers. For narcotics, adjustment appears at closing: sale prices and the sale-to-list ratio fall, while asking prices show no detectable change. This pattern is consistent with buyers learning about nearby drug activity during their search and negotiating lower prices, although it does not establish when or how they become informed. Weapons violations provide one example of adjustment in whether a transaction proceeds: listings are more likely to be withdrawn and later relisted under both fixed-effects specifications, without a consistent sale-price discount.

5.6 Heterogeneity

Housing-market conditions changed sharply over the sample, so I test whether the discounts differ between the 2009–2013 foreclosure crisis and the 2014–2025 recovery. I interact near–far exposure with era indicators, with 2007–2008 as the base, and estimate each era's discount in one regression. The point estimates suggest larger discounts for burglary and vandalism during the crisis and for homicide during the recovery, but Wald tests do not reject equality across eras for any of the four priced offenses (p-values range from 0.10 to 0.63; Appendix I).

The discounts also vary with neighborhood socioeconomic status. All four priced offenses carry larger discounts in lower-income and less-educated tracts (Table OA20). To examine this pattern,

[22] The turnover rate is the parcel-level counterpart of the tract-level measure studied by Boggess et al. (2013), who find that higher neighborhood crime is followed by more housing sales, with sales inhibited only where crime and vacancy are already high.

I interact the near–far term with each of ten standardized, predetermined tract characteristics, one at a time, controlling for the tract's baseline crime level. A one-standard-deviation increase in tract income is associated with a 2.28-percentage-point smaller homicide discount (s.e. 1.07); burglary, narcotics, and vandalism show the same pattern, with smaller differences. The relationship between nearby crime and prices also varies with income for offenses with no average discount, including trespass and fraud. Income, poverty, education, home values, and rents are strongly correlated across tracts, so these results suggest a broader socioeconomic gradient rather than distinct effects of each characteristic. Including income together with racial composition or segregation does not consistently separate their roles (Online Appendix G).

6 Robustness

6.1 Threats to Identification

Reverse Causality and Mean Reversion Two other patterns could produce an apparent discount even if crime did not lower prices. First, low prices on a block could attract crime, so that prices affect crime rather than crime affecting prices. Second, a home that sold at a temporarily depressed price could appreciate by its next sale simply by returning to normal. If changes in crime are correlated with that rebound, the estimated relationship could partly reflect mean reversion rather than an effect of crime. To assess these concerns, I use a post-sale placebo that replaces crime before the sale with crime after it, which cannot affect a price already set. For the four priced offenses, the placebo estimates are insignificant in almost all specifications: across 63 specifications per offense, crime after the sale is significant in none for homicide or vandalism, one for narcotics, and four for burglary (bottom panels of Figure 8 and Figures A4–A6). Burglary warrants more caution at six months, where the post-sale estimates are significant and the pre-sale discount is largest (-0.34 percent, s.e. 0.14; Table A3). Widening the near ring to 0–0.10 miles addresses this concern: the placebo is insignificant at every window, while the burglary discount remains significant at six to eight months (-0.14 percent at eight months, s.e. 0.07; Section 5.3).

Prior Neighborhood and Housing-Market Conditions I add the ten controls for prior neighborhood and housing-market conditions described in Section 3: five neighborhood measures, each entered separately for the near and far rings, and five housing-market measures from the MLS, all measured before the crime-exposure window. Point estimates and standard errors change little (Appendix Table A20), and all four discounts remain significant at the five-percent level when all ten controls are included.

Cross-Crime Confounding A discount attributed to one offense could reflect another offense that occurs nearby. Entering all twenty-two offenses' near–far terms jointly at a common twelve-month window leaves their estimates nearly unchanged (Online Appendix Table OA27; separate estimates in Appendix Table A3).

Sample Selection The repeat-sales estimates may be affected by selection if crime changes which properties sell and those changes are related to unobserved determinants of sale prices. I examine this in three ways. First, nearby crime barely changes whether a parcel sells. In an annual panel of all Chicago dwelling parcels, with parcel and tract-by-year fixed effects and crime measured in the previous year, burglary is the only priced offense with a statistically significant effect on the probability that a parcel sells, 0.05 percentage points (s.e. 0.01) against a base rate of 3.8 percent (Table OA18). This does not rule out changes in the composition of properties sold. Second, a Heckman correction, which uses mortgage-rate lock-in to predict whether an owner sells, leaves the crime coefficients largely unchanged (Online Appendix L). Third, a cross-sectional hedonic regression on all sales, including properties that sell only once, replaces the parcel fixed effect with observed characteristics and keeps the four priced discounts negative and significant (Table A21).

The hedonic estimates are larger than the repeat-sales estimates for burglary, narcotics, and vandalism and smaller for homicide. Robbery, domestic and non-domestic assault, and motor-vehicle theft also have significant negative estimates in the hedonic specification, but these shrink substantially under repeat sales, with comparable or smaller standard errors. This pattern is consistent with these offenses being concentrated near properties with persistently lower values, differences that parcel fixed effects absorb but observed hedonic controls may not fully capture. The difference does not reflect sample composition: estimated on the repeat-sales homes alone, the hedonic specification gives similar discounts for these offenses, for example -0.70 percent for robbery (s.e. 0.23), compared with -0.72 on all sales (Table A21).

Reporting Endogeneity Recorded incidents reflect both underlying crime and reporting or detection. The near–far comparison helps account for reporting differences shared by nearby locations, and the largest discount is for homicide, one of the most reliably measured crimes (Fox and Zawitz, 2003). Differences in reporting also do not explain which offenses are priced. Nationally, motor vehicle theft is reported to police in 72 percent of victimizations and burglary in 42 percent (Tapp and Coen, 2024), yet only burglary carries a discount. Estimates remain nearly unchanged after controlling for predetermined 311 requests, which proxy for reporting activity and neighborhood conditions (Table A20). Post-sale placebos provide an additional robustness check (Section 6.3). Bias could remain if reporting or enforcement changes not captured by the controls differ between the rings and covary with unobserved determinants of sale prices.

6.2 Exposure Specification and Inference

Selection into Zero Exposure Properties with no nearby crime could differ from exposed properties in unobserved ways that also affect closing prices. The maintained selection-on-observables assumption is that, conditional on the controls and fixed effects, crime exposure is unrelated to unobserved determinants of closing prices. If the causal dose–response relationship is continuous at zero, this assumption implies that any discontinuity in closing prices at zero exposure should be fully explained by the controls and fixed effects.

Caetano (2015) proposes testing for unobserved selection by examining whether the outcome jumps at a value where exposure bunches, such as zero nearby crime. Caetano et al. (2021) develop a related test that adds an indicator for this bunching point to the outcome regression and tests whether its coefficient is zero. The intuition is that, if the causal dose–response relationship is continuous at zero, a remaining jump in closing prices signals unobserved selection: unexposed and minimally exposed properties differ in price determinants that the controls and fixed effects do not explain. Under selection on observables, these controls and fixed effects should fully account for the discontinuity.

I apply these tests at zero crime exposure to narcotics, vandalism, and burglary, the three priced offenses with sufficient observations at positive exposure levels to estimate the dose–response relationship. Homicide exposure is too sparse: about 98 percent of sales have no nearby homicide within the ten-month window. The test adds to the baseline specification an indicator equal to one when a sale has no incident of the offense in the near ring during the window, and tests whether its coefficient is zero. A nonzero coefficient means that sales with no nearby incident are priced differently from what the relationship among exposed sales predicts. For narcotics and vandalism, the coefficient on the indicator is not statistically significant once the baseline fixed effects are included. Adding the indicator leaves the narcotics estimate nearly unchanged and makes the vandalism estimate more negative. For burglary, the coefficient is significant even with parcel fixed effects (-0.98, s.e. 0.32): sales with no nearby burglary sell for about one percent less than the relationship among exposed sales predicts. Because these sales lie below that relationship, they flatten the estimated slope; once the indicator absorbs them, the estimated discount moves from -0.24 (s.e. 0.12) to -0.55 (s.e. 0.17). With a wider 0–0.10 mile near ring, however, the test does not reject, and the burglary discount remains significant (-0.14, s.e. 0.07; Table A6; Online Appendix M).

Functional Form I compare three ways of measuring crime exposure: raw counts, an indicator for any incident, and the inverse hyperbolic sine (IHS) transformation (Table OA26). Homicide's estimated discount remains significant under all three at its main window. For burglary, narcotics, and vandalism, only the raw-count estimates are significant at five percent, although narcotics remains negative under all three forms. The count-indicator specification allows a more flexible relationship and shows significant discounts for four or more burglaries and vandalism incidents (Table OA7; Online Appendix I).

Spatial Standard Errors Baseline standard errors are clustered by census tract (Cameron and Miller, 2015). Conley standard errors that allow correlation across tract boundaries, with cutoffs of 0.5 and 1.0 km (Conley, 1999), give similar inference: homicide, burglary, and vandalism remain significant at five percent under both cutoffs, and narcotics at five percent at 0.5 km and ten percent at 1.0 km (Table OA23). Clustering instead by the 77 community areas, a much coarser unit, leaves homicide and burglary significant at five percent and vandalism at ten percent, while narcotics is not significant at ten percent ($p = 0.12$).

6.3 Specification Curves and Spatial Checks

Specification curves: sale prices Figure 8 reports the sale-price specification curve for vandalism (narcotics, homicide, and burglary appear in Figures A4–A6; theft, an offense with no detectable discount, appears in Figure 9 as a comparison: 0 of 63 specifications are significant at five percent); each curve sorts the near–far discount $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ across 63 specifications. The specifications vary the exposure window, the fixed effects, the comparison ring, the functional form, and the predetermined controls; the notes to Figure 8 list the full grid. The window begins at six months because shorter windows fall inside the listing and under-contract period, where measured pre-sale exposure is sparse and partly contemporaneous with the sale itself.

Nearly all specifications are negative for the four priced offenses; the exceptions are the presence-indicator estimates for burglary (0.54, s.e. 0.98) and vandalism (about 0.46), both imprecise. The discount is significant at five percent in 33 of 63 specifications for vandalism, 29 for narcotics, 29 for burglary, and 15 for homicide, whose point estimates range from about −3.6 percent to about zero with wide intervals. The post-sale placebo is significant in none of the 63 for homicide and vandalism, one for narcotics (the presence indicator at ten months), and four for burglary (the linear count at six months under each of the three far rings, and the inverse hyperbolic sine at eight months).[23] The full curve over all one-to-twelve-month exposure windows (103 specifications) is reported in Online Appendix OF10–OF13.

Spatial bands Moving the comparison ring out to 0.25–0.35 or 0.30–0.40 miles leaves the estimates nearly unchanged (Table A6). A falsification test that moves the treatment band outward to 0.05–0.10, 0.10–0.15, or 0.15–0.20 miles yields significantly negative estimates in one of seventy-two specifications for burglary, none for narcotics, and four for vandalism. All four vandalism estimates occur in the 0.15–0.20-mile band. This pattern is consistent with effects concentrated within 0.05 miles.

Homicide behaves differently. It is significant in 11 of 72 specifications outside the near ring, all in the 0.10–0.15 band and at windows of three to nine months (for example, −2.86 percent, s.e. 0.89, at six months under the baseline fixed effects and comparison ring), while the intervening 0.05–0.10 band shows no significant discount. At homicide's ten-month main window, the band estimate is −1.16 percent (s.e. 0.64), compared with −3.02 percent (s.e. 1.38) within 0.05 miles. Homicide is therefore robust at the doorstep but, unlike the other three offenses, not localized to it. In Section 5.4, the homicide discount is significant for incidents on the street but not at residential addresses; the two estimates differ significantly only at the twelve-month window ($p = 0.046$). Homicide's estimated price effects extend beyond the near ring, but the comparison-ring coefficient is small and statistically insignificant at ten months (0.20, s.e. 0.35; Table OA6). Omitting the far-ring control leaves the estimated discount similar: −2.83 percent (s.e. 1.35), compared with

[23] The specification curve shows how stable the estimates are across modeling choices. The specifications share data and most modeling choices. Their estimates are therefore dependent, and the number of significant estimates is descriptive rather than a formal test.

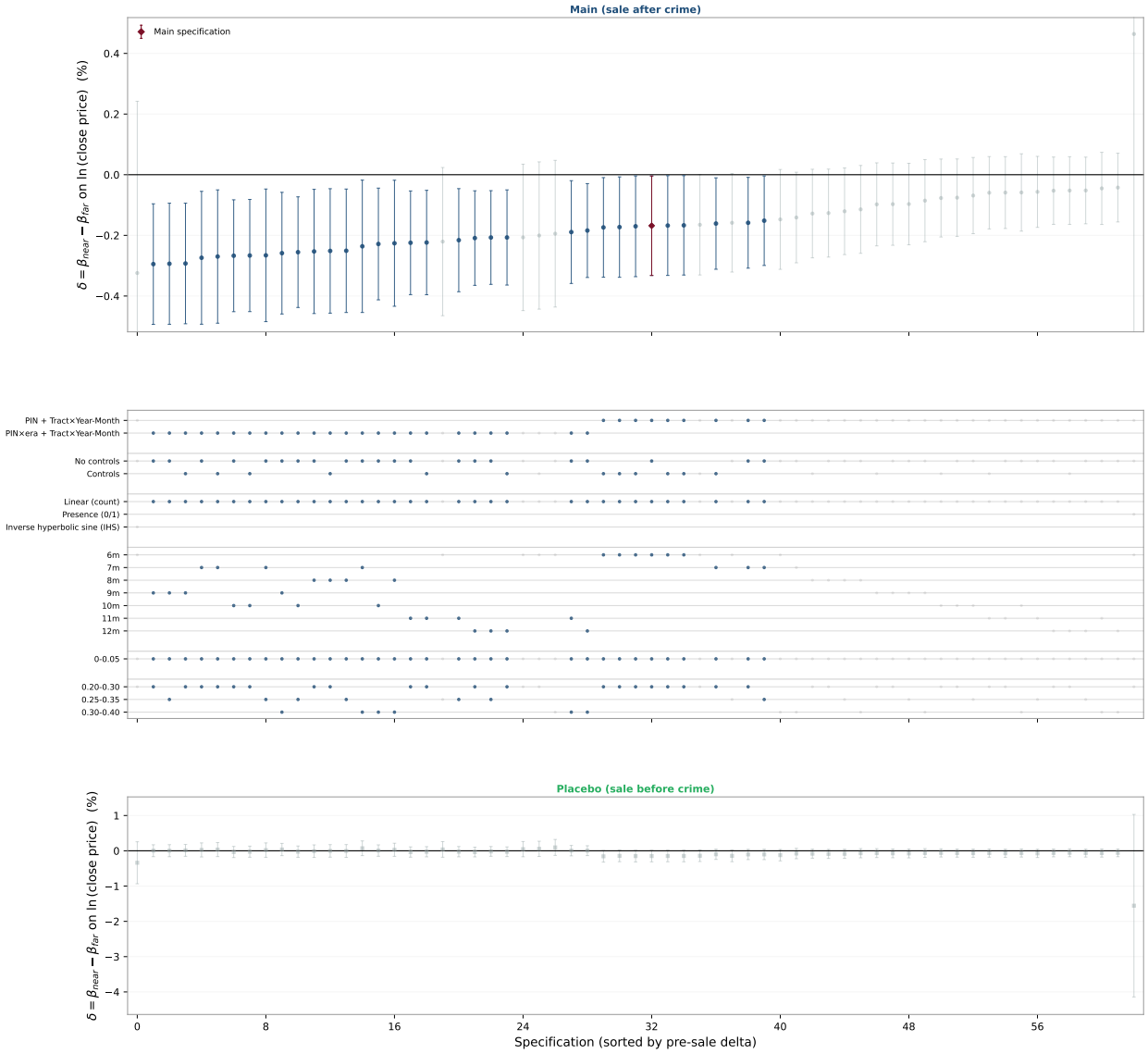


Figure 8: Vandalism: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. Common to this figure, Figure 9, and Figures A4–A6. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window from six to twelve months, the fixed-effect design (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time). Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, and no controls, at each offense's main window: ten months for homicide and narcotics, eight for burglary, and six for vandalism. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: the post-sale placebo, which replaces pre-sale crime with crime after the sale. All years pooled (2007–2025); standard errors clustered by tract. Vandalism: 33/63 significant at five percent; placebo 0/63.

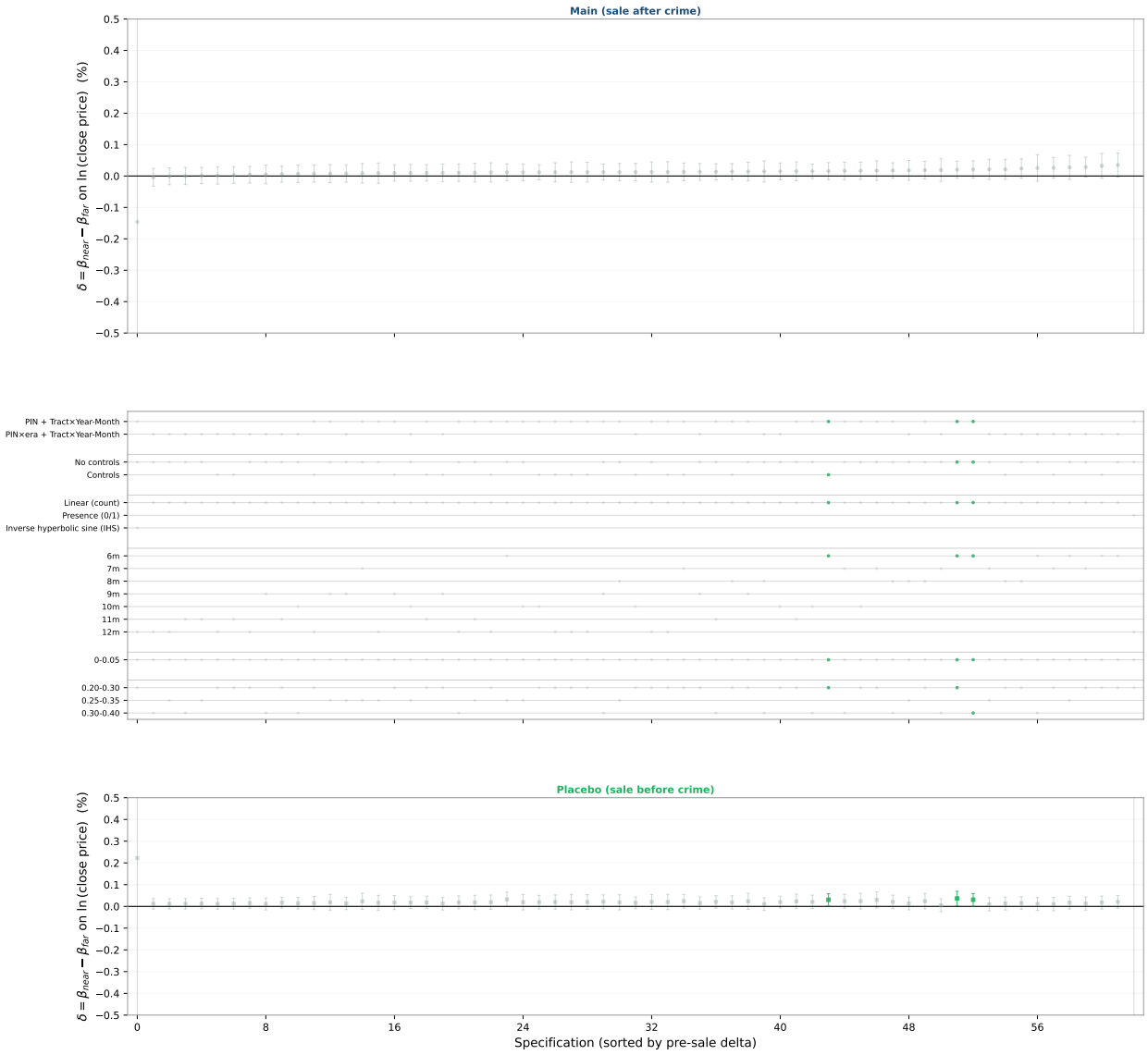


Figure 9: Theft: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a twelve-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Theft: 0/63 significant at 5%, placebo 3/63. The vertical axis is cut at ±0.5 percent.

the baseline near–far estimate of −3.02 percent (s.e. 1.38). The other priced offenses are similar: omitting the far-ring terms gives −0.32 percent for narcotics at ten months (baseline −0.29), −0.27 for burglary at eight months (baseline −0.24), and −0.16 for vandalism at six months (baseline −0.17), with far-ring coefficients no larger than 0.04 in absolute value at those windows (Table OA6).

Significantly negative post-sale placebo estimates outside the near ring number 4 of 72 for narcotics, 5 of 72 for burglary and vandalism, and none for homicide.

Exposure Concentration Leaving out each census tract in turn leaves the four priced estimates similar in magnitude, with jackknife standard errors close to the baseline clustered estimates. Excluding the twenty most exposed tracts produces larger changes for homicide, whose estimated discount declines from 3.02 (s.e. 1.38) to 2.03 percent (s.e. 1.53; $p = 0.18$); the estimates for the other three priced offenses remain of comparable magnitude (Online Appendix H.3).

7 Discussion

7.1 Information, beliefs, and price effects

The framework organizes these findings around observability (S_k), belief updating (b_k), and willingness to pay to avoid exposure (w_k). The concentration of price discounts among a few offenses may partly reflect differences in observability, that is, in how information about incidents reaches buyers. Buyers can learn of nearby incidents through visible evidence, media coverage, or intermediaries such as real estate agents.

Within-offense comparisons provide the most direct evidence on observability (S_k), since they hold the offense fixed and vary only where the incident occurs. More visible locations serve as a proxy for what market participants are more likely to observe or learn about: a burglary at a home's porch or garage may leave signs visible from the street, while one inside the dwelling usually does not. Consistent with this, burglary discounts are concentrated among frontage incidents, and homicide discounts among incidents on the street (Tables A7 and 3). Location may, however, change relevance as well as visibility. Relevance alone would predict the opposite pattern for burglary: an intrusion inside the dwelling is arguably more relevant to occupants than one at the porch or garage, yet only frontage burglaries are priced. The pattern is therefore more consistent with visibility. Media coverage provides a complementary route to awareness: homicide receives unusually extensive coverage per recorded incident and carries the largest discount.[24] This could make a rare incident widely known, although coverage and severity cannot be separated in this comparison. Existing evidence on media coverage and house prices is mixed (Klimova and Lee, 2014; Moreno-Medina, 2026). Real estate agents may also convey information that buyers and sellers would otherwise

[24]The Media Cloud measure (Roberts et al., 2021) divides deduplicated articles mentioning Chicago and an offense, from thirty Chicago news outlets in 2013–2024, by recorded Chicago incidents over the same period (Online Appendix A.1). The ratios are 4.5 for homicide and 0.22 for arson, the next-highest of the twelve categories examined. Comparisons depend on search terms and measure relative media attention rather than coverage of individual incidents or buyers' awareness.

miss, and a listing agent's local experience serves as a proxy for how much of that information reaches the transaction. More negative asking-price responses among locally experienced listing agents are consistent with this channel, although nonrandom assignment and significant placebo responses for some offenses qualify the interpretation (Section 5.5). Together, the location, media, and agent evidence suggests that access to information matters, without establishing how buyers learn of particular incidents.

An incident's price effect depends on what buyers think it signals about future crime (b_k). A buyer may view crime on the home's block as a warning about living there, while treating crime a few blocks away as less relevant. Yet incidents in the farther ring predict future crime on the property's own block (Table A13), although their incremental predictive power is modest. Price discounts, by contrast, are concentrated closer to the home (Section 5.4). Farther incidents therefore contain information about the exposure buyers would face, but that information is not reflected in prices in the same way. Similarly, offenses that recur more often do not necessarily carry larger discounts. Buyers may give nearby incidents greater weight when updating their beliefs, or simply be more likely to hear about them. The evidence establishes the predictive relevance of farther incidents but cannot distinguish how buyers interpret that information from whether they receive it.

Survey evidence that homebuyers prioritize neighborhood safety supports the importance of preferences over crime exposure, represented in the framework by willingness to pay (w_k) (Anderson, 2025). Yet valuing safety need not imply a price response to every recorded incident. An incident affects valuations only if buyers learn of it and revise their expectations about exposure they wish to avoid. That only a few offenses are priced therefore does not imply that buyers place little value on safety, although preferences may also differ across offenses. Severity likely matters too: homicide carries the largest discount. Its extensive media coverage, however, makes it difficult to separate the value of avoiding severe harm from greater awareness. The evidence supports preferences, awareness, and beliefs as joint determinants of price effects, while leaving their separate contributions unresolved.

7.2 Welfare and policy

The estimates measure price responses among completed transactions, not average household willingness to pay to avoid crime. Buyers most averse to crime may avoid exposed properties, leaving a selected group of purchasers. Negotiated prices also reflect sellers' valuations and bargaining positions, while buyers may consider resale prospects as well as current occupancy. The data do not separate these influences.

Sale prices may understate the benefits of crime reduction for two reasons. First, not every offense is priced. When buyers are unaware of incidents, the harm those incidents cause may not be reflected in what they pay, so reducing different offenses by the same amount need not produce similar price gains, and price effects need not rank offenses by the harm they impose on victims (McCollister et al., 2010). Second, some costs of crime appear in market frictions rather than in

the sale price. A home that stays on the market longer costs its seller mortgage payments, taxes, and upkeep until it sells, along with the time and effort of continued search. A withdrawn listing may mean a move that is delayed or abandoned, or a property put to another use, such as renting it out. The welfare implications of these frictions depend on what follows.

Information disclosure raises a distinct policy question. If observability contributes to price responses, crime maps or disclosure rules may change property values without changing underlying crime. A resulting price decline need not indicate a welfare loss; it may reflect better information about an existing risk. Conversely, higher prices following the removal of crime information would not establish that a neighborhood had become safer. For policymakers who use house prices to evaluate crime reduction or disclosure, a price change may reflect a change in risk or a change in what buyers know about it, and the two have different welfare implications. The same distinction applies whenever house prices are used to measure the effects of local risks, such as flooding, pollution, or other local disamenities.

7.3 Scope

For enforcement-sensitive offenses, price responses may reflect policing as well as underlying crime. Enforcement affects recorded offense counts (Levitt, 1998) and can itself affect local well-being (Ang, 2021; Legewie and Fagan, 2019). Among the four priced offenses, this concern applies most directly to narcotics, whose incidents are largely recorded through police activity. The design addresses it in two ways. Enforcement that covers the surrounding area, such as a district-wide crackdown or more patrols on a beat, affects the near and far rings alike and is removed by the near–far comparison, and enforcement across a tract is absorbed by the tract-by-month fixed effects. Enforcement concentrated on a block, such as hot-spot policing, typically persists beyond a single sale and would therefore also raise recorded narcotics after the sale, but the post-sale placebos show no such pattern (Figure A4).

The geographic reach of crime's price effects may differ across cities. The estimates measure the price response per additional incident within 0.05 miles relative to one 0.20–0.30 miles away. The design can be applied elsewhere, but the same radius may encompass different numbers of properties and blocks. Generalizability depends on density, street layout, housing-market conditions, and how buyers learn about incidents. Differences in price effects across neighborhood income and education levels within Chicago also suggest that socioeconomic composition matters when comparing findings across settings (Section 5.6).

Sale and rental estimates differ in magnitude and sometimes in sign, but these differences cannot be attributed solely to resale exposure. The smaller lease sample generally yields less precise estimates and consists of formal, MLS-listed units. Differences in properties, household characteristics, and preferences may contribute to the gap. Purchasing also exposes owners to future resale values, while renting primarily buys occupancy. Moreover, the rental outcomes are landlords' asking rents, whereas sale prices reflect completed negotiations. The rental findings therefore apply to posted rents in the MLS market and may not extend to rentals outside it.

8 Conclusion

Homebuyers care about safety, yet most offenses carry no detectable sale-price discount. Relating changes in a property's sale price across its sales to changes in crime within about a block, relative to crime a few blocks away, I find discounts across multiple exposure windows for only four of twenty-two offense categories: homicide, burglary, narcotics, and vandalism. Neither severity nor measured recurrence alone explains which offenses are priced. Three patterns suggest that the observability of crime matters: price effects are more localized than the predictive relationships in recorded crime; price responses strengthen with real estate agents' local experience; and, for a given offense, more visible incidents lower prices more. The market's response is also not confined to closing prices: some offenses affect asking prices, price cuts, or withdrawals instead.

These findings highlight two reasons why sale prices alone may not fully reveal buyers' willingness to pay to avert crime. First, not every offense is priced, and the absence of a discount need not mean that buyers do not care: an incident buyers never learn of cannot lower the price they pay. Observed price responses to crime therefore may not indicate willingness to pay to avert it. Second, some offenses affect the transaction between listing and sale, through asking prices, price cuts, and listing withdrawals, and may never show up in closing prices. As a result, sale prices may undervalue safety, and evaluations based on them may understate the benefits of crime reduction.

References

Nicolás Ajzenman, Sebastián Galiani, and Enrique Seira. On the distributive costs of drug-related homicides. *Journal of Law and Economics*, 58(4):779–803, 2015. doi: 10.1086/685075.

Dana Anderson. One in five house hunters is willing to compromise personal safety to afford a home. Redfin News, Aug 2025. Survey fielded May 2025. `https://www.redfin.com/news/survey-homebuyers-compromise-safety/`.

Elliot Anenberg and Edward Kung. Estimates of the size and source of price declines due to nearby foreclosures. *American Economic Review*, 104(8):2527–2551, 2014. doi: 10.1257/aer.104.8.2527.

Desmond Ang. The effects of police violence on inner-city students. *The Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 136(1):115–168, 2021.

Laura A. Bakkensen and Lint Barrage. Going underwater? Flood risk belief heterogeneity and coastal home price dynamics. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 35(8):3666–3709, 2022. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhab122.

Panle Jia Barwick and Parag A. Pathak. The costs of free entry: An empirical study of real estate agents in Greater Boston. *RAND Journal of Economics*, 46(1):103–145, 2015. doi: 10.1111/1756-2171.12082.

Asaf Bernstein, Matthew T. Gustafson, and Ryan Lewis. Disaster on the horizon: The price effect of sea level rise. *Journal of Financial Economics*, 134(2):253–272, 2019. doi: 10.1016/j.jfineco.2019.03.013.

Timothy Besley and Hannes Mueller. Estimating the peace dividend: The impact of violence on house prices in Northern Ireland. *American Economic Review*, 102(2):810–833, 2012. doi: 10.1257/aer.102.2.810.

Utpal Bhattacharya, Daisy Huang, and Kasper Meisner Nielsen. Spillovers in prices: The curious case of haunted houses. *Review of Finance*, 25(3):903–935, 2021.

Kelly C. Bishop and Alvin D. Murphy. Estimating the willingness to pay to avoid violent crime: A dynamic approach. *American Economic Review: Papers and Proceedings*, 101(3):625–629, 2011. doi: 10.1257/aer.101.3.625.

Lyndsay N. Boggess, Robert T. Greenbaum, and George E. Tita. Does crime drive housing sales? Evidence from Los Angeles. *Journal of Crime and Justice*, 36(3):299–318, 2013. doi: 10.1080/0735648X.2013.812976.

Pedro Bordalo, Nicola Gennaioli, and Andrei Shleifer. Salience theory of choice under risk. *Quarterly Journal of Economics*, 127(3):1243–1285, 2012. doi: 10.1093/qje/qjs018.

Pedro Bordalo, Nicola Gennaioli, and Andrei Shleifer. Salience and consumer choice. *Journal of Political Economy*, 121(5):803–843, 2013. doi: 10.1086/673885.

Nils Braakmann. The link between crime risk and property prices in England and Wales: Evidence from street-level data. *Urban Studies*, 54(8):1990–2007, 2017. doi: 10.1177/0042098016634611.

Paolo Buonanno, Daniel Montolio, and Josep Maria Raya-Vílchez. Housing prices and crime perception. *Empirical Economics*, 45(1):305–321, 2013. doi: 10.1007/s00181-012-0624-y.

Carolina Caetano. A test of exogeneity without instrumental variables in models with bunching. *Econometrica*, 83(4):1581–1600, 2015. doi: 10.3982/ECTA11231.

Carolina Caetano, Gregorio Caetano, Hao Fe, and Eric Nielsen. A dummy test of identification in models with bunching. Finance and Economics Discussion Series 2021-068, Board of Governors of the Federal Reserve System, 2021.

A. Colin Cameron and Douglas L. Miller. A practitioner's guide to cluster-robust inference. *Journal of Human Resources*, 50(2):317–372, 2015. doi: 10.3368/jhr.50.2.317.

John Y. Campbell, Stefano Giglio, and Parag Pathak. Forced sales and house prices. *American Economic Review*, 101(5):2108–2131, 2011. doi: 10.1257/aer.101.5.2108.

Paul E. Carrillo and Anthony M. Yezer. What do hedonic house price estimates tell us when capitalization rates vary? IIEP Working Paper 2021-03, Institute for International Economic Policy, George Washington University, 2021.

Vania Ceccato and Mats Wilhelmsson. The impact of crime on apartment prices: Evidence from Stockholm, Sweden. *Geografiska Annaler: Series B, Human Geography*, 93(1):81–103, 2011. doi: 10.1111/j.1468-0467.2011.00362.x.

Raj Chetty, Adam Looney, and Kory Kroft. Salience and taxation: Theory and evidence. *American Economic Review*, 99(4):1145–1177, 2009. doi: 10.1257/aer.99.4.1145.

Mark A. Cohen, Roland T. Rust, Sara Steen, and Simon T. Tidd. Willingness-to-pay for crime control programs. *Criminology*, 42(1):89–110, 2004. doi: 10.1111/j.1745-9125.2004.tb00514.x.

Joshua M. Congdon-Hohman. The lasting effects of crime: The relationship of discovered methamphetamine laboratories and home values. *Regional Science and Urban Economics*, 43(1):31–41, 2013.

Timothy G. Conley. GMM estimation with cross sectional dependence. *Journal of Econometrics*, 92(1):1–45, 1999.

Alexander Dentler and Enzo Rossi. Residents' willingness to pay to avoid crime. *Journal of Housing Economics*, 2024. Earlier version: Swiss National Bank Working Paper 2021-20, "Shooting Up Liquidity: The Effect of Crime on Real Estate".

Stuart Donovan, Thomas de Graaff, Henri L. F. de Groot, and Aaron Schiff. An urban overhead? Crime, agglomeration, and amenity. *Journal of Housing Economics*, 64:101994, 2024. doi: 10.1016/j.jhe.2024.101994.

Ingrid Gould Ellen, Johanna Lacoe, and Claudia Ayanna Sharygin. Do foreclosures cause crime? *Journal of Urban Economics*, 74:59–70, 2013. doi: 10.1016/j.jue.2012.09.003.

David N. Figlio and Maurice E. Lucas. What's in a grade? School report cards and the housing market. *American Economic Review*, 94(3):591–604, 2004. doi: 10.1257/0002828041464489.

James Alan Fox and Marianne W. Zawitz. Homicide trends in the United States: 2000 update. Crime Data Brief NCJ 197471, Bureau of Justice Statistics, U.S. Department of Justice, 2003.

Pieter A. Gautier, Arjen Siegmann, and Aico van Vuuren. Terrorism and attitudes towards minorities: The effect of the Theo van Gogh murder on house prices in Amsterdam. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 65(2):113–126, 2009.

Stephen Gibbons. The costs of urban property crime. CEP Discussion Paper 574, Centre for Economic Performance, London School of Economics, 2003.

Stephen Gibbons. The costs of urban property crime. *Economic Journal*, 114:F441–F463, 2004.

Sonia Gilbukh and Paul Goldsmith-Pinkham. Heterogeneous real estate agents and the housing cycle. *The Review of Financial Studies*, 37(11):3431–3489, 2024. doi: 10.1093/rfs/hhae048.

Jesse D. Gourevitch, Carolyn Kousky, Yanjun Liao, Christoph Nolte, Adam B. Pollack, Jeremy R. Porter, and Joakim A. Weill. Unpriced climate risk and the potential consequences of overvaluation in US housing markets. *Nature Climate Change*, 13(3):250–257, 2023. doi: 10.1038/s41558-023-01594-8.

Lu Han and Seung-Hyun Hong. Testing cost inefficiency under free entry in the real estate brokerage industry. *Journal of Business & Economic Statistics*, 29(4):564–578, 2011. doi: 10.1198/jbes.2011.08314.

Lu Han and William C. Strange. The microstructure of housing markets: Search, bargaining, and brokerage. In *Handbook of Regional and Urban Economics*, volume 5, pages 813–886. Elsevier, 2015.

Igal Hendel, Aviv Nevo, and François Ortalo-Magné. The relative performance of real estate marketing platforms: MLS versus FSBOMadison.com. *American Economic Review*, 99(5):1878–1898, 2009. doi: 10.1257/aer.99.5.1878.

Keith Ihlanfeldt and Tom Mayock. Panel data estimates of the effects of different types of crime on housing prices. *Regional Science and Urban Economics*, 40(2–3):161–172, 2010.

Anastasia Klimova and Adrian D. Lee. Does a nearby murder affect housing prices and rents? The case of Sydney. *Economic Record*, 90(S1):16–40, 2014. doi: 10.1111/1475-4932.12118.

John R. Knight. Listing price, time on market, and ultimate selling price: Causes and effects of listing price changes. *Real Estate Economics*, 30(2):213–237, 2002.

Bishwa Koirala, Rik Chakraborti, and Gyan Pradhan. Urban crime and its net implicit price to North Carolina households. *American Business Review*, 26(1):83–94, 2023. doi: 10.37625/abr.26.1.83-94.

Ivan Korolev. Estimating semiparametric and nonparametric fixed effects panel data models with `mgcv`, 2026. Working paper, arXiv:2606.12739.

Joscha Legewie and Jeffrey Fagan. Aggressive policing and the educational performance of minority youth. *American Sociological Review*, 84(2):220–247, 2019.

Steven D. Levitt. Why do increased arrest rates appear to reduce crime? Deterrence, incapacitation, or measurement error? *Economic Inquiry*, 36(3):353–372, 1998.

Steven D. Levitt and Chad Syverson. Market distortions when agents are better informed: The value of information in real estate transactions. *The Review of Economics and Statistics*, 90(4):599–611, 2008.

Leigh Linden and Jonah E. Rockoff. Estimates of the impact of crime risk on property values from Megan's Laws. *American Economic Review*, 98(3):1103–1127, 2008.

Allen K. Lynch and David W. Rasmussen. Measuring the impact of crime on house prices. *Applied Economics*, 33(15):1981–1989, 2001. doi: 10.1080/00036840110021735.

Paula Margaretic and Juan Bautista Sosa. How local is the crime effect on house prices? *The Journal of Real Estate Finance and Economics*, 70:754–793, 2025. doi: 10.1007/s11146-023-09941-4.

Kathryn E. McCollister, Michael T. French, and Hai Fang. The cost of crime to society: New crime-specific estimates for policy and program evaluation. *Drug and Alcohol Dependence*, 108(1–2):98–109, 2010.

Antonio Merlo and François Ortalo-Magné. Bargaining over residential real estate: evidence from england. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 56(2):192–216, 2004.

Jonathan Moreno-Medina. Crime news bias: Extent and effects on housing markets. Working paper, University of Texas at San Antonio, January 2026.

Jaren C. Pope. Fear of crime and housing prices: Household reactions to sex offender registries. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 64(3):601–614, 2008a.

Jaren C. Pope. Buyer information and the hedonic: The impact of a seller disclosure on the implicit price for airport noise. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 63(2):498–516, 2008b.

Mario J. Rizzo. The effect of crime on residential rents and property values. *The American Economist*, 23(1):16–21, 1979.

Hal Roberts, Rahul Bhargava, Linas Valiukas, Dennis Jen, Momin M. Malik, Cindy Sherman Bishop, Emily B. Ndulue, Aashka Dave, Justin Clark, Bruce Etling, Robert Faris, Anushka Shah, Jasmin Rubinovitz, Alexis Hope, Catherine D'Ignazio, Fernando Bermejo, Yochai Benkler, and Ethan Zuckerman. Media cloud: Massive open source collection of global news on the open web. In *Proceedings of the International AAAI Conference on Web and Social Media*, volume 15, pages 1034–1045, 2021.

Sherwin Rosen. Hedonic prices and implicit markets: Product differentiation in pure competition. *Journal of Political Economy*, 82(1):34–55, 1974.

Ronald C. Rutherford, Thomas M. Springer, and Abdullah Yavaş. Conflicts between principals and agents: Evidence from residential brokerage. *Journal of Financial Economics*, 76(3):627–665, 2005. doi: 10.1016/j.jfineco.2004.06.006.

Amy Ellen Schwartz, Scott Susin, and Ioan Voicu. Has falling crime driven New York City's real estate boom? *Journal of Housing Research*, 14(1):101–135, 2003.

Cheng Keat Tang and Thao Le. Crime risk and housing values: Evidence from the gun offender registry. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 134:103526, 2023. doi: 10.1016/j.jue.2022.103526.

Susannah N. Tapp and Emilie J. Coen. Criminal victimization, 2023. Technical Report NCJ 309335, Bureau of Justice Statistics, U.S. Department of Justice, September 2024.

Richard Thaler. A note on the value of crime control: Evidence from the property market. *Journal of Urban Economics*, 5(1):137–145, 1978.

George E. Tita, Tricia L. Petras, and Robert T. Greenbaum. Crime and residential choice: A neighborhood level analysis of the impact of crime on housing prices. *Journal of Quantitative Criminology*, 22(4):299–317, 2006. doi: 10.1007/s10940-006-9013-z.

Scott A. Wentland, Bennie D. Waller, and Raymond T. Brastow. Estimating the effect of crime risk on property values and time on market: Evidence from Megan's Law in Virginia. *Real Estate Economics*, 42(1):223–251, 2014. doi: 10.1111/1540-6229.12028.

Simon N. Wood. *Generalized Additive Models: An Introduction with R*. Chapman and Hall/CRC, 2 edition, 2017.

Appendix

This appendix reports supporting tables and figures, grouped in the order of the main text. Unless a note says otherwise, each reports $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$, the percent sale-price change per incident within 0–0.05 miles of the property against 0.20–0.30 miles, with parcel and tract × year-month fixed effects and standard errors clustered by census tract; $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. All other supporting material is in the Online Appendix.

A Data and Offense Coverage

Table A1: Summary Statistics

	Mean	SD	p10	Median	p90	Obs.
A. Sale listings ($N = 530,395$)						
Close price ($)	366,777	382,539	74,000	279,000	700,000	530,395
Log close price	12.44	0.92	11.21	12.54	13.46	530,395
Original list price ($)	384,828	410,804	85,000	289,900	725,000	529,956
Days on market	96	147	5	42	248	529,995
Closing price below original asking price	0.68	0.47	0.00	1.00	1.00	530,395
Final asking price below original	0.27	0.45	0.00	0.00	1.00	529,544
Bedrooms	3.0	1.7	1.0	3.0	5.0	517,982
Bathrooms	2.1	1.1	1.0	2.0	3.0	530,395
Living area (sq. ft.)	1,175	1,115	0	1,100	2,483	454,018
Total rooms	7.1	3.2	4.0	6.0	11.0	517,753
Year built	1954	41	1902	1954	2007	453,343
Garage spaces	1.6	0.6	1.0	2.0	2.0	351,747
Fireplaces	0.9	0.7	0.0	1.0	2.0	206,694
B. Lease listings ($N = 191,155$)						
Monthly rent ($)	2,208	1,086	1,250	1,950	3,400	191,155
Log monthly rent	7.61	0.41	7.13	7.58	8.13	191,155
Days on market	43	57	6	25	102	191,122
Bedrooms	1.8	1.0	1.0	2.0	3.0	191,031
Bathrooms	1.6	0.8	1.0	1.0	2.0	191,155
Living area (sq. ft.)	883	675	0	900	1,691	191,041
Total rooms	4.7	1.4	3.0	5.0	6.0	191,032
Year built	1972	37	1912	1982	2008	150,337

Notes: Chicago MLS single-family, condominium, and residential-income listings, 2007–2025, on parcels with a constant parcel count. Panel A: closed sales ($10,000–$10,000,000). Panel B: leases (monthly rent $500–$10,000). Closing price below original asking price equals one if the sale closes below the original asking price. Final asking price below original equals one if the last asking price is below the original asking price. The indicators overlap and need not sum to one: a listing can sell below its original asking price without a lower final asking price, or have a lower final asking price and still sell at or above the original asking price.

A.1 Offense Coverage

I estimate separate effects for 27 of the 29 offense groups, omitting human trafficking and nonforcible sex offenses (222 incidents combined) as too sparse.[25] Of these 27, I report 22 in the main analysis. I set aside the residual "all other offenses" category, which names no specific offense, and four offenses, kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, and child pornography, whose estimates are too imprecise to be informative.[26]

A.2 Neighborhood Control Data

Tree canopy is percent canopy cover from the U.S. Geological Survey National Land Cover Database (NLCD) Tree Canopy Cover product (30 m resolution). Near and far canopy are averages over the 30 m cells within the 0–0.05 mile disk and the 0.20–0.30 mile ring. Canopy comes from the last annual raster completed before the crime window opens; sales for which that year lies outside 2011–2021 receive a missing-value indicator. Business licenses, 311 service requests, and building permits are geocoded records from the City of Chicago Data Portal (`https://data.cityofchicago.org`). Before the City's unified 311 system launched in December 2018, the portal releases requests in category-specific historical files; the 311 control uses the same three request types from those files for 2011–2018 and from the unified system for 2019 onward: graffiti removal, sanitation code complaints, and abandoned vehicles. Vacant-building complaints are excluded, so the 311 control does not overlap the vacancy measure, and an indicator marks windows that overlap 2019, the first year of the unified system. Vacant locations are "Vacant and Abandoned Buildings Reported" records from the same portal, available for 2010–2018; within each sale's window and ring, reports at the same location, with coordinates rounded to four decimal places, are counted once. Business licenses are those active at the start of the twelve-month period, each license counted once across renewals.

[25] The pornography/obscene-material group is predominantly child pornography rather than adult material: about two-thirds of the Chicago Police incidents so classified are child pornography (IUCR 1582) or related offenses involving children, and roughly one-quarter is adult obscene material (obscene telephone calls are classified separately, under all other offenses). I therefore label this group "child pornography/obscenity" throughout. It is sparse, returns nulls in every market, and its estimates appear only in the appendix.

[26] Their standard errors run from roughly 0.6 to 1.3 percentage points, too wide to rule out either a null or a large discount.

B Sale-Price Estimates

Table A2: Sale-Price Effects, All Twenty-Two Estimable Offenses

Offense	Identifying parcels	Sig. discount windows	Min δ (s.e.) [mo]	Max δ (s.e.) [mo]
Priced				
Homicide	3,053	2/12	-5.86^{*} (3.35) [1]	-1.24 (1.43) [8]
Narcotics	35,801	5/12	-0.93 (0.75) [1]	-0.18 (0.19) [6]
Burglary	64,661	6/12	-0.34^{**} (0.14) [6]	-0.18^{*} (0.09) [12]
Vandalism	77,053	2/12	-0.17^{**} (0.08) [6]	0.26 (0.22) [1]
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	13,670	1/12	-1.33^{*} (0.78) [2]	-0.46 (0.54) [4]
Sex offenses	26,831	1/12	-0.47^{**} (0.23) [12]	0.11 (0.35) [3]
Precise nulls				
Theft	86,303	0/12	0.01 (0.02) [12]	0.08^{***} (0.03) [1]
Motor vehicle theft	63,142	0/12	-0.02 (0.09) [12]	0.51^{*} (0.30) [1]
Assault (non-dom.)	67,192	0/12	-0.05 (0.06) [7]	0.01 (0.11) [3]
Bad checks	7,580	0/12	0.66^{*} (0.35) [11]	2.20^{**} (1.03) [1]
Family (nonviol.)	10,002	0/12	1.00^{*} (0.51) [12]	2.16^{***} (0.82) [5]
Fraud	53,093	0/12	-0.36 (0.23) [1]	-0.04 (0.09) [6]
Assault (domestic)	64,422	0/12	-0.19^{*} (0.10) [12]	0.02 (0.15) [5]
Trespass	41,169	0/12	-0.15 (0.14) [6]	0.18 (0.22) [3]
Robbery	48,458	0/12	-0.06 (0.14) [9]	0.30 (0.42) [1]
Forgery	19,519	0/12	-0.07 (0.59) [1]	0.47 (0.45) [2]
Liquor	5,074	0/12	0.08 (1.20) [1]	1.34 (0.91) [2]
Prostitution	4,671	0/12	-1.00 (0.82) [1]	0.08 (0.12) [12]
Inconclusive				
Weapons	20,182	0/12	-0.62 (0.47) [5]	0.11 (0.58) [3]
Arson	3,515	0/12	-0.20 (1.06) [11]	1.27 (3.58) [1]
Gambling	1,333	0/12	-4.77 (4.33) [3]	1.99 (8.32) [1]
Stolen property	1,012	0/12	-2.23 (2.63) [2]	0.81 (1.20) [8]

Notes. All twenty-two estimable offenses under the specification of Table 2; kidnapping, embezzlement, extortion, child pornography, and other offenses have too few incidents to estimate and are excluded; columns as there, with Min δ and Max δ the most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows; offense groups as in Table 2: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more consecutive windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Sig. discount windows counts windows with a significantly negative estimate at five percent, so positive significant estimates (bad checks, family offenses) count as zero.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A3: Sale-Price Effects at All Twelve Exposure Windows

	Exposure window (cumulative months)											
Offense	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Priced												
Homicide	−5.86*	−2.23	−1.45	−2.04	−1.28	−1.30	−1.59	−1.24	−2.54*	−3.02**	−3.15**	−2.49*
	(3.35)	(2.60)	(2.46)	(2.05)	(1.82)	(1.77)	(1.53)	(1.43)	(1.36)	(1.38)	(1.38)	(1.36)
Narcotics	−0.93	−0.37	−0.35	−0.32	−0.28	−0.18	−0.20	−0.38**	−0.31**	−0.29**	−0.35***	−0.33***
	(0.75)	(0.42)	(0.38)	(0.27)	(0.23)	(0.19)	(0.17)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.11)
Burglary	−0.20	−0.23	−0.20	−0.21	−0.25*	−0.34**	−0.30**	−0.24**	−0.22**	−0.22**	−0.22**	−0.18*
	(0.31)	(0.20)	(0.17)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)
Vandalism	0.26	0.13	−0.06	−0.11	−0.16*	−0.17**	−0.16**	−0.13*	−0.10	−0.08	−0.06	−0.05
	(0.22)	(0.15)	(0.12)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.07)	(0.07)	(0.07)	(0.06)	(0.06)
Suggestive												
Disorderly conduct	−1.22	−1.33*	−0.65	−0.46	−0.71	−0.66	−0.58	−0.50	−0.63*	−0.60*	−0.57*	−0.65**
	(1.03)	(0.78)	(0.63)	(0.54)	(0.48)	(0.44)	(0.38)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.32)	(0.29)	(0.29)
Sex offenses	−0.08	0.10	0.11	−0.02	−0.29	−0.31	−0.25	−0.20	−0.26	−0.39	−0.43*	−0.47**
	(0.64)	(0.42)	(0.35)	(0.32)	(0.31)	(0.27)	(0.26)	(0.25)	(0.25)	(0.25)	(0.24)	(0.23)
Precise nulls												
Larceny/theft	0.08***	0.04*	0.04*	0.03**	0.03*	0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	0.02	0.01	0.01
	(0.03)	(0.02)	(0.02)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.01)	(0.02)	(0.02)
Motor vehicle theft	0.51*	0.28	0.17	0.10	0.05	0.04	0.09	0.09	0.05	0.06	0.07	−0.02
	(0.30)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.09)
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.05	−0.02	0.01	−0.03	−0.04	−0.04	−0.05	−0.03	−0.02	−0.01	−0.03	−0.04
	(0.20)	(0.14)	(0.11)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.07)	(0.06)	(0.06)	(0.05)	(0.05)	(0.04)	(0.04)
Bad checks	2.20**	2.00***	1.36**	1.38**	1.09**	1.18***	1.08**	0.97**	0.77*	0.72**	0.66*	0.66**
	(1.03)	(0.74)	(0.61)	(0.57)	(0.53)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.33)
Family (non-violent)	1.99	1.07	1.16	1.68*	2.16***	1.77**	1.89***	1.68***	1.49**	1.28**	1.07*	1.00*
	(1.87)	(1.33)	(1.09)	(0.92)	(0.82)	(0.75)	(0.66)	(0.62)	(0.60)	(0.57)	(0.55)	(0.51)
Fraud	−0.36	−0.29*	−0.11	−0.07	−0.06	−0.04	−0.05	−0.05	−0.05	−0.08	−0.11	−0.11
	(0.23)	(0.17)	(0.12)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.08)
Assault (domestic)	0.02	0.00	−0.02	0.02	0.02	0.01	−0.03	−0.09	−0.17	−0.13	−0.18*	−0.19*
	(0.37)	(0.26)	(0.21)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.10)
Trespass	−0.09	0.16	0.18	0.00	−0.10	−0.15	−0.14	−0.12	−0.06	−0.05	−0.09	−0.14
	(0.38)	(0.29)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	(0.10)
Robbery	0.30	0.15	0.09	0.08	0.04	0.02	−0.02	−0.03	−0.06	−0.01	0.01	−0.03
	(0.42)	(0.30)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.16)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.13)	(0.13)
Forgery	−0.07	0.47	0.12	0.15	0.05	0.38	0.44*	0.39*	0.30	0.30*	0.23	0.21
	(0.59)	(0.45)	(0.38)	(0.32)	(0.28)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.18)	(0.17)
Liquor law	0.08	1.34	0.71	0.72	0.47	0.39	0.61	0.65	0.64*	0.51	0.36	0.36
	(1.20)	(0.91)	(0.81)	(0.60)	(0.52)	(0.48)	(0.43)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.36)	(0.35)	(0.35)
Prostitution	−1.00	−0.43	−0.23	−0.23	−0.18	−0.28	−0.14	−0.04	0.01	0.01	0.05	0.08
	(0.82)	(0.51)	(0.48)	(0.39)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.27)	(0.22)	(0.18)	(0.15)	(0.12)
Inconclusive												
Weapons	−0.47	0.07	0.11	−0.51	−0.62	−0.39	−0.18	−0.12	−0.17	0.04	0.09	0.10
	(0.92)	(0.71)	(0.58)	(0.48)	(0.47)	(0.44)	(0.40)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.31)	(0.30)	(0.28)
Arson	1.27	0.32	0.27	0.10	−0.13	0.07	1.07	0.57	−0.15	−0.13	−0.20	0.07
	(3.58)	(2.75)	(2.33)	(2.01)	(1.78)	(1.63)	(1.49)	(1.31)	(1.22)	(1.15)	(1.06)	(1.03)
Gambling	1.99	1.69	−4.77	−1.39	−1.35	−0.76	−1.17	−3.04	−2.84	−2.91*	−1.79	−1.94
	(8.32)	(5.78)	(4.33)	(3.99)	(3.39)	(3.12)	(2.74)	(2.43)	(2.10)	(1.75)	(1.77)	(1.75)
Stolen property	−2.23	−2.23	−1.78	−2.02	−1.14	−0.67	0.26	0.81	0.08	0.19	−0.25	−0.43
	(4.06)	(2.63)	(2.18)	(1.95)	(1.83)	(1.75)	(1.59)	(1.20)	(1.06)	(1.02)	(1.05)	(1.05)

Notes. δ at every cumulative window from one to twelve months, under the specification of Table 2; offense groups as there: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more consecutive windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Covers the twenty-two estimable categories, including the white-collar offenses, prostitution, gambling, and stolen property. Standard errors in parentheses.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A4: Priced Offenses under Two Classifications

Offense	Priced	What is threatened	NIBRS crimes against
Homicide	Yes	Place (violent event)	Persons
Burglary	Yes	Dwelling	Property
Narcotics	Yes	Place (environment)	Society
Vandalism	Yes	Structure or land	Property
Disorderly conduct	Suggestive	Place (environment)	Group B (none)
Sex offenses	Suggestive	Person	Persons
Assault (domestic)	No	Person	Persons
Assault (non-domestic)	No	Person	Persons
Robbery	No	Person	Property
Theft	No	Portable asset	Property
Motor vehicle theft	No	Portable asset	Property
Stolen property	No	Portable asset	Property
Fraud	No	Financial	Property
Forgery	No	Financial	Property
Bad checks	No	Financial	Group B (none)
Arson	No	Structure or land	Property
Trespass	No	Structure or land	Group B (none)
Prostitution	No	Place (environment)	Society
Weapons	No	Place (environment)	Society
Gambling	No	Place (environment)	Society
Liquor law	No	Place (environment)	Group B (none)
Family offenses	No	Person	Group B (none)

Priced offenses by group

Anchored to the address: 4 of 11; harms a person, money, or a movable item: 0 of 11

NIBRS (Group A): persons 1 of 4; property 2 of 9; society 1 of 4; Group B offenses (5) have no crime-against category.

Notes. "What is threatened" follows Table OA16. "NIBRS crimes against" is the Federal Bureau of Investigation's National Incident-Based Reporting System category for each offense. "Priced" follows Table 2. NIBRS assigns a crime-against category only to Group A offenses.

B.1 Offenses with Monetary Losses

Fraud, forgery, and bad checks impose direct monetary losses, yet none carries a detectable discount in the pooled estimates (Table OA4); embezzlement has too few incidents to estimate. Bad checks instead carry a positive and significant estimate (0.66, s.e. 0.33), positive at five percent in ten of twelve windows (Table A3). Splitting each offense's incidents by recorded location (residential, street, and commercial) leaves the picture unchanged (Table A9). At the 12-month window, bad checks have no detectable effect in any location category, and forgery's only significant estimate is positive and occurs at commercial addresses.

Fraud is associated with a residential discount of 0.40 percent (s.e. 0.15) that survives the post-sale placebo. This estimate is one of sixty-six location-specific comparisons, does not survive a Bonferroni correction, and appears only at the longest exposure windows, so I treat it as suggestive.

Table A5: Effects of Crime on Housing Prices in the Prior Literature, Compared with This Paper

Study	Setting	Design	Offense	Spatial unit of crime	Estimate as reported
Sale prices, aggregate crime rates					
Thaler (1978)	Rochester, NY	Cross-sectional hedonic	Property crime	Census tract	$\approx 3\%$ per SD†
Gray & Joelson (1979)	Minneapolis	Cross-sectional hedonic, tract	Eight offense types	Tract	Only vandalism and burglary significant: +1% burglary −\$336; +1% vandalism −\$117†
Burnell (1988)	Chicago suburbs	IV, community fiscal and demographic instruments	Property crime	Community (71)	Elasticity $-0.10^{\dagger}$
Gibbons (2004)	London	Hedonic, deviations from district means, IV	Criminal damage	250 m radius	$\approx 1\%$ per 0.1 SD
Gibbons (2004)	London	Hedonic, deviations from district means, IV	Burglary	250 m radius	Null
Schwartz, Susin & Voicu (2003)	New York City	Hedonic and repeat-sales price models	Violent (murder, rape, robbery, assault)	Precinct (74)	Elasticity 0.13; $\approx$ one third of the post-1994 boom
Schwartz, Susin & Voicu (2003)	New York City	Hedonic and repeat-sales price models	Property (burglary, larceny, auto theft)	Precinct (74)	Negative, insignificant
Tita, Petras & Greenbaum (2006)	Columbus, OH	Hedonic, IV (murder rate), by neighborhood income	Violent, property, total	Tract (189)	Violent crime most costly; effects vary by income
Ihlanfeldt & Mayock (2010)	Miami-Dade	First differences of tract repeat-sales index, IV	Murder, assault, robbery	Tract	Assault −0.15, robbery −0.11 (elasticities); murder null
Ihlanfeldt & Mayock (2010)	Miami-Dade	First differences of tract repeat-sales index, IV	Property	Tract	Small or null
Bishop & Murphy (2011)	San Francisco Bay Area	Dynamic hedonic (structural)	Violent (homicide, rape, robbery, assault)	City (79), distance-weighted	WTP $\approx$ \$472/yr per 10% less
Pope & Pope (2012)	$\approx$3,000 U.S. zip codes	Zip-code fixed effects and IV, 1990s crime drop	Violent and property	Zip code	Elasticity −0.15 to −0.35
Sale prices, point-located events					
Linden & Rockoff (2008)	Mecklenburg Co., NC	DiD, neighborhood-year FE	Sex-offender arrival	0.1 mile	$\approx -4\%$
Pope (2008a)	Hillsborough Co., FL	DiD around offender arrival and departure	Sex-offender arrival	0.1 mile	-2.3%
Wentland, Waller & Brastow (2014)	Central Virginia	3SLS (price and time on market jointly)	Sex-offender proximity	0.1 mile	Price $\approx -7\%$; time on market +88 days ($\approx +80\%$)
Congdon-Hohman (2013)	Akron, OH	DiD, near vs. slightly farther	Methamphetamine-lab discovery	1/8 mile (vs. 1/8–1/4)	-10% to -19%
Dealy, Horn & Berrens (2017)	Linn County, OR	Spatial difference-in-differences	Meth-lab discovery and decontamination	0.1 mile (near vs. far)	-6.5% on discovery; +5% after decontamination
Gautier, Siegmann & van Vuuren (2009)	Amsterdam	DiD on asking prices	Murder (van Gogh)	Neighborhood (Muslim share $> 25\%$)	$\approx -3\%$ within 10 months

Continued on next page

Table A5, continued

Study	Setting	Design	Offense	Spatial unit of crime	Estimate as reported
Bhattacharya, Huang & Nielsen (2021)	Hong Kong	Unit FE (repeat sales), before/after death	Murder in unit	Unit, floor, building	Murder: unit ≈ −34%; floor −19%; building −10% (Table VI); all unnatural deaths: unit −20%
Tang & Le (2023)	Baltimore	Before/after offender arrival	Ex-gun-offender arrival	0.1 mile	−8.0% ($12,632); no rise in crime
Braakmann (2017)	England and Wales	Street FE, regional time trends	Six categories (anti-social behaviour, violent, other, burglary, robbery, vehicle)	Street	Violent −0.6 to −1.6%, anti-social −0.6 to −0.8% per case per 10 residents; robbery, burglary, vehicle ≈ 0 or positive
Dentler & Rossi (2021)	Rochester, NY	Discontinuity in time (±30–60 days) within a distance band	Robbery	0.3–0.6 km	−8 to −10%
			Aggravated assault		−7 to −9%
			Burglary		≈ −6%
			Shootings		Insignificant
Rents					
Rizzo (1979)	Chicago	Cross-section, IV	Total crime	Community area	Value elasticity ≈ −1.67†; rent elasticity −0.24†
Koirala, Chakraborti & Pradhan (2023)	North Carolina cities	Seemingly unrelated regressions of wages and rents	Violent and property rates	City	≈ $52/month net compensation
Donovan et al. (2024)	New Zealand	Cross-section of urban areas, spatial equilibrium, control-function IV	Victimizations per 1,000	Urban area (134)	Rent elasticity −0.15 to −0.44
Klimova & Lee (2014)	Sydney	Hedonic DiD	Murder	0.1–0.3 mile	Rents: no effect; values −3.9% within 0.2 mile
Carrillo & Yezer (2021)	Washington, DC	Rent and value hedonics, tract FE	Homicide, violent	0.25 mile	Not directly comparable
This paper					
This paper	Chicago	Repeat sales, near–far, parcel + tract×month FE	Homicide	0.05 mile vs. 0.20–0.30 mile	−3.0% per incident (−3.0 to −3.1%, 10–11 months)
			Burglary		−0.24% (−0.22 to −0.34%, 6–11 months)
			Narcotics		−0.29% (−0.29 to −0.38%, 8–12 months)
			Vandalism		−0.17% (−0.16 to −0.17%, 6–7 months)
			Sex offenses; disorderly conduct		−0.47%; −0.65% (12 months only; suggestive)
			Other offenses		No detectable discount
			Rents (burglary; sex offenses; liquor law)		−0.34 to −0.07% (6 of 12 windows); −0.32 to −0.16% (7 of 12, parcel×era); −0.30 to 0.09% (4 of 12, parcel×era)

Notes. Estimates are in the units of the original study and are not on a common scale. Prior estimates can be compared with this paper's estimates for the same offense in the final panel; ranges cover the windows significant at five percent (Table A3); rent ranges are the minimum and maximum across the twelve windows with the number of significant windows (Table A23). Distance bands for Pope (2008a) are inferred from the design. Dentler & Rossi (2021): Model (4) of their Table 3; their simpler models are mostly insignificant. Outcomes are sale prices except asking prices (Gautier, Siegmann & van Vuuren, 2009), a tract repeat-sales price index (Ihlanfeldt & Mayock, 2010), owner-reported values and rents (Rizzo, 1979), owner-estimated median values (Gray & Joelson, 1979; Burnell, 1988), sale prices and asking rents (Klimova & Lee, 2014), rents and wages (Koirala, Chakraborti & Pradhan, 2023; Donovan et al., 2024), rents and values (Carrillo & Yezer, 2021), and housing values (Tang & Le, 2023); Bishop & Murphy (2011) estimate willingness to pay from sale prices in a dynamic model. This paper uses sale prices, asking rents, and transaction margins. †Reported in a secondary source.

C Spatial and Temporal Structure

Spatial decay. The distance over which discounts appear differs across offenses. Table A6 sets the near ring to each successive ring while holding the far ring at 0.20–0.30 miles. Widening burglary's near ring to 0–0.10 miles gives −0.14 percent (s.e. 0.07) at eight months, significant in 5 of 12 windows, with no significant post-sale placebo; the 0.05–0.10 ring alone is significant only at one month. Homicide discounts are significant in the 0.10–0.15 mile ring in seven of twelve windows (months three to nine), but not at ten months, where the estimate is −1.16 percent (s.e. 0.64). The post-sale placebo is not significant in that ring at any window, and homicide is not significant in the 0.05–0.10 ring at any window. For narcotics, the pre-sale estimate in the 0.05–0.10 ring is not significant at any window, but the post-sale placebo is significant there at windows four to eight.

Table A6: The Near–Far Discount Across Nine Ring Definitions

Near vs. far ring (miles)	Homicide	Burglary	Narcotics	Vandalism
0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 *(baseline)*	-3.02 (1.38)	-0.24 (0.12)	-0.29 (0.14)	-0.17 (0.08)
0–0.05 vs. 0.25–0.35	-2.75 (1.39)	-0.24 (0.12)	-0.32 (0.14)	-0.16 (0.08)
0–0.05 vs. 0.30–0.40	-2.66 (1.35)	-0.27 (0.12)	-0.32 (0.14)	-0.15 (0.08)
0–0.10 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.42 (0.67)	-0.14 (0.07)	0.01 (0.06)	-0.06 (0.05)
0–0.15 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.90 (0.54)	-0.05 (0.05)	0.05 (0.04)	0.01 (0.03)
0–0.20 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.74 (0.46)	-0.03 (0.04)	0.02 (0.03)	-0.02 (0.03)
0.05–0.10 vs. 0.20–0.30	0.55 (0.78)	-0.09 (0.07)	0.06 (0.07)	-0.02 (0.05)
0.10–0.15 vs. 0.20–0.30	-1.16 (0.64)	0.04 (0.06)	0.06 (0.05)	0.07 (0.04)
0.15–0.20 vs. 0.20–0.30	-0.45 (0.58)	-0.00 (0.05)	-0.02 (0.04)	-0.05 (0.04)

Notes: Each row is one near/far ring pair: the baseline (row 1), the far ring moved out (rows 2–3), the near ring widened (rows 4–6), and an outer ring in place of the near ring (rows 7–9). Windows: homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months. $N = 242{,}815$.

C.1 Recent versus Earlier Exposure

The timing of exposure matters most clearly for vandalism, whose discount is concentrated among incidents two to six months before sale. Estimated jointly, exposure two to six months before the sale and exposure eight to eleven months before carry different weights across offenses. The vandalism discount is concentrated in the recent block and absent from the late one, and the difference is significant ($p = 0.008$); the narcotics discount is concentrated in the late block, with the difference significant at ten percent ($p = 0.09$); for homicide and burglary the point estimates are larger in the late and early block respectively, but the two blocks are not statistically distinguishable ($p = 0.12$ and 0.20; Figure A1).

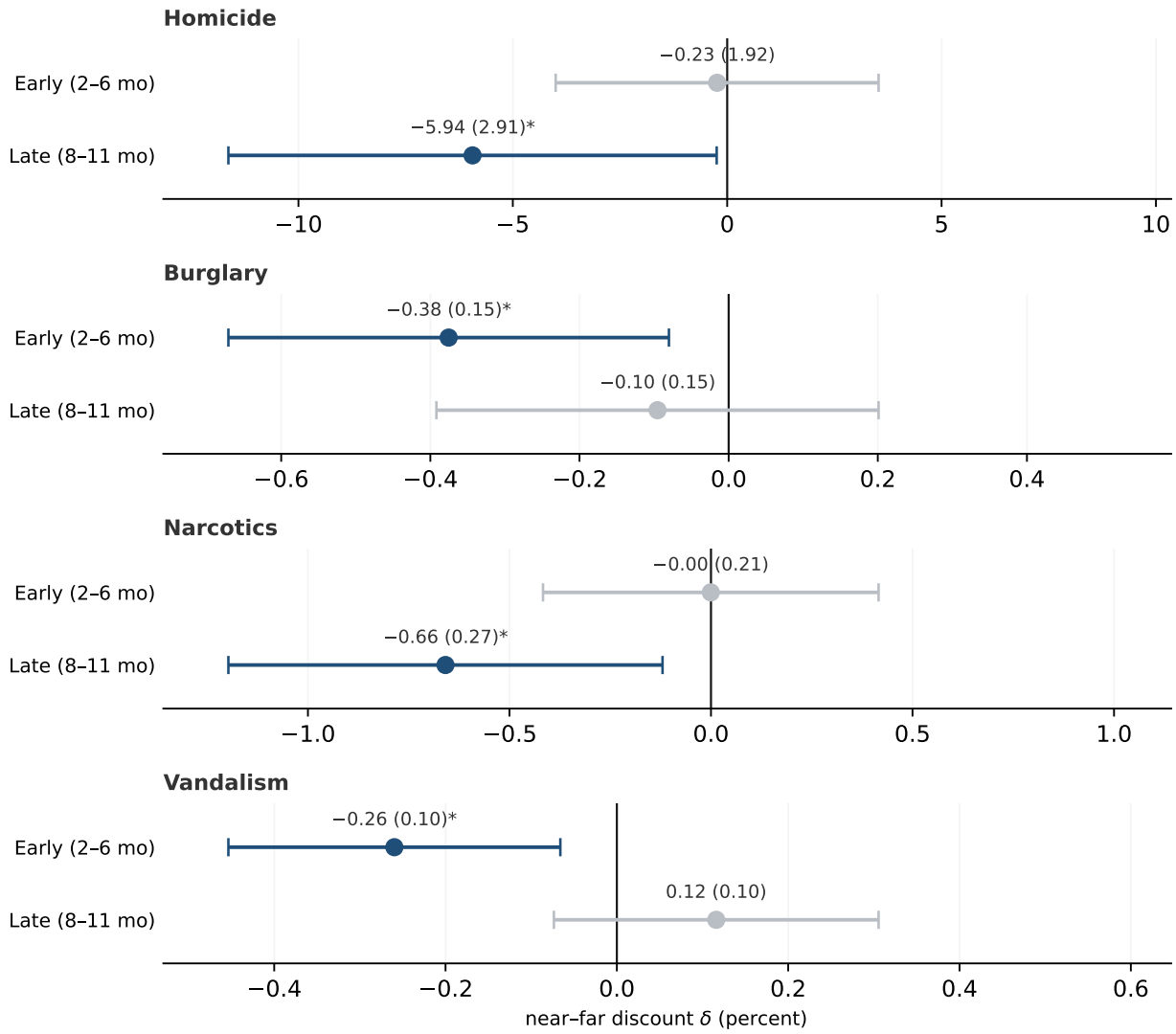


Figure A1: Early versus late exposure, estimated jointly. For each priced offense, the near–far discount δ (%) from one regression that enters an early block (incidents two to six months before the sale) and a late block (eight to eleven months before) as separate counts, each with its far-ring counterpart and separate controls for the omitted months (one, seven, twelve). Month one is omitted because it falls after the contract date for most sales: the median time from contract to close is 42 days, and for about three-quarters of sales it exceeds 30 days, so crime in the last month before the close could affect the agreed price only through renegotiation. Month seven separates the two blocks, and month twelve ends the window. A single late block of months seven to twelve, estimated alone, gives the same pattern (homicide −3.60%, s.e. 2.13; narcotics −0.47%, s.e. 0.20; burglary −0.03% and vandalism 0.06%, neither significant). The two points in each panel are the early-block and late-block estimates (significant at five percent in colour, otherwise grey), shown with 95% confidence intervals and the estimate and standard error beside each point; each panel has its own horizontal scale. The Wald test that the early and late coefficients are equal gives $p = 0.121$ (homicide), 0.200 (burglary), 0.090 (narcotics), and 0.008 (vandalism), so the early and late estimates are individually distinguishable only for vandalism. Parcel and tract×year-month fixed effects, clustered by census tract, $N = 242{,}815$.

D Observability and Recurrence

Table A7: Where the Discount Comes From: Private versus Public Incidents

Offense	Private (residential)	Public (street)	p: priv.=pub.	Windows sig.	N
Homicide	−0.41	−4.59***	0.137	1/12	242,815
	(2.39)	(1.68)			
Burglary	−0.25*	−0.93	0.289	0/12	242,815
	(0.14)	(0.65)			
Narcotics	−0.28	−0.38**	0.897	0/12	242,815
	(0.65)	(0.19)			
Vandalism	−0.56***	−0.01	0.018**	7/12	242,815
	(0.20)	(0.11)			

Notes. Near–far close-price effect (%) of each priced offense's near-ring count, split by whether the incident was recorded at a *residential* address (private: the dwelling and its garage, porch, yard, hallways, and stairwells), in *public space* (streets, sidewalks, alleys, parking and vacant lots, parks, and vehicles and transit; Online Appendix C), or at a commercial address; residential, street, and commercial incidents are entered jointly in one regression under parcel fixed effects, and the commercial estimates are reported in Table A9. Pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, near 0–0.05 vs. far 0.20–0.30 mi; standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses. Estimates at each offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months); "Windows sig." counts, of the twelve exposure windows, how many reject private=public at five percent. $N = 242{,}815$.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A8: Residential versus Street Incidents by Exposure Window, Priced Offenses

Panel A						
	Homicide			Narcotics		
Window	Residential	Street	p	Residential	Street	p
1	0.19	−8.29*	0.227	−2.61	−0.65	0.447
	(5.62)	(4.29)		(2.63)	(0.81)	
2	3.47	−4.75	0.099	−1.10	−0.26	0.647
	(3.97)	(3.42)		(1.69)	(0.50)	
3	0.80	−2.23	0.526	−1.16	−0.26	0.520
	(3.36)	(3.47)		(1.25)	(0.46)	
4	−0.58	−2.67	0.624	−0.22	−0.30	0.948
	(2.92)	(2.93)		(1.09)	(0.35)	
5	−0.10	−1.72	0.678	−0.70	−0.22	0.647
	(2.64)	(2.65)		(0.92)	(0.30)	
6	0.81	−2.33	0.410	−0.34	−0.16	0.843
	(2.72)	(2.50)		(0.82)	(0.25)	
7	0.79	−2.83	0.297	−0.08	−0.24	0.853
	(2.50)	(2.17)		(0.75)	(0.21)	
8	1.93	−2.89	0.136	−0.14	−0.47**	0.679
	(2.47)	(1.95)		(0.71)	(0.22)	
9	0.35	−4.22**	0.106	−0.24	−0.39**	0.851
	(2.31)	(1.73)		(0.70)	(0.19)	
10	−0.41	−4.59***	0.137	−0.28	−0.38**	0.897
	(2.39)	(1.68)		(0.65)	(0.19)	
11	0.00	−5.04***	0.080	−0.32	−0.43**	0.879
	(2.48)	(1.64)		(0.62)	(0.17)	
12	1.16	−4.53***	0.046	−0.62	−0.35**	0.677
	(2.43)	(1.65)		(0.58)	(0.14)	
Sig. windows	0/12	4/12	1/12	0/12	5/12	0/12
Panel B						
	Vandalism			Burglary		
Window	Residential	Street	p	Residential	Street	p
1	−0.02	0.39	0.495	−0.21	1.72	0.216
	(0.53)	(0.27)		(0.41)	(1.47)	
2	−0.20	0.29	0.270	−0.30	0.36	0.520
	(0.38)	(0.19)		(0.27)	(1.00)	
3	−0.35	0.07	0.238	−0.19	−0.09	0.916
	(0.31)	(0.15)		(0.22)	(0.89)	
4	−0.37	−0.01	0.182	−0.22	−0.51	0.712
	(0.24)	(0.13)		(0.20)	(0.78)	
5	−0.45**	−0.03	0.090	−0.25	−0.33	0.925
	(0.21)	(0.12)		(0.18)	(0.74)	
6	−0.56***	−0.01	0.018	−0.37**	−0.55	0.810
	(0.20)	(0.11)		(0.16)	(0.72)	
7	−0.62***	0.05	0.002	−0.31**	−0.86	0.425
	(0.18)	(0.10)		(0.15)	(0.69)	
8	−0.61***	0.08	0.001	−0.25*	−0.93	0.289
	(0.18)	(0.09)		(0.14)	(0.65)	
9	−0.53***	0.09	0.002	−0.25*	−0.86	0.340
	(0.17)	(0.08)		(0.13)	(0.63)	
10	−0.51***	0.11	0.001	−0.28**	−0.92	0.317
	(0.16)	(0.08)		(0.12)	(0.64)	
11	−0.45***	0.11	0.002	−0.29**	−0.87	0.340
	(0.16)	(0.08)		(0.12)	(0.60)	
12	−0.47***	0.13*	0.000	−0.24**	−0.88	0.287
	(0.15)	(0.07)		(0.11)	(0.59)	
Sig. windows	8/12	0/12	7/12	5/12	0/12	0/12

Notes. Window-by-window version of Table A7: near–far close-price effect (%) per incident of residential and street (public-space) incidents, estimated jointly with commercial incidents in one regression, at every exposure window 1–12 months before the sale; standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses. p: Wald test that the residential and street effects are equal. "Sig. windows" counts windows significant at five percent. Pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, N = 242,815. The pooled residential burglary estimate is matched by post-sale crime (Table 3 note); the frontage–interior split in Table 3 is the relevant test for burglary. Main exposure windows are 10 months for homicide and narcotics, 8 months for burglary, and 6 months for vandalism.
*$p < 0.10$, **$p < 0.05$, ***$p < 0.01$.

Table A9: Incident-Location Split, All Estimable Offenses

Offense	Residential	Street	Commercial	p res=str	p str=com	p all eq.	N
Homicide	−0.41	−4.59***	−0.77	0.137	0.247	0.269	242,815
	(2.39)	(1.68)	(2.76)				
Burglary	−0.25*	−0.93	0.00	0.289	0.151	0.243	242,815
	(0.14)	(0.65)	(0.16)				
Narcotics	−0.28	−0.38**	−0.10	0.897	0.766	0.951	242,815
	(0.65)	(0.19)	(0.91)				
Vandalism	−0.56***	−0.01	−0.23	0.018**	0.338	0.054*	242,815
	(0.20)	(0.11)	(0.20)				
Theft	−0.03	0.04***	0.00	0.326	0.040**	0.105	242,815
	(0.07)	(0.01)	(0.02)				
Motor-vehicle theft	0.86**	−0.04	−0.62	0.042**	0.308	0.069*	242,815
	(0.42)	(0.09)	(0.56)				
Robbery	0.47	−0.06	−0.06	0.480	0.994	0.777	242,815
	(0.75)	(0.15)	(0.21)				
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.28*	0.01	0.03	0.110	0.849	0.219	242,815
	(0.16)	(0.08)	(0.07)				
Assault (dom.)	−0.26**	0.04	0.10	0.296	0.892	0.453	242,815
	(0.12)	(0.24)	(0.35)				
Disorderly conduct	−1.58*	−0.21	−0.85	0.145	0.625	0.340	242,815
	(0.84)	(0.41)	(1.09)				
Trespass	−0.43**	−0.24	0.09	0.478	0.210	0.071*	242,815
	(0.19)	(0.21)	(0.14)				
Prostitution	0.80	0.02	0.27	0.612	0.294	0.551	242,815
	(1.54)	(0.16)	(0.18)				
Fraud	−0.40***	0.24	0.02	0.010**	0.324	0.007***	242,815
	(0.15)	(0.24)	(0.08)				
Sex offenses	−0.64**	−0.05	−0.71	0.284	0.305	0.498	242,815
	(0.32)	(0.47)	(0.47)				
Forgery	−0.39	0.39	0.95***	0.155	0.289	0.044**	242,815
	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.29)				
Weapons	−1.10	0.19	1.54	0.311	0.338	0.376	242,815
	(1.21)	(0.28)	(1.37)				
Arson	−1.90	2.21	2.52	0.072*	0.897	0.164	242,815
	(1.96)	(1.40)	(1.95)				
Stolen property	−0.82	−1.58	1.93	0.858	0.093*	0.231	242,815
	(3.81)	(1.60)	(1.51)				
Liquor	3.24	0.60	0.31	0.408	0.812	0.601	242,815
	(2.94)	(1.14)	(0.36)				
Gambling	−5.64	−1.69	−1.95	0.706	0.957	0.931	242,815
	(9.72)	(2.03)	(4.27)				
Bad checks	0.76	2.40	0.41	0.605	0.533	0.768	242,815
	(0.62)	(3.14)	(0.44)				
Family offenses	1.00	0.78	2.36	0.879	0.484	0.742	242,815
	(0.68)	(1.26)	(1.68)				

Notes. Three-category incident-location split (residential / street / commercial) for all 22 estimable offenses, at each priced offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6) and a 12-month window otherwise; entered jointly, pooled 2007–2025, parcel and tract×month fixed effects, standard errors clustered by tract. The last three columns are Wald p-values that residential equals street, that street equals commercial, and that all three are equal. This three-category detail underlies the private/public summary in Table A7. $N = 242{,}815$.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A10: Forecast of Future Near-Ring Crime by Incident Location, All Windows

	Homicide		Burglary		Narcotics		Vandalism	
Win.	Res	St.	Res	St.	Res	St.	Res	St.
1	0.000	0.000	0.032	0.015	0.007	0.099	0.020	0.021
2	0.000	0.001	0.069	0.024	0.014	0.156	0.050	0.049
3	0.000	0.002	0.100	0.029	0.023	0.186	0.079	0.073
4	0.000	0.003	0.126	0.033	0.029	0.205	0.104	0.093
5	0.000	0.004	0.149	0.035	0.036	0.218	0.127	0.109
6	0.000	0.005	0.169	0.037	0.042	0.232	0.148	0.125
7	0.000	0.006	0.189	0.038	0.049	0.241	0.167	0.141
8	0.000	0.008	0.208	0.037	0.054	0.251	0.185	0.155
9	0.000	0.009	0.226	0.036	0.060	0.258	0.200	0.168
10	0.001	0.011	0.240	0.034	0.066	0.263	0.214	0.178
11	0.001	0.012	0.253	0.033	0.071	0.267	0.227	0.188
12	0.001	0.014	0.265	0.031	0.077	0.271	0.238	0.196

Notes. Forecast R^2 from regressing future near-ring crime (0–0.05 mi, after the sale) on past surrounding crime (far ring 0.20–0.30 mi, before the sale), estimated separately for residential (Res) and street (St.) incidents, no fixed effects (the informational benchmark available to a buyer at sale), all geocoded closed MLS sales before the constant-parcel and repeat-sales filters, $N = 923{,}730$, at each exposure window (Win., months). For *vandalism*, residential and street incidents forecast future near-ring crime comparably at six months, yet only residential vandalism is priced, so the difference in price effects cannot reflect a difference in objective recurrence. Homicide and narcotics forecast from the street and burglary from residential incidents, as expected from where those offenses physically occur.

Table A11: Vandalism by Target: Damage to Property versus Vehicle

	Exposure window (months before sale)											
	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12
Panel A. Parcel + tract×year-month fixed effects (baseline)												
Damage to property	0.85	1.06	0.80	0.22	0.03	−0.49	−0.89**	−0.95**	−0.91**	−1.03***	−0.92**	−0.89***
	(1.12)	(0.83)	(0.63)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.39)	(0.36)	(0.34)
Damage to vehicle	0.70	0.89	0.50	0.33	0.20	0.21	0.05	−0.07	−0.13	−0.08	−0.09	0.02
	(0.93)	(0.67)	(0.56)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.42)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.37)	(0.34)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.916	0.874	0.724	0.896	0.818	0.298	0.143	0.142	0.168	0.078	0.102	0.057
Panel B. Parcel×era + tract×year-month fixed effects												
Damage to property	−0.23	2.49*	1.17	0.02	0.33	0.11	−0.59	−0.65	−0.66	−1.22*	−0.99	−0.91
	(1.97)	(1.47)	(1.17)	(1.02)	(0.92)	(0.80)	(0.73)	(0.68)	(0.64)	(0.62)	(0.60)	(0.56)
Damage to vehicle	0.52	0.29	0.11	0.16	0.20	−0.09	−0.30	−0.37	−0.62	−0.80*	−0.86*	−0.81*
	(1.20)	(0.80)	(0.65)	(0.67)	(0.65)	(0.60)	(0.56)	(0.52)	(0.53)	(0.48)	(0.46)	(0.42)
Property = vehicle (p)	0.759	0.208	0.447	0.914	0.918	0.849	0.764	0.753	0.962	0.602	0.869	0.895

Notes. Full twelve-window version of Table 3, Panel B: vandalism frontage incidents split by target, damage to the property versus damage to a vehicle, each as its own near–far difference $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$ in one regression, pooled 2007–2025, clustered by tract; standard errors below the estimates. The "Property = vehicle" row is the Wald p-value for equality of the two arms. *Panel A* is the baseline design (parcel and tract×year-month fixed effects, $N = 242{,}815$). *Panel B* absorbs parcel×era instead of parcel ($N = 123{,}133$), which drops parcels that do not resell within an era.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Forecastability and recurrence. Crime in the far ring predicts subsequent near-ring crime for every offense at twelve months and all but one at six, although its incremental explanatory power is modest. Table A13 examines whether past crime in the far ring (0.20–0.30 miles) predicts future crime in the near ring (0–0.05 miles). In forecasting regressions without fixed effects, far-ring crime significantly predicts near-ring crime at the five-percent level for twenty-one of twenty-two offenses at six months (all except stolen property) and for all twenty-two at twelve months. Its incremental explanatory power is modest: after controlling for past near-ring crime, the far ring's partial R^2 is at most 0.09 for any offense at either horizon. At the six-month horizon, fraud, weapons violations, domestic assault, and motor vehicle theft are forecast at least as well as burglary and vandalism but carry no detectable discount (Table A13).

Table A12 reports recurrence coefficients from regressions of post-sale near-ring crime on pre-sale near-ring crime, with parcel and tract $\times$ month fixed effects. The pre- and post-sale windows have equal lengths, matching the window used to report each offense's price estimate. The coefficient ρ measures how strongly past incidents predict future incidents within 0.05 miles of the same parcel, conditional on these fixed effects. It does not identify the causal effect of an incident on subsequent crime.

The forecasting and recurrence exercises measure different aspects of predictability. The first assesses the information in surrounding crime, including persistent differences across locations; the second measures recurrence after absorbing parcel and tract-by-month differences. Neither directly measures the change in buyers' expectations after learning of an incident.

Table A12: Crime Recurrence and Price Effects

Offense	Recurrence ρ (parcel + tract FE)	ρ, no parcel FE	δ (Table 2) [mo]
Homicide†	-0.026^{**}	0.070^{***}	-3.02^{**} [10]
	(0.012)	(0.006)	(1.38)
Burglary†	0.067^{***}	0.362^{***}	-0.24^{**} [8]
	(0.009)	(0.011)	(0.12)
Narcotics†	0.397^{***}	0.685^{***}	-0.29^{**} [10]
	(0.038)	(0.013)	(0.14)
Vandalism†	0.093^{***}	0.389^{***}	-0.17^{**} [6]
	(0.018)	(0.013)	(0.08)
Theft	0.237	–	0.01 [12]
	(0.158)		(0.02)
Motor-vehicle theft	0.140^{***}	–	-0.02 [12]
	(0.031)		(0.09)
Robbery	0.038^{***}	–	-0.03 [12]
	(0.012)		(0.13)
Assault (non-domestic)	0.280^{***}	–	-0.04 [12]
	(0.029)		(0.04)
Assault (domestic)	0.118^{***}	–	-0.19^{*} [12]
	(0.012)		(0.10)
All crime	0.314^{***}	–	–
	(0.113)		

Notes. Own-recurrence ρ of near-ring crime: the 0–0.05 mi incident count over the window *after* the sale regressed on the count over the matching window *before*, standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses; $N = 242{,}815$. For the four priced offenses ρ is measured over the same exposure window as δ (homicide and narcotics ten months, burglary eight, vandalism six; shown in the δ bracket); for the remaining offenses ρ is measured over six months and δ is shown at the twelve-month window (Table A3). The first ρ column uses parcel and tract × sale-month fixed effects; the second omits parcel fixed effects and is shown for the priced offenses. Parcel fixed effects bias ρ toward zero in short panels, whereas the no-fixed-effect estimate includes time-invariant level differences across properties and overstates recurrence, so the two bracket the within-parcel persistence; for homicide the within-parcel estimate is slightly negative while the no-fixed-effect estimate is positive. $\rho > 0$ means the offense recurs at the same property. δ is each offense's near–far close-price discount at its main window (Table 2; window length in brackets), unpriced offenses at the twelve-month reference window. †Priced offenses.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A13: Rational Forecast: The Discount Does Not Track Forecastable Risk

	0–6 months		0–12 months	
Offense	Joint F	Partial R^2	Joint F	Partial R^2
Homicide†	127.3^{***}	0.004	237.0^{***}	0.009
Burglary†	1580.8^{***}	0.047	1871.1^{***}	0.062
Narcotics†	411.1^{***}	0.038	251.5^{***}	0.037
Vandalism†	711.6^{***}	0.045	627.5^{***}	0.054
Theft	6.8^{***}	0.035	9.1^{***}	0.017
Motor-vehicle theft	789.0^{***}	0.047	721.1^{***}	0.052
Robbery	357.2^{***}	0.045	365.8^{***}	0.060
Assault (non-dom.)	103.6^{***}	0.030	99.3^{***}	0.025
Assault (domestic)	696.5^{***}	0.062	497.1^{***}	0.058
Arson	80.3^{***}	0.001	204.3^{***}	0.002
Bad checks	27.4^{***}	0.002	34.0^{***}	0.005
Disorderly conduct	129.5^{***}	0.012	132.0^{***}	0.020
Family offenses	109.4^{***}	0.002	148.8^{***}	0.004
Forgery	82.3^{***}	0.012	91.1^{***}	0.018
Fraud	102.1^{***}	0.087	75.4^{***}	0.075
Gambling	170.2^{***}	0.013	261.6^{***}	0.029
Liquor	30.3^{***}	0.001	34.5^{***}	0.003
Prostitution	18.0^{***}	0.007	10.9^{***}	0.007
Sex offenses	75.8^{***}	0.008	45.2^{***}	0.014
Stolen property	3.2^{*}	0.000	5.8^{**}	0.000
Trespass	22.4^{***}	0.019	20.2^{***}	0.022
Weapons	251.0^{***}	0.054	348.9^{***}	0.067

Notes. Estimated without fixed effects. Outcome: crime within 0.05 miles after the sale. Predictor: crime 0.20–0.30 miles away before the sale, controlling for the near ring's own prior crime. Windows: 0–6 and 0–12 months. F tests that the far-ring term is zero; partial R^2 is the share of the remaining variation the far ring explains. A predictive benchmark, not a causal estimate.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$. † priced offense.

E Perceived Safety

Recorded crime and perceived safety. Recorded crime and perceived safety do not align uniformly across offenses. I relate monthly police-sector safety scores to recorded crime during the preceding three months, using sector and calendar-month fixed effects. Figure A2 reports estimates from a regression including all twenty-two offenses jointly, scaled to a one-standard-deviation increase in each offense's log-transformed count. Homicide, burglary, and narcotics are associated with lower perceived safety, as are domestic assault and trespass, neither of which carries a consistent sale-price discount. Vandalism is positively associated with safety in the joint regression, although its association is not statistically significant when entered separately. For homicide, burglary, and narcotics, the joint estimates imply declines of approximately 0.04 points on the 0–10 safety scale per standard-deviation increase in crime. These associations describe residents' perceptions at the sector level; they do not measure buyers' awareness of individual incidents or establish why those incidents enter prices.

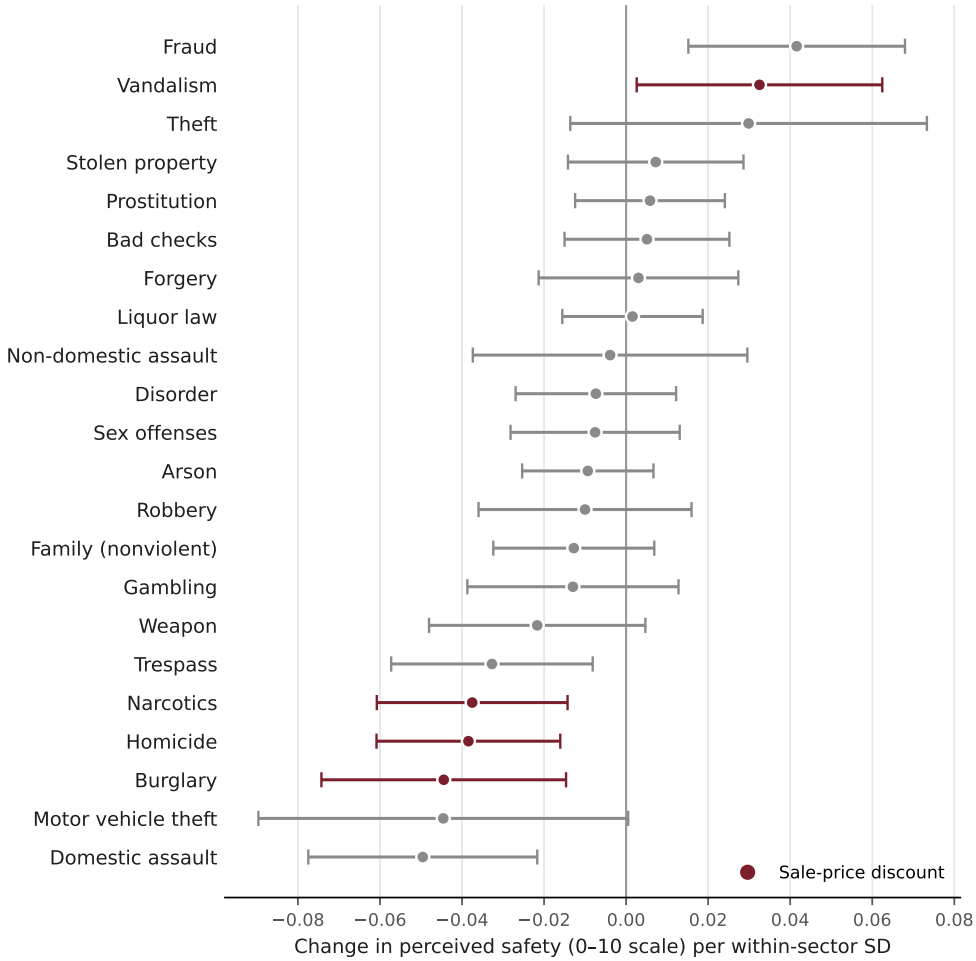


Figure A2: Recorded crime and perceived safety. The outcome is the safety score from the City of Chicago's Police Sentiment Scores (Chicago Data Portal, dataset 28me-84fj), a survey of residents' reported safety in their neighborhood, for each police sector and calendar month from November 2017 to December 2023. Scores are reported by calendar month and weighted to Census demographics; whether responses are pooled across months is not documented. All twenty-two offenses enter one regression jointly, each as $\log(1 + \text{recorded incidents})$ in the sector over the three complete months before the survey month, with sector and calendar-month fixed effects. Each coefficient is multiplied by the within-sector standard deviation of its regressor (deviations from the sector mean) and divided by ten, so it gives the change in safety on a 0–10 scale associated with a one-standard-deviation within-sector increase in that offense. Bars show 95% confidence intervals based on standard errors clustered by sector. $N = 4{,}958$ sector-months in 67 sectors. Two sectors in the survey, 2540 and 2550, correspond to no police beat and receive no recorded incidents; they are excluded. Maroon markers indicate the four offenses with sale-price discounts. Estimates are conditional associations, not causal effects.

F Price Formation and Agent Experience

Additional transaction-outcome results. Asking-price responses differ across offenses and fixed-effect specifications. Across all listings, burglary lowers asking prices at four to six months with parcel fixed effects (-0.20 percent at four months, s.e. 0.10), with no statistically significant response under parcel-by-era fixed effects. Disorderly conduct lowers asking prices across all listings, significantly at the five-percent level in four of twelve windows with parcel fixed effects, but in none with parcel-by-era fixed effects.

Homicide time-on-market estimates are predominantly positive under both specifications, but significant at the five-percent level only at seven to nine months with parcel-by-era fixed effects. Cumulative time-on-market estimates change sign across specifications and are never statistically significant (Table A15). Withdrawal estimates are positive in every window under both specifications, with significance only at two months (2.2 percentage points, s.e. 0.96).

For weapons violations, withdrawal estimates are significant at the five-percent level in eight windows with parcel fixed effects and three with parcel-by-era fixed effects. The post-off-market placebo is significant in at most one window (Table A16). Among listings that sell, asking-price estimates are negative in every window with parcel-by-era fixed effects and significant in three.

Trespass raises the probability that a listing is back on market at several windows under both fixed-effects specifications (0.40 percentage points at six months with parcel-by-era fixed effects, s.e. 0.14), but its placebo, crime after the list date, is also significant at several of the same windows (Online Appendix Figure OF7).

Table A14: Homicide and the Asking Price, Every Window

	Sold listings		All listings	
Window (months)	Parcel	Parcel×era	Parcel	Parcel×era
1	-10.28^{**}	-11.69^{*}	0.02	0.12
	(4.44)	(6.84)	(1.39)	(1.40)
2	−2.49	−5.32	1.05	0.73
	(3.55)	(5.60)	(1.12)	(1.17)
3	−0.90	−0.42	0.10	−0.33
	(2.97)	(4.22)	(0.99)	(1.03)
4	−2.38	−3.47	0.24	−0.09
	(2.43)	(3.29)	(0.87)	(0.92)
5	−1.70	−4.25	0.00	−0.25
	(1.97)	(2.72)	(0.79)	(0.90)
6	−0.95	−3.36	0.40	0.13
	(1.88)	(2.45)	(0.74)	(0.87)
7	−0.44	−2.38	0.49	0.41
	(1.77)	(2.36)	(0.68)	(0.79)
8	−0.89	−1.27	0.45	0.50
	(1.67)	(2.10)	(0.64)	(0.75)
9	−1.04	−1.05	0.16	0.41
	(1.49)	(1.86)	(0.60)	(0.71)
10	−0.31	−0.88	0.51	0.76
	(1.38)	(1.74)	(0.58)	(0.67)
11	−0.44	−1.63	0.38	0.51
	(1.24)	(1.59)	(0.57)	(0.65)
12	−0.35	−1.46	0.50	0.64
	(1.17)	(1.53)	(0.55)	(0.62)
Listings	235,030	119,425	985,586	820,301

Notes. Near–far estimate δ (percent) of homicide on the ln original asking price: incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles in the given number of months before the list date, with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve. Sold listings ended in a sale; all listings add those withdrawn. Parcel: parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × list-month fixed effects. Standard errors clustered by census tract. Listings: estimation sample (largest across windows). Each listing counts separately, so a home relisted after a withdrawal contributes several listings; the sample is 1,140,708 listings (523,916 sold, 616,792 withdrawn). Parcel fixed effects identify from homes with more than one listing in the sample (singletons are dropped), and parcel×era from homes listed more than once within an era.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A15: Homicide and Time on Market, Every Window

	Days on market		Cumulative days on market	
Window (months)	Parcel	Parcel×era	Parcel	Parcel×era
1	6.46	−8.97	2.61	12.49
	(11.91)	(16.44)	(13.39)	(18.83)
2	8.97	5.74	2.54	19.55
	(8.87)	(12.42)	(10.09)	(14.64)
3	4.38	8.43	−2.97	9.66
	(7.79)	(10.95)	(8.63)	(12.35)
4	3.08	13.63	−3.13	7.21
	(6.49)	(9.35)	(7.71)	(10.56)
5	−2.45	9.70	−5.41	4.82
	(6.31)	(8.82)	(7.27)	(9.51)
6	1.99	13.51	−2.56	5.24
	(5.70)	(8.43)	(6.59)	(9.06)
7	3.43	17.33**	−3.35	4.40
	(5.52)	(8.13)	(5.98)	(8.74)
8	2.36	14.54**	−2.22	6.68
	(5.13)	(6.85)	(5.58)	(7.48)
9	1.64	11.77**	−2.18	3.18
	(4.74)	(5.95)	(5.17)	(6.63)
10	0.35	9.05	−1.86	1.67
	(4.64)	(5.49)	(4.94)	(6.47)
11	0.06	10.58*	−1.34	3.37
	(4.44)	(5.56)	(4.87)	(6.31)
12	−0.20	8.43	−1.55	1.38
	(4.35)	(5.43)	(4.74)	(6.19)
Listings	235,655	119,296	235,978	119,617

Notes. Near–far estimate δ (percent) of homicide on ln days on market, sold listings: incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles in the given number of months before the list date, with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve. Days on market: the current listing (median 24 days; 16 in the parcel×era estimation sample); cumulative: summed across relistings of the same home (median 41; 27 in the parcel×era estimation sample). Parcel: parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × list-month fixed effects. Standard errors clustered by census tract. Listings: estimation sample (largest across windows). Each listing counts separately, so a home relisted after a withdrawal contributes several listings; the sample is 1,140,708 listings (523,916 sold, 616,792 withdrawn). Parcel fixed effects identify from homes with more than one listing in the sample (singletons are dropped), and parcel×era from homes listed more than once within an era.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A16: Weapons Violations: Every Window

Outcome	FE	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	11	12	Placebo
Ask (all listings)	Parcel	−0.13	−0.38	−0.26	−0.25	−0.19	−0.13	−0.16	−0.14	−0.11	−0.11	−0.09	−0.14	1/12
		(0.41)	(0.33)	(0.28)	(0.26)	(0.24)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.17)	
	Parcel×era	0.50	0.08	0.15	−0.02	0.02	−0.04	−0.09	−0.08	−0.04	−0.04	−0.06	−0.09	0/12
		(0.38)	(0.30)	(0.26)	(0.23)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.18)	(0.19)	(0.18)	
Ask (sold listings)	Parcel	−1.45	−0.73	−0.13	−0.30	−0.24	−0.15	−0.23	−0.18	0.19	0.37	0.11	−0.02	0/12
		(0.97)	(0.75)	(0.62)	(0.56)	(0.47)	(0.40)	(0.40)	(0.38)	(0.32)	(0.29)	(0.29)	(0.28)	
	Parcel×era	−2.88**	−1.85*	−1.29	−1.26*	−0.97*	−1.12**	−1.22**	−1.05*	−0.72	−0.34	−0.50	−0.54	0/12
		(1.23)	(1.05)	(0.81)	(0.67)	(0.57)	(0.57)	(0.60)	(0.58)	(0.51)	(0.46)	(0.48)	(0.45)	
Sale-to-list	Parcel	0.21	0.11	0.17	0.11	0.15	0.13	0.09	0.08	0.13	0.06	0.03	0.06	0/12
		(0.34)	(0.25)	(0.20)	(0.16)	(0.14)	(0.13)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.09)	(0.08)	(0.08)	
	Parcel×era	0.19	0.34	0.14	0.07	0.02	0.10	−0.01	−0.04	0.06	0.05	0.03	0.04	2/12
		(0.41)	(0.30)	(0.23)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.14)	(0.14)	(0.14)	(0.12)	(0.11)	(0.10)	(0.10)	
Pr(price cut) (pp)	Parcel	−2.56**	−0.99	−0.71	−0.55	−0.02	−0.09	0.02	0.15	−0.01	−0.03	0.05	0.05	0/12
		(1.25)	(0.89)	(0.73)	(0.62)	(0.61)	(0.54)	(0.48)	(0.45)	(0.43)	(0.41)	(0.41)	(0.37)	
	Parcel×era	−2.02	−1.17	−0.63	−0.28	0.06	−0.19	0.39	0.40	0.08	−0.07	0.00	0.02	0/12
		(1.61)	(1.19)	(0.93)	(0.76)	(0.66)	(0.57)	(0.56)	(0.52)	(0.49)	(0.43)	(0.43)	(0.40)	
Days on market	Parcel	−5.96*	−2.61	−2.12	−0.62	0.13	−0.78	−0.53	−0.52	−1.27	−1.10	−0.87	−0.79	0/12
		(3.21)	(2.64)	(1.94)	(1.59)	(1.28)	(1.18)	(1.08)	(1.04)	(0.95)	(0.87)	(0.79)	(0.79)	
	Parcel×era	−2.86	−0.33	0.33	0.98	1.32	−0.23	0.91	−0.12	−0.61	−0.67	−0.54	−0.91	2/12
		(3.90)	(3.52)	(2.28)	(2.08)	(1.72)	(1.67)	(1.74)	(1.54)	(1.43)	(1.39)	(1.22)	(1.17)	
Withdrawal (pp)	Parcel	0.94**	0.59*	0.66***	0.59***	0.69***	0.63***	0.50***	0.42**	0.34**	0.28*	0.24*	0.25*	1/12
		(0.41)	(0.31)	(0.24)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.18)	(0.17)	(0.15)	(0.15)	(0.14)	
	Parcel×era	0.91*	0.56	0.67**	0.44*	0.55**	0.46**	0.31	0.27	0.18	0.11	0.09	0.13	0/12
		(0.47)	(0.35)	(0.27)	(0.24)	(0.22)	(0.21)	(0.20)	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.17)	(0.17)	(0.16)	
Close	Parcel	−0.47	0.07	0.11	−0.51	−0.62	−0.39	−0.18	−0.12	−0.17	0.04	0.09	0.10	0/12
		(0.92)	(0.71)	(0.58)	(0.48)	(0.47)	(0.44)	(0.40)	(0.37)	(0.35)	(0.31)	(0.30)	(0.28)	
	Parcel×era	−0.99	−0.38	−0.51	−0.93*	−1.11**	−0.72	−0.59	−0.32	−0.32	−0.10	0.02	0.12	0/12
		(1.20)	(0.84)	(0.69)	(0.55)	(0.47)	(0.45)	(0.40)	(0.35)	(0.33)	(0.30)	(0.29)	(0.27)	

Notes. Near–far estimate δ for weapons violations (incidents within 0–0.05 miles against 0.20–0.30 miles) in the w months before the list date (w = column), with controls for incidents in the remaining months up to twelve; percent for log outcomes, percentage points for the price cut and withdrawal. Close: repeat sales, crime before the sale date. Parcel: parcel and tract × month fixed effects; parcel×era: parcel-by-era and tract × month fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract. Placebo: windows (of twelve) significant at 5% when crime after the outcome is fixed replaces crime before it (after the list date for the ask, after the close date for sale-to-list, price cut, days on market and close, after the off-market date for withdrawal). The price cut is a separate specification: crime during the listing (list date to close date), sold listings, with fixed effects for the number of months listed (one to twelve), parcel and tract × list-month fixed effects: 1.35** (0.53); its placebo, crime in the same number of months after the close date with tract × close-month fixed effects, is 0.49 (0.60).
*$p < 0.10$, **$p < 0.05$, ***$p < 0.01$.

F.1 Agent Experience: Further Checks

Three further checks refine these patterns. First, the asking-price response to listing-agent experience is negative for homicide, narcotics, and vandalism in nearly every window, both with parcel fixed effects and with agent fixed effects added (Table A17). Second, for narcotics it weakens once agents listing in a tract for the first time are allowed to differ, and for vandalism it comes mainly from those first listings (Table OA17).

Third, controlling for agents' total experience (all prior listings across tracts) leaves the listing-agent gradients for robbery, fraud, and both assaults significant in seven to nine of twelve windows (Table A19). For homicide, the listing-agent gradient remains significant only at ten months (-0.95 per standard deviation, s.e. 0.42). For narcotics, the local-experience gradient disappears; asking prices instead respond more to nearby narcotics incidents when the listing agent has more total experience, consistent with general pricing expertise (Table A18). On the buyer side, the homicide gradient remains significantly negative in five of twelve windows. However, crime after the sale produces a gradient of similar size under both fixed-effects specifications, weakening the interpretation that local experience helps agents inform buyers about prior incidents. Arson is the one offense with a positive and persistent buyer's-agent gradient: closing prices near arson are higher when the buyer's agent has more local experience, in six of twelve windows (seven with total experience controlled for). Arson is rare and often involves vacant buildings, so this pattern may reflect which buyers experienced agents represent, such as investors, rather than how they evaluate risk; the estimates are imprecise and do not distinguish these explanations.

Table A17: Agent Experience Gradient on Price

Offense	Discount (mean agent)	Experience gradient (per SD) no agent FE	agent FE	Sig. windows (no FE/FE)
A. Asking price (listing agent)				
Narcotics	−0.01 (0.04)	-0.15^{***}	-0.09^{**}	9/7
		(0.05)	(0.04)	
Vandalism	0.02 (0.03)	-0.11^{***}	-0.07^{**}	8/3
		(0.03)	(0.03)	
Homicide	0.18 (0.59)	−0.82	-1.01^{**}	0/7
		(0.63)	(0.49)	
Burglary	−0.05 (0.10)	−0.04	0.02	0/0
		(0.11)	(0.08)	
B. Closing price (buyer's agent)				
Homicide	−0.94 (0.79)	−0.01	-1.14^{**}	0/6
		(0.95)	(0.53)	
Narcotics	−0.09 (0.12)	-0.29^{**}	0.08	3/0
		(0.14)	(0.09)	
Vandalism	−0.13 (0.11)	−0.02	0.06	0/0
		(0.10)	(0.09)	
Burglary	−0.07 (0.08)	0.14^{*}	0.07	0/0
		(0.08)	(0.07)	

Notes. Gradient per standard deviation of agent experience ($E = \ln(1 +$ prior same-agent same-tract listings), s.d. 1.20 for listing agents and 0.71 for buyer's agents with agent fixed effects, 1.20 and 0.67 without; each on its own estimation sample), each offense and panel at the window whose experience-gradient estimate is closest to the median of its estimates significant at five percent (of all twelve if none is): listing side homicide 6, burglary 2, narcotics 9, vandalism 12; buyer side homicide 10, burglary 9, narcotics 7, vandalism 2 months. Panel A: listing agent, asking price. Panel B: buyer's agent, closing price. Discount: near–far effect at mean experience. Gradients are estimated without and with agent fixed effects; Sig. windows counts significant windows of twelve, without/with. Sample: listings with an agent identifier.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A18: Agent Local versus Total Experience, All Twenty-Two Offenses

Offense	Window	Local experience gradient (s.e.)	Total experience gradient (s.e.)	Sig. windows local / total
Panel A. Listing agent, asking price (N = 972,629)				
Priced				
Homicide	10	−0.79** (0.35)	−0.45 (0.48)	1/12 / 3/12
Burglary	8	0.02 (0.04)	−0.06 (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Narcotics	10	−0.02 (0.03)	−0.21*** (0.05)	0/12 / 12/12
Vandalism	6	−0.04 (0.03)	0.04 (0.04)	3/12 / 0/12
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	12	−0.02 (0.10)	−0.22 (0.18)	0/12 / 0/12
Sex offenses	12	−0.04 (0.06)	−0.15* (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Precise nulls				
Theft	12	−0.01 (0.00)	0.00 (0.01)	0/12 / 0/12
Motor vehicle theft	12	0.00 (0.02)	0.04 (0.05)	0/12 / 0/12
Robbery	12	−0.17*** (0.04)	0.00 (0.06)	9/12 / 1/12
Assault (non-domestic)	12	−0.05*** (0.01)	−0.04* (0.02)	7/12 / 2/12
Assault (domestic)	12	−0.06** (0.03)	−0.01 (0.04)	7/12 / 0/12
Criminal trespass	12	0.03 (0.03)	−0.06 (0.05)	0/12 / 0/12
Fraud	12	−0.05** (0.02)	0.05 (0.04)	9/12 / 0/12
Prostitution	12	−0.06** (0.03)	0.30** (0.15)	1/12 / 5/12
Forgery	12	−0.14 (0.09)	−0.02 (0.08)	0/12 / 1/12
Family offenses	12	−0.01 (0.15)	−0.20 (0.31)	0/12 / 0/12
Bad checks	12	−0.12 (0.10)	−0.17 (0.22)	0/12 / 0/12
Liquor law	12	−0.10 (0.13)	−0.14 (0.22)	0/12 / 0/12
Inconclusive				
Weapons	12	0.10* (0.06)	0.04 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Arson	12	0.03 (0.30)	0.03 (0.41)	0/12 / 1/12
Gambling	12	−0.65 (0.49)	−0.11 (0.73)	0/12 / 0/12
Stolen property	12	−0.41 (0.43)	0.33 (0.58)	0/12 / 0/12
Panel B. Buyer's agent, closing price (N = 186,510)				
Priced				
Homicide	10	−1.99** (0.86)	0.41 (0.46)	5/12 / 0/12
Burglary	8	0.15 (0.12)	−0.07 (0.05)	2/12 / 1/12
Narcotics	10	0.10 (0.11)	−0.05 (0.07)	1/12 / 0/12
Vandalism	6	0.15* (0.08)	−0.01 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	12	−0.64*** (0.20)	0.26* (0.16)	5/12 / 0/12
Sex offenses	12	−0.01 (0.14)	0.05 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Precise nulls				
Theft	12	0.01* (0.01)	−0.01*** (0.00)	1/12 / 11/12
Motor vehicle theft	12	−0.03 (0.08)	0.03 (0.03)	1/12 / 0/12
Robbery	12	0.12 (0.09)	−0.08 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Assault (non-domestic)	12	0.03 (0.03)	−0.01 (0.01)	3/12 / 0/12
Assault (domestic)	12	−0.10* (0.06)	0.06* (0.04)	3/12 / 0/12
Criminal trespass	12	0.05 (0.07)	0.00 (0.05)	1/12 / 0/12
Fraud	12	0.03 (0.05)	−0.04 (0.03)	0/12 / 0/12
Prostitution	12	−0.15* (0.09)	0.03 (0.24)	0/12 / 0/12
Forgery	12	−0.09 (0.13)	−0.15 (0.11)	0/12 / 0/12
Family offenses	12	−0.10 (0.29)	0.40 (0.43)	0/12 / 0/12
Bad checks	12	−0.35 (0.28)	0.20 (0.18)	0/12 / 3/12
Liquor law	12	0.19 (0.51)	0.13 (0.27)	0/12 / 1/12
Inconclusive				
Weapons	12	0.07 (0.17)	0.03 (0.09)	0/12 / 0/12
Arson	12	2.74*** (1.01)	−0.97 (0.66)	7/12 / 1/12
Gambling	12	−0.65 (1.91)	−0.74 (0.82)	0/12 / 1/12
Stolen property	12	0.48 (1.39)	−0.55 (0.64)	0/12 / 0/12

Notes. Local experience $E = \ln(1 + \text{prior same-agent listings in the tract})$ and total experience T (all prior listings) enter the same equation, each interacted with near and far exposure. Gradients are (near $\times E -$ far $\times E) \times 100$ and (near $\times T -$ far $\times T) \times 100$ per log unit of E and per standard deviation of T, at each offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months; 12 months for other offenses); last column counts windows significant at five percent. Design as in Table 4. Correlation of E and T: 0.36 (listing), 0.37 (buyer).
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A19: Agent Local Experience and Price Responses, All Twenty-Two Offenses, All Windows

	Local experience			+ Total experience
Offense	Most negative (s.e.)	Most positive (s.e.)	Sig. windows (−/+)	Sig. windows (−/+)
Panel A. Listing agent, asking price				
Homicide	−1.16*** (0.40)	−0.04 (0.62)	7/0	1/0
Burglary	−0.02 (0.04)	0.08 (0.06)	0/0	0/0
Narcotics	−0.13** (0.06)	−0.06 (0.10)	7/0	0/0
Vandalism	−0.07** (0.03)	−0.02 (0.08)	3/0	3/0
Robbery	−0.27*** (0.06)	−0.08 (0.13)	10/0	9/0
Domestic assault	−0.30*** (0.09)	−0.05 (0.04)	8/0	7/0
Non-domestic assault	−0.13*** (0.04)	−0.04 (0.03)	9/0	7/0
Fraud	−0.10** (0.04)	−0.05** (0.02)	9/0	9/0
Arson	−0.09 (0.49)	0.78 (0.89)	0/0	0/0
Bad checks	−0.60 (0.37)	−0.10 (0.24)	2/0	0/0
Disorderly conduct	−0.26 (0.19)	0.15 (0.28)	0/0	0/0
Offenses against family	−0.28 (0.21)	0.00 (0.35)	0/0	0/0
Forgery	−0.24* (0.14)	−0.08 (0.23)	0/0	0/0
Gambling	−1.93 (1.89)	−0.31 (0.96)	3/0	0/0
Liquor law	−0.78* (0.44)	−0.08 (0.18)	0/0	0/0
Motor vehicle theft	0.02 (0.05)	0.21** (0.10)	0/1	0/0
Prostitution	−0.26 (0.29)	0.12 (0.10)	0/0	1/0
Sex offenses	−0.10 (0.07)	0.15 (0.22)	0/0	0/0
Stolen property	−1.14 (0.79)	−0.22 (1.07)	0/0	0/0
Larceny/theft	−0.01* (0.01)	−0.00 (0.00)	0/0	0/0
Trespass	−0.04 (0.07)	0.04 (0.05)	0/0	0/0
Weapons violations	0.11 (0.08)	0.25** (0.13)	0/3	0/0
Panel B. Buyer's agent, closing price				
Homicide	−4.45** (1.85)	−0.68 (0.63)	6/0	5/0
Burglary	0.02 (0.10)	0.38** (0.19)	0/1	0/2
Narcotics	−0.04 (0.33)	0.27* (0.15)	0/1	0/1
Vandalism	−0.03 (0.10)	0.10** (0.04)	0/2	0/1
Robbery	−0.03 (0.06)	0.30 (0.20)	0/0	0/1
Domestic assault	−0.13 (0.09)	0.10 (0.19)	0/0	3/0
Non-domestic assault	0.01 (0.02)	0.32*** (0.11)	0/3	0/3
Fraud	−0.09 (0.05)	0.04 (0.03)	0/0	0/0
Arson	1.17* (0.62)	3.17** (1.35)	0/6	0/7
Bad checks	−0.43 (1.18)	0.24 (0.65)	0/0	0/0
Disorderly conduct	−0.34** (0.13)	0.04 (0.25)	4/0	5/0
Offenses against family	−0.42 (0.82)	0.14 (0.29)	0/0	0/0
Forgery	−0.27 (0.41)	0.12 (0.18)	0/0	0/0
Gambling	−0.58 (1.28)	9.97 (11.54)	0/0	0/0
Liquor law	−0.24 (0.40)	0.99 (1.34)	0/0	0/0
Motor vehicle theft	0.00 (0.04)	0.34*** (0.10)	0/4	0/1
Prostitution	−0.17 (0.11)	0.97*** (0.31)	0/1	0/0
Sex offenses	−0.34 (0.37)	0.21 (0.18)	0/0	0/0
Stolen property	−1.63 (1.58)	3.19 (1.97)	0/0	0/0
Larceny/theft	−0.01 (0.01)	0.01 (0.01)	0/0	0/1
Trespass	−0.00 (0.07)	0.18 (0.12)	0/1	0/1
Weapons violations	−0.22 (0.21)	0.12 (0.35)	0/0	0/0

Notes. Near–far effect (0–0.05 vs. 0.20–0.30 miles) interacted with agent local experience, $E = \ln(1 +$ prior same-agent listings in the tract). Panel A: listing agent, log asking price. Panel B: buyer's agent, log closing price. Gradient: change in the near–far effect, 100× log points, per standard deviation of E (s.d. 1.20 for listing agents and 0.71 for buyer's agents, each on its estimation sample); negative values mean the price response to nearby crime is more negative when the agent has more local experience. Most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve exposure windows (one to twelve months); significant windows: number of the twelve windows significant at five percent, negative/positive. + Total experience adds the agent's total experience (all prior listings, in any tract) interacted with near and far exposure, holding it fixed so the gradient separates knowledge of the neighborhood from general expertise. Parcel, tract × month, and agent fixed effects; standard errors clustered by tract. Panel A $N = 972{,}629$; Panel B $N = 186{,}510$.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

G Robustness

Table A20: Priced Discounts with Prior Neighborhood and Housing-Market Controls

	Homicide (10)	Burglary (8)	Narcotics (10)	Vandalism (6)
Baseline (no controls)	-3.02^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Building permits	-3.01^{**}	-0.25^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Distinct locations reported vacant	-3.01^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ 311 service requests (three types)	-3.02^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Active business licenses	-3.02^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
+ Tree canopy	-3.00^{**}	-0.25^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
All five neighborhood controls	-2.98^{**}	-0.26^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
Five housing-market controls jointly	-2.98^{**}	-0.24^{**}	-0.29^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.38)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)
All ten controls	-2.94^{**}	-0.26^{**}	-0.30^{**}	-0.17^{**}
	(1.37)	(0.12)	(0.14)	(0.08)

Notes. Near–far estimates δ (percent per incident) at each offense's main window: homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, and vandalism 6 months. All specifications include parcel and tract×month fixed effects; standard errors clustered by census tract are in parentheses. $N = 242{,}815$ throughout. Row 1 reproduces the main-window estimates of Table A3. Subsequent rows add neighborhood controls individually and jointly, housing-market controls jointly, and all ten controls. Each control enters separately for the near (0–0.05 miles) and far (0.20–0.30 miles) rings. Permits, distinct locations reported vacant, and 311 requests are counted 361–720 days before closing; business licenses are those active at the start of that period. These measures enter as $\ln(1 + x)$; tree canopy enters as percent cover from the last annual raster completed before the crime window opens. Housing-market controls, measured over the same twelve months, comprise neighboring repeat-sale price changes, the distressed-sale share, the sale-to-list ratio, days on market, and new listings. Unavailable controls are set to zero with missing-value indicators to preserve the sample. Appendix A.2 provides construction details. $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Table A21: Hedonic and Repeat-Sales Estimates

	Hedonic		Repeat sales	
Offense	All sales	Repeat-sales homes	(parcel FE)	Window
Priced offenses				
Homicide	-1.86^{***}	-2.63^{**}	-3.02^{**}	10
	(0.71)	(1.07)	(1.38)	
Burglary	-0.47^{***}	-0.32^{**}	-0.24^{**}	8
	(0.13)	(0.15)	(0.12)	
Narcotics	-0.52^{***}	-0.51^{***}	-0.29^{**}	10
	(0.09)	(0.13)	(0.14)	
Vandalism	-0.62^{***}	-0.48^{***}	-0.17^{**}	6
	(0.11)	(0.13)	(0.08)	
No discount under repeat sales				
Theft	0.01	0.05	0.01	12
	(0.08)	(0.08)	(0.02)	
Motor-vehicle theft	-0.46^{**}	-0.44^{**}	-0.02	12
	(0.20)	(0.19)	(0.09)	
Robbery	-0.72^{***}	-0.70^{***}	-0.03	12
	(0.20)	(0.23)	(0.13)	
Assault (non-dom.)	-0.52^{***}	-0.38^{***}	-0.04	12
	(0.09)	(0.10)	(0.04)	
Assault (dom.)	-0.70^{***}	-0.70^{***}	-0.19^{*}	12
	(0.10)	(0.13)	(0.10)	

Notes. Each cell reports $\delta = (\beta_{\text{near}} - \beta_{\text{far}}) \times 100$, the near–far price effect in percent, with standard errors clustered by tract in parentheses, at the offense's main window (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months; 12 for the other offenses). Regressors are the 0–0.05 and 0.20–0.30 mi counts in the w months before sale and the same-ring counts in months $(w{+}1)$–12. The hedonic columns replace the parcel fixed effect with observed characteristics (bedrooms, bathrooms, ln living area, ln lot size, age, stories, property type, new construction, and units, with missing indicators) plus tract×month fixed effects: *All sales* uses all sold listings (N = 490,563); *Repeat-sales homes* uses the same sales as the repeat-sales column (N = 242,815). *Repeat sales* is the baseline specification with parcel and tract×month fixed effects.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

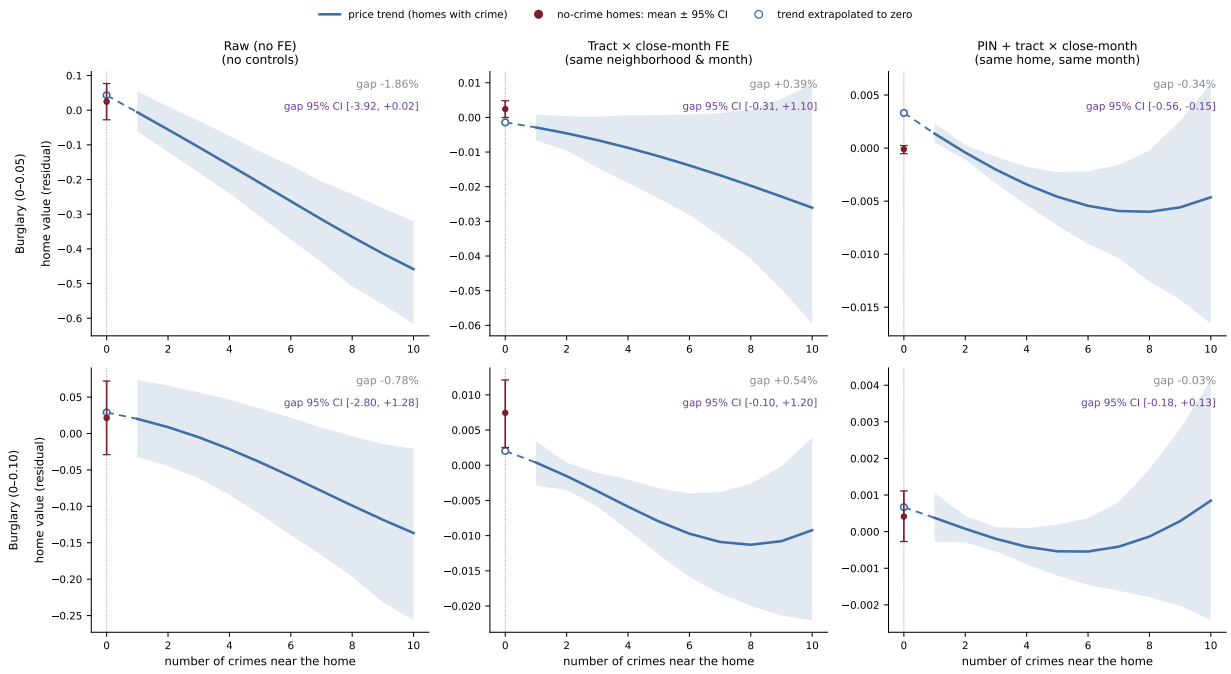


Figure A3: Burglary: Boundary Diagnostic at Two Near Rings

Notes. Top row: near ring 0–0.05 miles; bottom row: 0–0.10 miles. Columns add fixed effects from left to right; the right column is the baseline design (parcel and tract×close-month fixed effects). Blue: price trend for homes with nearby burglary; red: homes with none (mean and 95 percent interval); open circle: the trend extrapolated to zero. The gap shown in each panel is the mean residual price of no-crime homes minus the fitted trend extrapolated to zero; the formal test is the boundary-dummy coefficient in Table OA29 (−0.98, s.e. 0.32 at 0–0.05 miles; −0.06, s.e. 0.27 at 0–0.10 miles). Fewer than one home in ten (9 percent) has more than five incidents within 0.10 miles, so the trend beyond that point is imprecise.

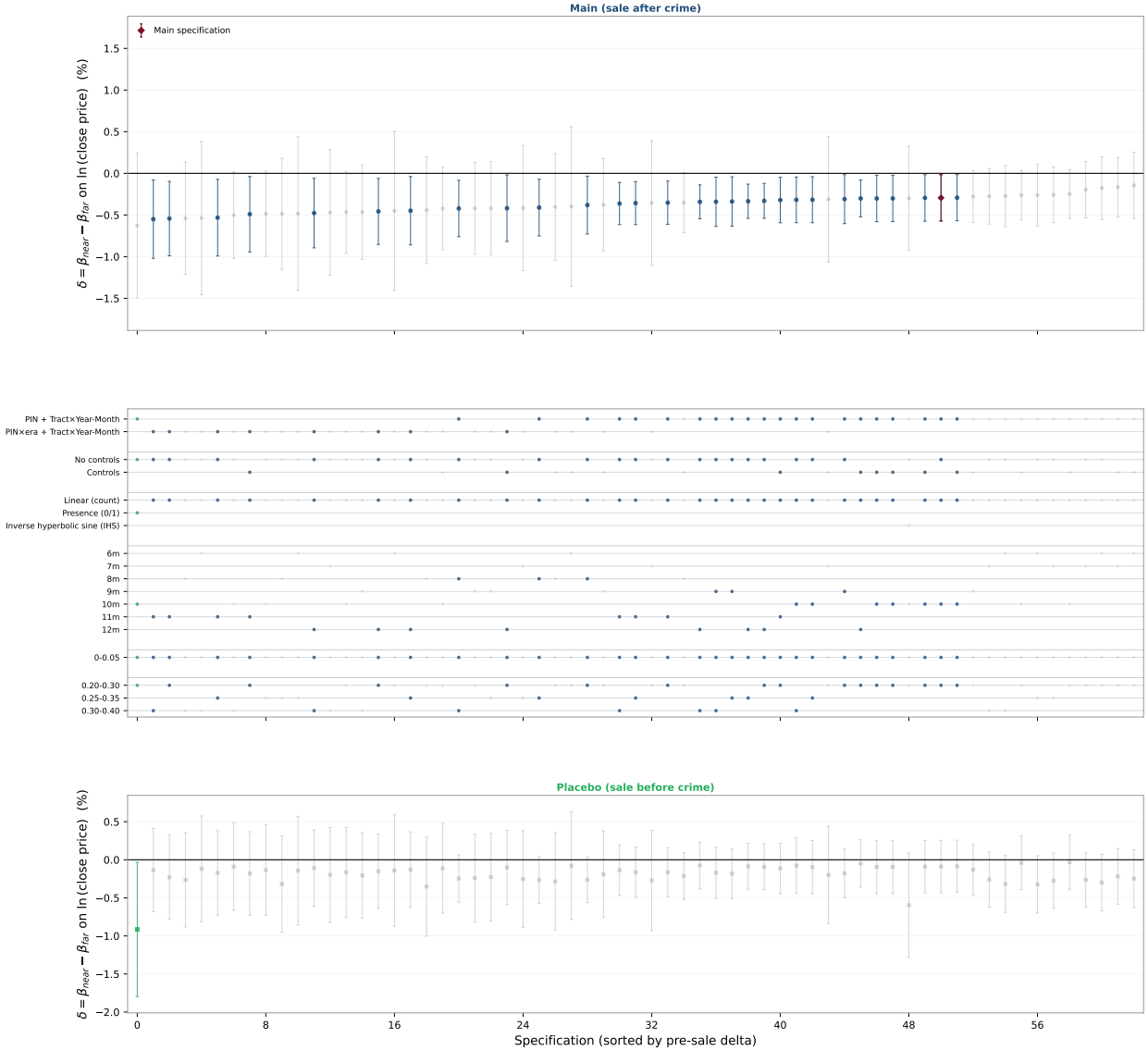


Figure A4: Narcotics: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a ten-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Narcotics: 29/63 significant at 5%, placebo 1/63.

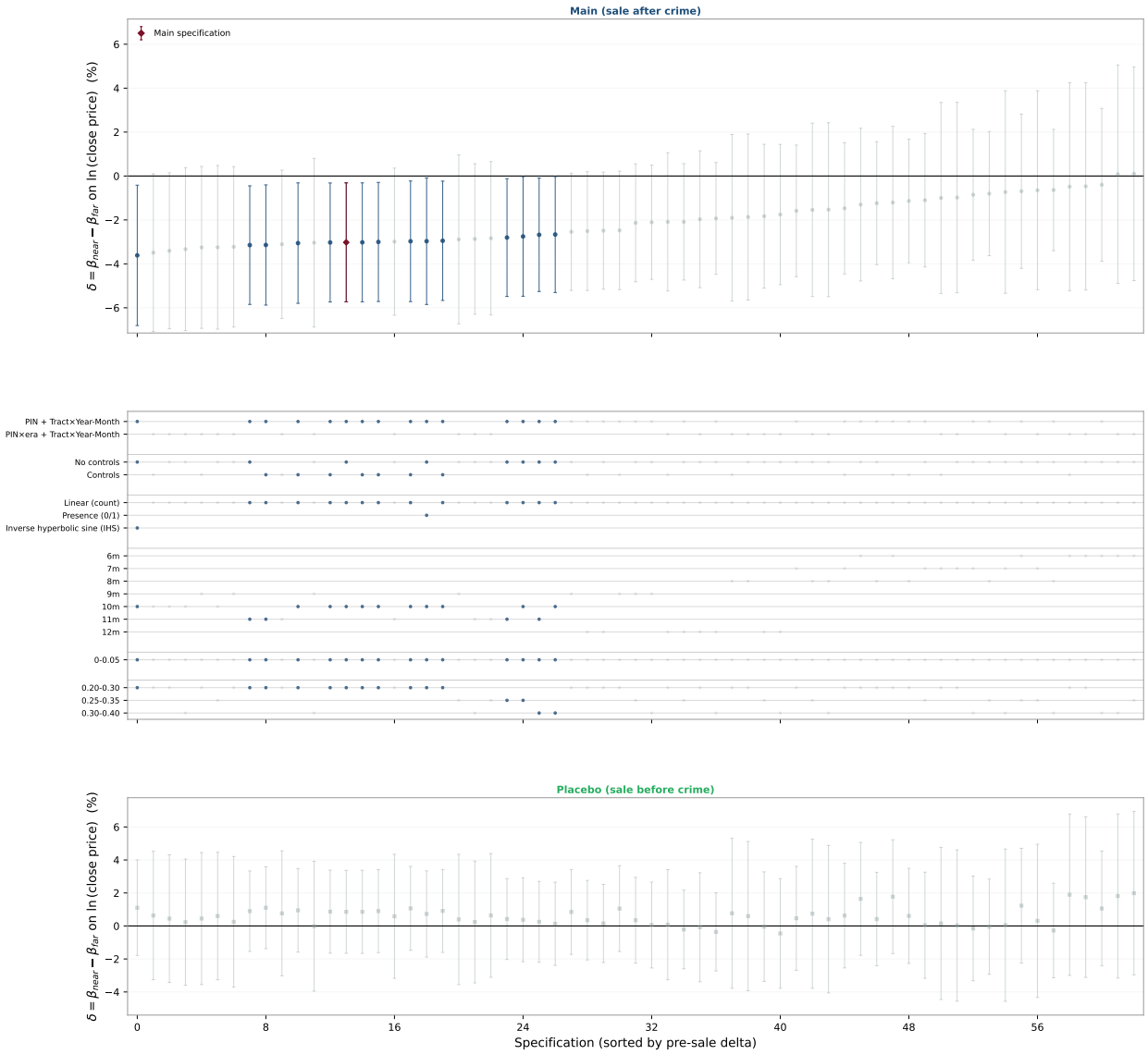


Figure A5: Homicide: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and a ten-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Homicide: 15/63 significant at 5%, placebo 0/63.

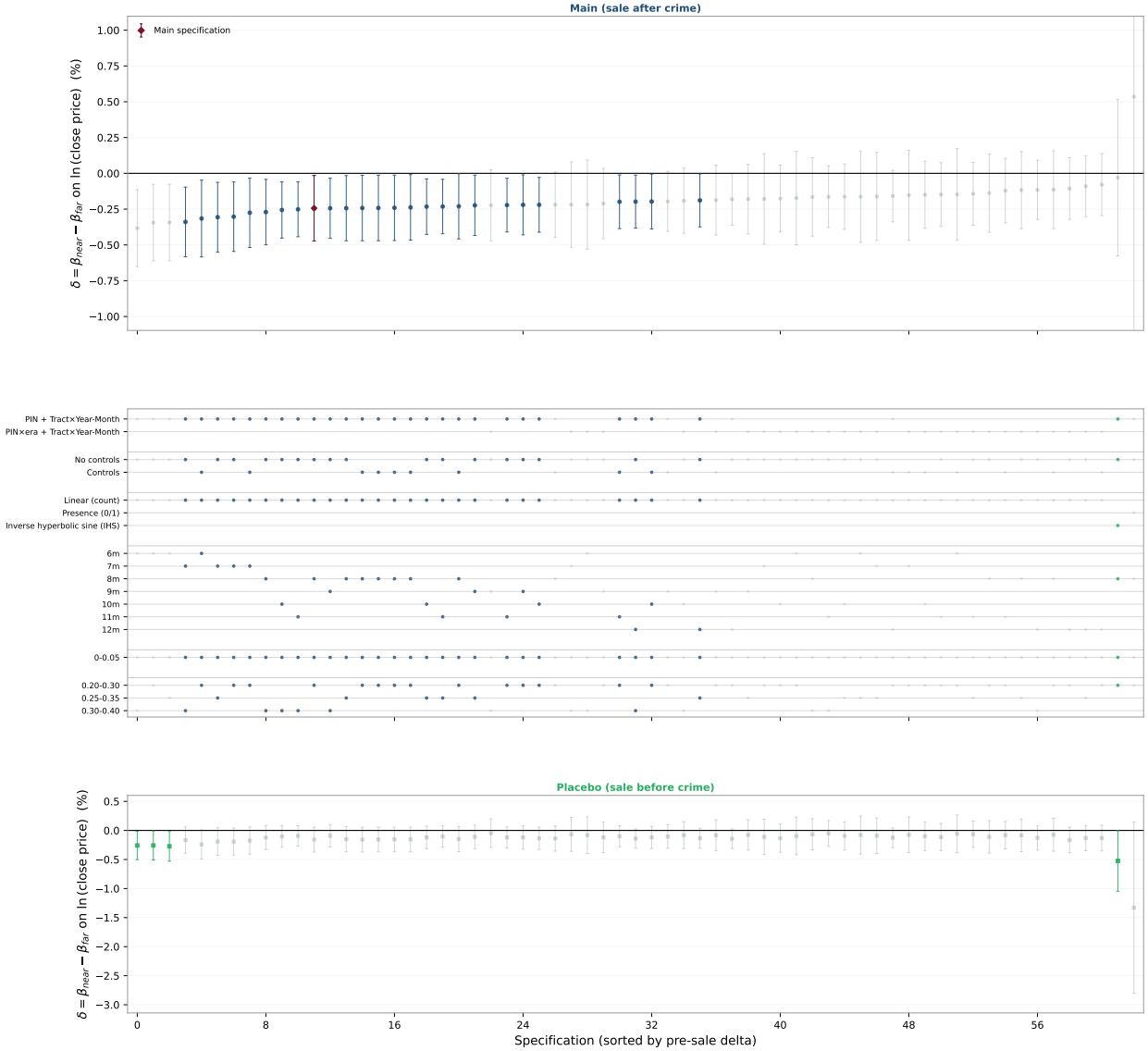


Figure A6: Burglary: Sale-Price Discount Across Specifications

Notes. The 63 specifications vary the exposure window (six to twelve months), the fixed effects (parcel + tract×month, or parcel×era + tract×month), the comparison ring (0.20–0.30, 0.25–0.35, or 0.30–0.40 mile), the functional form (linear count, presence indicator, or inverse hyperbolic sine), and the predetermined controls (none, all five jointly, or one at a time); see Section 6.3. Top panel: δ (%) with 95 percent intervals, sorted from most to least negative. The baseline specification is the linear count with parcel + tract×month fixed effects, the 0.20–0.30 mile comparison ring, no controls, and an eight-month window. Middle panel: specification choices. Bottom panel: post-sale placebo. Burglary: 29/63 significant at 5%, placebo 4/63.

H Rental Prices

I apply the same near–far design to lease listings, with the log asking rent as the outcome (Table A22). Three offenses lower the asking rent, but the estimates are sensitive to the fixed effects: burglary under parcel fixed effects (6 of 12 windows at five percent), sex offenses consistently under parcel-by-era fixed effects (7 of 12 windows), but rarely under parcel fixed effects (1 of 12), and liquor violations only under parcel-by-era fixed effects (4 of 12); all three survive the post-date placebo (0 of 12 windows). Narcotics leaves rents unchanged under parcel fixed effects, where its post-date placebo is clean, though the placebo fails under parcel-by-era fixed effects; homicide is estimated too imprecisely in the lease sample to sign, in line with Klimova and Lee (2014), who find no effect of nearby murders on Sydney rents. Narcotics instead appears in the leasing frictions of Panel B: it raises the probability a listing is a relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) in 11 of 12 windows under each specification, and the result holds across all twenty-two robustness specifications (Figure OF8), with a null future-crime placebo. The full offense battery is in Table A23.

Table A22: The Rental Market

	PIN			PIN×era		
Offense	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)
A. Asking rent (percent)						
Priced (asking rent lower; identifying FE in note)						
Burglary	−0.34*** (0.12)	−0.07 (0.06)	6/12 (0)	−0.30** (0.12)	−0.04 (0.07)	1/12 (0)
Sex offenses	−0.29* (0.15)	−0.21* (0.13)	1/12 (0)	−0.32 (0.27)	−0.16 (0.14)	7/12 (0)
Liquor law	−0.23 (0.26)	−0.01 (0.13)	0/12 (0)	−0.30*** (0.07)	0.09 (0.49)	4/12 (0)
Precise nulls (rent effect near zero, tightly estimated)						
Narcotics†	0.01 (0.06)	0.10 (0.08)	0/12 (0)	0.02 (0.17)	0.14 (0.09)	0/12 (4)
Vandalism	−0.06 (0.06)	0.05 (0.07)	0/12 (0)	−0.03 (0.04)	0.09 (0.07)	0/12 (1)
Prostitution	−0.16 (0.10)	0.00 (0.17)	0/12 (1)	−0.33*** (0.12)	−0.03 (0.14)	1/12 (0)
Imprecise / underpowered						
Homicide	−0.55 (0.61)	1.03 (1.20)	0/12 (0)	−0.59 (0.59)	1.16 (1.22)	0/12 (0)
B. Leasing frictions						
Narcotics, relisting (pp)	0.18** (0.08)	0.97*** (0.34)	11/12 (0)	0.27*** (0.08)	1.28*** (0.40)	11/12 (0)
Homicide, time on market (%)	1.01 (4.65)	12.19 (11.00)	0/12 (0)	1.54 (3.98)	19.63* (11.70)	4/12 (0)
Burglary, withdrawn (pp)†	−1.06** (0.46)	−0.02 (0.16)	3/12 (0)	−1.12** (0.53)	−0.08 (0.15)	5/12 (2)

Notes. Near–far estimates on lease listings, 2007–2025, tract × listing-month fixed effects, clustered by tract (118,849 listings with parcel fixed effects; 98,813 with parcel × era). For each specification, Min and Max are the most negative and most positive estimates across the twelve windows, followed by the number significant at 5%; in parentheses, windows with a significant post-listing placebo; †, placebo fails in two or more. Panel A: log asking rent. Panel B: relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) and withdrawal (percentage points), time on market (percent). $^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Listing agents' local experience is associated with shorter marketing times near narcotics incidents. Table OA19 shows how the listing agent's experience in the tract moderates the effect of nearby crime on rental listing outcomes. Near narcotics incidents, more experienced agents lease units faster, with days on market about 0.6 percent shorter per standard deviation of experience, and set slightly lower asking rents; the average rental discount stays small. The tenant's agent's experience is unrelated to asking rents or days on market in any window.

Specification curves: rents The narcotics association with relisting persists across all twenty-two rental specifications. The rental specification curves cover twenty-two specifications: eleven exposure windows (two to twelve months) under each of two fixed-effect designs (parcel, and parcel by era). The narcotics estimate on the probability a lease listing is a relisting (the unit had an earlier spell on the market) is positive and significant in all twenty-two, with no significant placebo (Figure OF8). The sex-offense estimate on the asking rent is significant in eight of the same twenty-two specifications, with no significant placebo (Figure OF9).

Table A23: The Rental Market: Full Offense Battery

	PIN			PIN×era		
Offense	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)	Min (%)	Max (%)	Sig. (plac.)
A. Asking rent (percent)						
Priced (asking rent lower; identifying FE in note)						
Burglary	−0.34*** (0.12)	−0.07 (0.06)	6/12 (0)	−0.30** (0.12)	−0.04 (0.07)	1/12 (0)
Sex offenses	−0.29* (0.15)	−0.21* (0.13)	1/12 (0)	−0.32 (0.27)	−0.16 (0.14)	7/12 (0)
Liquor law	−0.23 (0.26)	−0.01 (0.13)	0/12 (0)	−0.30*** (0.07)	0.09 (0.49)	4/12 (0)
No consistent rent effect (near zero; prostitution's parcel×era minimum is significant at one window)						
Narcotics†	0.01 (0.06)	0.10 (0.08)	0/12 (0)	0.02 (0.17)	0.14 (0.09)	0/12 (4)
Vandalism	−0.06 (0.06)	0.05 (0.07)	0/12 (0)	−0.03 (0.04)	0.09 (0.07)	0/12 (1)
Larceny/theft†	−0.01** (0.00)	0.00 (0.01)	6/12 (2)	−0.02 (0.01)	0.00 (0.01)	0/12 (0)
Assault (non-dom.)	−0.06 (0.04)	−0.03 (0.02)	2/12 (0)	−0.05 (0.04)	−0.01 (0.02)	0/12 (0)
Motor-vehicle theft	−0.12 (0.08)	−0.01 (0.04)	0/12 (0)	−0.13 (0.09)	−0.01 (0.03)	0/12 (0)
Robbery	0.01 (0.04)	0.07 (0.06)	0/12 (0)	0.04 (0.05)	0.12 (0.11)	0/12 (0)
Assault (dom.)†	−0.03 (0.05)	0.02 (0.09)	0/12 (5)	−0.06 (0.11)	0.03 (0.08)	0/12 (0)
Fraud	−0.01 (0.04)	0.08 (0.06)	0/12 (0)	0.03 (0.04)	0.07*** (0.03)	0/12 (1)
Trespass	−0.17* (0.10)	0.01 (0.09)	0/12 (0)	−0.13 (0.10)	0.05 (0.10)	0/12 (0)
Forgery	−0.08 (0.15)	0.12 (0.10)	0/12 (0)	0.06 (0.16)	0.22 (0.16)	0/12 (0)
Prostitution	−0.16 (0.10)	0.00 (0.17)	0/12 (1)	−0.33*** (0.12)	−0.03 (0.14)	1/12 (0)
Imprecise / underpowered (too sparse near leases to sign)						
Homicide	−0.55 (0.61)	1.03 (1.20)	0/12 (0)	−0.59 (0.59)	1.16 (1.22)	0/12 (0)
Disorderly conduct	−0.40 (0.30)	0.15 (0.25)	0/12 (0)	−0.25 (0.16)	0.40 (0.29)	0/12 (0)
Weapons	0.02 (0.26)	0.17 (0.22)	0/12 (0)	−0.08 (0.23)	0.22 (0.22)	0/12 (0)
Arson	−0.21 (0.47)	0.20 (0.47)	0/12 (0)	−0.27 (0.43)	0.54 (0.85)	0/12 (0)
Bad checks†	−0.03 (0.18)	0.82** (0.37)	0/12 (3)	−0.16 (0.17)	0.67 (0.43)	0/12 (0)
Family (non-violent)	0.07 (0.22)	0.36* (0.21)	0/12 (0)	0.11 (0.38)	0.68 (0.50)	0/12 (0)
Kidnapping†	−0.70* (0.36)	−0.30 (0.27)	0/12 (3)	−0.62 (0.72)	0.05 (0.29)	0/12 (0)
Embezzlement	−0.39 (0.34)	0.96 (0.94)	0/12 (0)	−0.06 (0.48)	0.94 (0.83)	0/12 (0)
Child pornography/obscenity	−0.02 (0.56)	0.40 (0.74)	0/12 (0)	−0.34 (1.06)	0.34 (0.51)	0/12 (0)
Extortion†	−1.30* (0.70)	−0.28 (0.33)	2/12 (3)	−1.13** (0.51)	−0.19 (0.26)	2/12 (5)
Gambling†	−1.50 (1.44)	3.54 (2.25)	0/12 (4)	−1.25 (1.51)	2.88 (4.05)	0/12 (12)

Notes. Asking-rent near–far estimates on lease listings for the full offense battery, the near ring against the 0.20–0.30 mile far ring, pooled 2007–2025 with tract×listing-month fixed effects, clustered by tract (118,849 listings under parcel fixed effects; 98,813 under parcel×era). Under each fixed-effect specification, parcel (PIN) and parcel×era, Min and Max are the most negative and most positive estimate across the twelve exposure windows (standard error in parentheses), and Sig. counts windows significant at five percent; the parenthetical is the number of windows in which the post-date placebo (crime after the listing) is significant. A dagger (†) marks an offense whose placebo fails in two or more windows, shown only for completeness. Priced: asking rent lower, two or more significant windows under an identifying fixed-effect specification with a clean placebo. The compact version is Table A22. "Child pornography/obscenity" is predominantly child pornography (IUCR 1582). Non-domestic assault meets the window rule (2/12, clean placebo), but its estimates are small (about −0.06%) and it is not counted as priced.

$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

I Heterogeneity across Eras

The point estimates differ across macroeconomic eras, but the differences are not statistically significant (Table A24). Burglary and vandalism discounts are larger in the 2009–2013 foreclosure

crisis, homicide's in the 2014–2025 recovery, and narcotics is negative in each era (crisis -0.33, s.e. 0.23; recovery -0.52, s.e. 0.31). For no priced offense does a Wald test reject equal crisis and recovery discounts ($p = 0.41$ for homicide, 0.26 for burglary, 0.63 for narcotics, and 0.10 for vandalism). The crisis estimates for rare offenses rest on few within-crisis repeat sales and are imprecise, as their standard errors show.

Table A24: Price Effects of Crime by Era

Offense	Identifying parcels	Pooled 2007–25	Crisis 2009–13	Recovery 2014–25
Priced				
Homicide	2,630	-3.02^{**}	-0.07	-4.12^{***}
		(1.38)	(4.73)	(1.47)
Narcotics	32,563	-0.29^{**}	-0.33	-0.52^{*}
		(0.14)	(0.23)	(0.31)
Burglary	55,782	-0.24^{**}	-0.49^{*}	-0.18
		(0.12)	(0.25)	(0.14)
Vandalism	64,964	-0.17^{**}	-0.54^{**}	-0.11
		(0.08)	(0.25)	(0.10)
Suggestive				
Disorderly conduct	4,436	-0.65	-1.77	0.50
		(0.63)	(1.21)	(0.74)
Sex offenses	22,139	-0.26	0.84	-0.27
		(0.25)	(0.83)	(0.24)
Precise nulls				
Larceny/theft	82,677	0.02	0.00	0.03^{***}
		(0.01)	(0.05)	(0.01)
Motor vehicle theft	61,445	0.07	0.00	0.09
		(0.09)	(0.27)	(0.10)
Assault (non-dom.)	46,861	-0.03	-0.21	0.02
		(0.09)	(0.26)	(0.09)
Family (non-violent)	7,862	1.49^{**}	0.99	2.05^{**}
		(0.60)	(1.08)	(0.86)
Assault (domestic)	54,331	-0.03	0.18	-0.02
		(0.12)	(0.28)	(0.14)
Trespass	7,409	-0.09	-0.49	0.05
		(0.38)	(0.93)	(0.39)
Robbery	46,644	0.01	0.01	-0.04
		(0.13)	(0.30)	(0.14)
Liquor law	4,308	0.51	0.19	0.40
		(0.36)	(0.80)	(0.31)
Parcel FE		Yes	Yes	Yes
Tract × year-month FE		Yes	Yes	Yes
Crime × era interaction		No	Yes	Yes

Notes. δ as in Table 2. Offense groups as in Table 2: *priced*, a significant discount at two or more consecutive windows; *suggestive*, a significant discount at only one window; *precise nulls*, no significant discount and intervals that rule out a one-percent discount in at least nine of twelve windows; *inconclusive*, no significant discount but intervals too wide to rule out a one-percent discount. Crisis (2009–2013) and recovery (2014–2025) effects come from an era-interacted model with 2007–2008 as the base; the pooled column is the full-sample effect and need not lie between them. The priced offenses are shown at their main windows (homicide 10, burglary 8, narcotics 10, vandalism 6 months) and the other offenses at the window of their median estimate in Table 2 (the sixth-lowest of the twelve pooled estimates), held fixed across the three columns; identifying parcels (exposure varies within parcel) are counted at that window, whereas Table 2 counts them at twelve months. The crisis and recovery columns report per-era near–far levels, not deviations from the pooled column.
$^{*}p < 0.10$, $^{**}p < 0.05$, $^{***}p < 0.01$.

Supplementary Material

The *Online Appendix* contains additional tables, figures, and data details.